

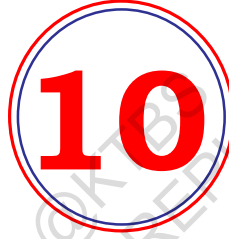


Government of Karnataka

MATHEMATICS

Textbook for Class X

Part - II



1062



राष्ट्रीय शैक्षिक अनुसंधान और प्रशिक्षण परिषद्
NATIONAL COUNCIL OF EDUCATIONAL RESEARCH AND TRAINING

Karnataka Textbook Society (R.)

6th Cross, Malleshwaram, Bengaluru - 560003

Constitution of India

Part IV A (Article 51 A)

Fundamental Duties

It shall be the duty of every citizen of India —

- (a) to abide by the Constitution and respect its ideals and institutions, the National Flag and the National Anthem;
- (b) to cherish and follow the noble ideals which inspired our national struggle for freedom;
- (c) to uphold and protect the sovereignty, unity and integrity of India;
- (d) to defend the country and render national service when called upon to do so;
- (e) to promote harmony and the spirit of common brotherhood amongst all the people of India transcending religious, linguistic and regional or sectional diversities; to renounce practices derogatory to the dignity of women;
- (f) to value and preserve the rich heritage of our composite culture;
- (g) to protect and improve the natural environment including forests, lakes, rivers, wildlife and to have compassion for living creatures;
- (h) to develop the scientific temper, humanism and the spirit of inquiry and reform;
- (i) to safeguard public property and to abjure violence;
- (j) to strive towards excellence in all spheres of individual and collective activity so that the nation constantly rises to higher levels of endeavour and achievement;
- *(k) who is a parent or guardian, to provide opportunities for education to his child or, as the case may be, ward between the age of six and fourteen years.

Note: The Article 51A containing Fundamental Duties was inserted by the Constitution (42nd Amendment) Act, 1976 (with effect from 3 January 1977).

*(k) was inserted by the Constitution (86th Amendment) Act, 2002 (with effect from 1 April 2010).

Contents

8. Introduction to Trigonometry	01
8.1 Introduction	01
8.2 Trigonometric Ratios	02
8.3 Trigonometric Ratios of Some Specific Angles	09
8.4 Trigonometric Identities	16
8.5 Summary	20
9. Some Applications of Trigonometry	21
9.1 Heights and Distances	21
9.2 Summary	31
10. Circles	32
10.1 Introduction	32
10.2 Tangent to a Circle	33
10.3 Number of Tangents from a Point on a Circle	35
10.4 Summary	41
11. Areas Related to Circles	42
11.1 Areas of Sector and Segment of a Circle	42
11.2 Summary	48
12. Surface Areas and Volumes	49
12.1 Introduction	49
12.2 Surface Area of a Combination of Solids	50
12.3 Volume of a Combination of Solids	55
12.4 Summary	58

13. Statistics	59
13.1 Introduction	59
13.2 Mean of Grouped Data	59
13.3 Mode of Grouped Data	71
13.4 Median of Grouped Data	76
13.5 Summary	88
14. Probability	90
14.1 Probability — A Theoretical Approach	90
14.2 Summary	105
Appendix A2 : Mathematical Modelling	106
A2.1 Introduction	106
A2.2 Stages in Mathematical Modelling	107
A2.3 Some Illustrations	111
A2.4 Why is Mathematical Modelling Important?	115
A2.5 Summary	116
Answers/Hints	117



1062CH08

INTRODUCTION TO TRIGONOMETRY

8

There is perhaps nothing which so occupies the middle position of mathematics as trigonometry.

– J.F. Herbart (1890)

8.1 Introduction

You have already studied about triangles, and in particular, right triangles, in your earlier classes. Let us take some examples from our surroundings where right triangles can be imagined to be formed. For instance :

1. Suppose the students of a school are visiting Qutub Minar. Now, if a student is looking at the top of the Minar, a right triangle can be imagined to be made, as shown in Fig 8.1. Can the student find out the height of the Minar, without actually measuring it?
2. Suppose a girl is sitting on the balcony of her house located on the bank of a river. She is looking down at a flower pot placed on a stair of a temple situated nearby on the other bank of the river. A right triangle is imagined to be made in this situation as shown in Fig.8.2. If you know the height at which the person is sitting, can you find the width of the river?

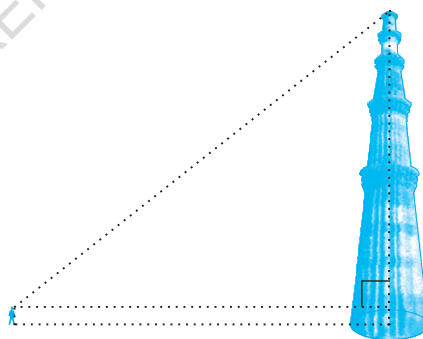


Fig. 8.1

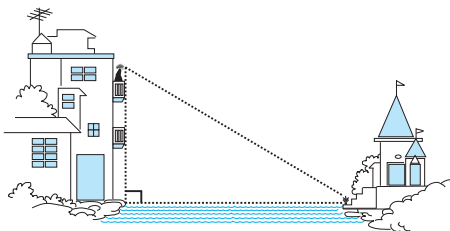


Fig. 8.2

3. Suppose a hot air balloon is flying in the air. A girl happens to spot the balloon in the sky and runs to her mother to tell her about it. Her mother rushes out of the house to look at the balloon. Now when the girl had spotted the balloon initially it was at point A. When both the mother and daughter came out to see it, it had already travelled to another point B. Can you find the altitude of B from the ground?

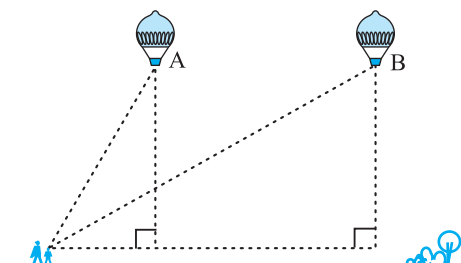


Fig. 8.3

In all the situations given above, the distances or heights can be found by using some mathematical techniques, which come under a branch of mathematics called 'trigonometry'. The word 'trigonometry' is derived from the Greek words 'tri' (meaning three), 'gon' (meaning sides) and 'metron' (meaning measure). In fact, **trigonometry** is the study of relationships between the sides and angles of a triangle. The earliest known work on trigonometry was recorded in Egypt and Babylon. Early astronomers used it to find out the distances of the stars and planets from the Earth. Even today, most of the technologically advanced methods used in Engineering and Physical Sciences are based on trigonometrical concepts.

In this chapter, we will study some ratios of the sides of a right triangle with respect to its acute angles, called **trigonometric ratios of the angle**. We will restrict our discussion to acute angles only. However, these ratios can be extended to other angles also. We will also define the trigonometric ratios for angles of measure 0° and 90° . We will calculate trigonometric ratios for some specific angles and establish some identities involving these ratios, called **trigonometric identities**.

8.2 Trigonometric Ratios

In Section 8.1, you have seen some right triangles imagined to be formed in different situations.

Let us take a right triangle ABC as shown in Fig. 8.4.

Here, $\angle CAB$ (or, in brief, angle A) is an acute angle. Note the position of the side BC with respect to angle A. It faces $\angle A$. We call it the *side opposite* to angle A. AC is the *hypotenuse* of the right triangle and the side AB is a part of $\angle A$. So, we call it the *side adjacent* to angle A.

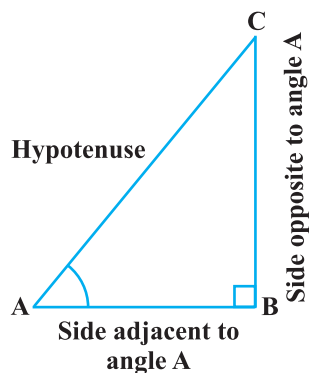


Fig. 8.4

Note that the position of sides change when you consider angle C in place of A (see Fig. 8.5).

You have studied the concept of ‘ratio’ in your earlier classes. We now define certain ratios involving the sides of a right triangle, and call them trigonometric ratios.

The trigonometric ratios of the angle A in right triangle ABC (see Fig. 8.4) are defined as follows :

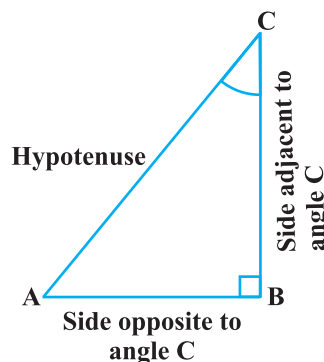


Fig. 8.5

$$\text{sine of } \angle A = \frac{\text{side opposite to angle A}}{\text{hypotenuse}} = \frac{BC}{AC}$$

$$\text{cosine of } \angle A = \frac{\text{side adjacent to angle A}}{\text{hypotenuse}} = \frac{AB}{AC}$$

$$\text{tangent of } \angle A = \frac{\text{side opposite to angle A}}{\text{side adjacent to angle A}} = \frac{BC}{AB}$$

$$\text{cosecant of } \angle A = \frac{1}{\text{sine of } \angle A} = \frac{\text{hypotenuse}}{\text{side opposite to angle A}} = \frac{AC}{BC}$$

$$\text{secant of } \angle A = \frac{1}{\text{cosine of } \angle A} = \frac{\text{hypotenuse}}{\text{side adjacent to angle A}} = \frac{AC}{AB}$$

$$\text{cotangent of } \angle A = \frac{1}{\text{tangent of } \angle A} = \frac{\text{side adjacent to angle A}}{\text{side opposite to angle A}} = \frac{AB}{BC}$$

The ratios defined above are abbreviated as $\sin A$, $\cos A$, $\tan A$, $\text{cosec } A$, $\sec A$ and $\cot A$ respectively. Note that the ratios **cosec A**, **sec A** and **cot A** are respectively, the reciprocals of the ratios $\sin A$, $\cos A$ and $\tan A$.

$$\text{Also, observe that } \tan A = \frac{BC}{AB} = \frac{\frac{BC}{AC}}{\frac{AB}{AC}} = \frac{\sin A}{\cos A} \text{ and } \cot A = \frac{\cos A}{\sin A}.$$

So, the **trigonometric ratios** of an acute angle in a right triangle express the relationship between the angle and the length of its sides.

Why don't you try to define the trigonometric ratios for angle C in the right triangle? (See Fig. 8.5)

The first use of the idea of ‘**sine**’ in the way we use it today was in the work *Aryabhatiyam* by Aryabhata, in A.D. 500. Aryabhata used the word **ardha-jya** for the half-chord, which was shortened to **jya** or **jiva** in due course. When the *Aryabhatiyam* was translated into Arabic, the word **jiva** was retained as it is. The word **jiva** was translated into **sinus**, which means curve, when the Arabic version was translated into Latin. Soon the word **sinus**, also used as **sine**, became common in mathematical texts throughout Europe. An English Professor of astronomy Edmund Gunter (1581–1626), first used the abbreviated notation ‘**sin**’.



Aryabhata
C.E. 476 – 550

The origin of the terms ‘**cosine**’ and ‘**tangent**’ was much later. The cosine function arose from the need to compute the sine of the complementary angle. Aryabhata called it **kotijya**. The name **cosinus** originated with Edmund Gunter. In 1674, the English Mathematician Sir Jonas Moore first used the abbreviated notation ‘**cos**’.

Remark : Note that the symbol $\sin A$ is used as an abbreviation for ‘the sine of the angle A ’. $\sin A$ is *not* the product of ‘ $\sin$ ’ and A . ‘ $\sin$ ’ separated from A has no meaning. Similarly, $\cos A$ is *not* the product of ‘ $\cos$ ’ and A . Similar interpretations follow for other trigonometric ratios also.

Now, if we take a point P on the hypotenuse AC or a point Q on AC extended, of the right triangle ABC and draw PM perpendicular to AB and QN perpendicular to AB extended (see Fig. 8.6), how will the trigonometric ratios of $\angle A$ in $\triangle PAM$ differ from those of $\angle A$ in $\triangle CAB$ or from those of $\angle A$ in $\triangle QAN$?

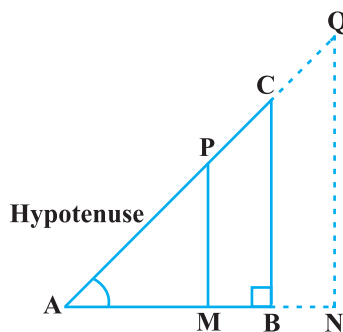


Fig. 8.6

To answer this, first look at these triangles. Is $\triangle PAM$ similar to $\triangle CAB$? From Chapter 6, recall the AA similarity criterion. Using the criterion, you will see that the triangles PAM and CAB are similar. Therefore, by the property of similar triangles, the corresponding sides of the triangles are proportional.

So, we have

$$\frac{AM}{AB} = \frac{AP}{AC} = \frac{MP}{BC}.$$

From this, we find $\frac{MP}{AP} = \frac{BC}{AC} = \sin A$.

Similarly, $\frac{AM}{AP} = \frac{AB}{AC} = \cos A$, $\frac{MP}{AM} = \frac{BC}{AB} = \tan A$ and so on.

This shows that the trigonometric ratios of angle A in $\triangle PAM$ not differ from those of angle A in $\triangle CAB$.

In the same way, you should check that the value of $\sin A$ (and also of other trigonometric ratios) remains the same in $\triangle QAN$ also.

From our observations, it is now clear that **the values of the trigonometric ratios of an angle do not vary with the lengths of the sides of the triangle, if the angle remains the same.**

Note : For the sake of convenience, we may write $\sin^2 A$, $\cos^2 A$, etc., in place of $(\sin A)^2$, $(\cos A)^2$, etc., respectively. But $\operatorname{cosec} A = (\sin A)^{-1} \neq \sin^{-1} A$ (it is called sine inverse A). $\sin^{-1} A$ has a different meaning, which will be discussed in higher classes. Similar conventions hold for the other trigonometric ratios as well. Sometimes, the Greek letter θ (theta) is also used to denote an angle.

We have defined six trigonometric ratios of an acute angle. If we know any one of the ratios, can we obtain the other ratios? Let us see.

If in a right triangle ABC , $\sin A = \frac{1}{3}$,
then this means that $\frac{BC}{AC} = \frac{1}{3}$, i.e., the
lengths of the sides BC and AC of the triangle
 ABC are in the ratio $1 : 3$ (see Fig. 8.7). So if
 BC is equal to k , then AC will be $3k$, where
 k is any positive number. To determine other

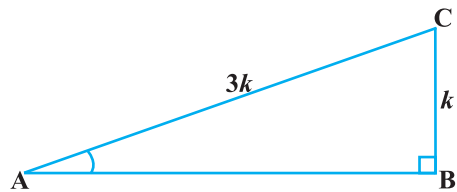


Fig. 8.7

trigonometric ratios for the angle A , we need to find the length of the third side AB . Do you remember the Pythagoras theorem? Let us use it to determine the required length AB .

$$AB^2 = AC^2 - BC^2 = (3k)^2 - (k)^2 = 8k^2 = (2\sqrt{2}k)^2$$

Therefore, $AB = \pm 2\sqrt{2}k$

So, we get $AB = 2\sqrt{2}k$ (Why is AB not $-2\sqrt{2}k$?)

Now,
$$\cos A = \frac{AB}{AC} = \frac{2\sqrt{2}k}{3k} = \frac{2\sqrt{2}}{3}$$

Similarly, you can obtain the other trigonometric ratios of the angle A .

Remark : Since the hypotenuse is the longest side in a right triangle, the value of $\sin A$ or $\cos A$ is always less than 1 (or, in particular, equal to 1).

Let us consider some examples.

Example 1 : Given $\tan A = \frac{4}{3}$, find the other trigonometric ratios of the angle A .

Solution : Let us first draw a right ΔABC (see Fig 8.8).

Now, we know that $\tan A = \frac{BC}{AB} = \frac{4}{3}$.

Therefore, if $BC = 4k$, then $AB = 3k$, where k is a positive number.

Now, by using the Pythagoras Theorem, we have

$$AC^2 = AB^2 + BC^2 = (4k)^2 + (3k)^2 = 25k^2$$

So,

$$AC = 5k$$

Now, we can write all the trigonometric ratios using their definitions.

$$\sin A = \frac{BC}{AC} = \frac{4k}{5k} = \frac{4}{5}$$

$$\cos A = \frac{AB}{AC} = \frac{3k}{5k} = \frac{3}{5}$$

Therefore, $\cot A = \frac{1}{\tan A} = \frac{3}{4}$, $\operatorname{cosec} A = \frac{1}{\sin A} = \frac{5}{4}$ and $\sec A = \frac{1}{\cos A} = \frac{5}{3}$.

Example 2 : If $\angle B$ and $\angle Q$ are acute angles such that $\sin B = \sin Q$, then prove that $\angle B = \angle Q$.

Solution : Let us consider two right triangles ABC and PQR where $\sin B = \sin Q$ (see Fig. 8.9).

We have

$$\sin B = \frac{AC}{AB}$$

and

$$\sin Q = \frac{PR}{PQ}$$

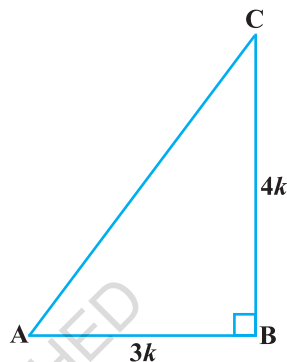


Fig. 8.8

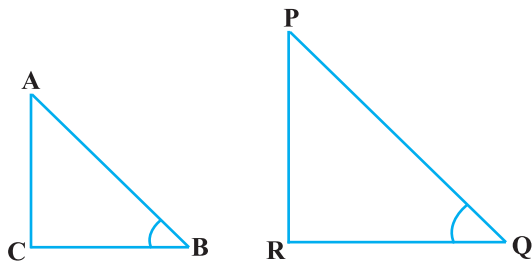


Fig. 8.9

Then
$$\frac{AC}{AB} = \frac{PR}{PQ}$$

Therefore,
$$\frac{AC}{PR} = \frac{AB}{PQ} = k, \text{ say} \quad (1)$$

Now, using Pythagoras theorem,

$$BC = \sqrt{AB^2 - AC^2}$$

and

$$QR = \sqrt{PQ^2 - PR^2}$$

So,
$$\frac{BC}{QR} = \frac{\sqrt{AB^2 - AC^2}}{\sqrt{PQ^2 - PR^2}} = \frac{\sqrt{k^2 PQ^2 - k^2 PR^2}}{\sqrt{PQ^2 - PR^2}} = \frac{k \sqrt{PQ^2 - PR^2}}{\sqrt{PQ^2 - PR^2}} = k \quad (2)$$

From (1) and (2), we have

$$\frac{AC}{PR} = \frac{AB}{PQ} = \frac{BC}{QR}$$

Then, by using Theorem 6.4, $\Delta ACB \sim \Delta PRQ$ and therefore, $\angle B = \angle Q$.

Example 3 : Consider ΔACB , right-angled at C, in which $AB = 29$ units, $BC = 21$ units and $\angle ABC = \theta$ (see Fig. 8.10). Determine the values of

(i) $\cos^2 \theta + \sin^2 \theta$,

(ii) $\cos^2 \theta - \sin^2 \theta$.

Solution : In ΔACB , we have

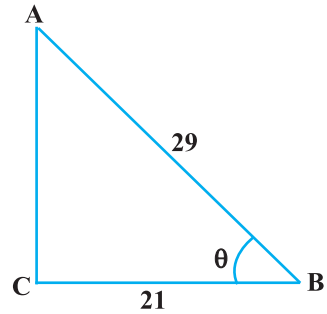


Fig. 8.10

$$\begin{aligned} AC &= \sqrt{AB^2 - BC^2} = \sqrt{(29)^2 - (21)^2} \\ &= \sqrt{(29 - 21)(29 + 21)} = \sqrt{(8)(50)} = \sqrt{400} = 20 \text{ units} \end{aligned}$$

So, $\sin \theta = \frac{AC}{AB} = \frac{20}{29}, \cos \theta = \frac{BC}{AB} = \frac{21}{29}$.

Now, (i) $\cos^2 \theta + \sin^2 \theta = \left(\frac{20}{29}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{21}{29}\right)^2 = \frac{20^2 + 21^2}{29^2} = \frac{400 + 441}{841} = 1$,

and (ii) $\cos^2 \theta - \sin^2 \theta = \left(\frac{21}{29}\right)^2 - \left(\frac{20}{29}\right)^2 = \frac{(21 + 20)(21 - 20)}{29^2} = \frac{41}{841}$.

Example 4 : In a right triangle ABC, right-angled at B, if $\tan A = 1$, then verify that

$$2 \sin A \cos A = 1.$$

Solution : In $\triangle ABC$, $\tan A = \frac{BC}{AB} = 1$ (see Fig 8.11)

i.e., $BC = AB$

Let $AB = BC = k$, where k is a positive number.

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Now, } AC &= \sqrt{AB^2 + BC^2} \\ &= \sqrt{(k)^2 + (k)^2} = k\sqrt{2} \end{aligned}$$

Therefore, $\sin A = \frac{BC}{AC} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}$ and $\cos A = \frac{AB}{AC} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}$

So, $2 \sin A \cos A = 2 \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \right) \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \right) = 1$, which is the required value.

Example 5 : In $\triangle OPQ$, right-angled at P, $OP = 7$ cm and $OQ - PQ = 1$ cm (see Fig. 8.12). Determine the values of $\sin Q$ and $\cos Q$.

Solution : In $\triangle OPQ$, we have

$$OQ^2 = OP^2 + PQ^2$$

i.e., $(1 + PQ)^2 = OP^2 + PQ^2$ (Why?)

i.e., $1 + PQ^2 + 2PQ = OP^2 + PQ^2$

i.e., $1 + 2PQ = 7^2$ (Why?)

i.e., $PQ = 24$ cm and $OQ = 1 + PQ = 25$ cm

So, $\sin Q = \frac{7}{25}$ and $\cos Q = \frac{24}{25}$.

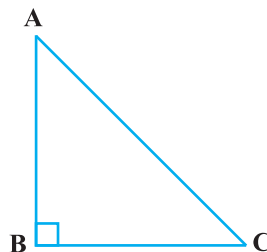


Fig. 8.11

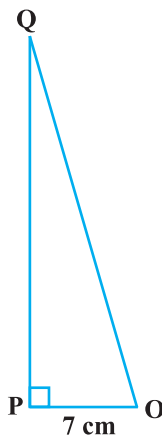


Fig. 8.12

EXERCISE 8.1

- In $\triangle ABC$, right-angled at B, $AB = 24$ cm, $BC = 7$ cm. Determine :
 - $\sin A$, $\cos A$
 - $\sin C$, $\cos C$
- In Fig. 8.13, find $\tan P - \cot R$.
- If $\sin A = \frac{3}{4}$, calculate $\cos A$ and $\tan A$.
- Given $15 \cot A = 8$, find $\sin A$ and $\sec A$.
- Given $\sec \theta = \frac{13}{12}$, calculate all other trigonometric ratios.
- If $\angle A$ and $\angle B$ are acute angles such that $\cos A = \cos B$, then show that $\angle A = \angle B$.
- If $\cot \theta = \frac{7}{8}$, evaluate : (i) $\frac{(1 + \sin \theta)(1 - \sin \theta)}{(1 + \cos \theta)(1 - \cos \theta)}$, (ii) $\cot^2 \theta$
- If $3 \cot A = 4$, check whether $\frac{1 - \tan^2 A}{1 + \tan^2 A} = \cos^2 A - \sin^2 A$ or not.
- In triangle ABC, right-angled at B, if $\tan A = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}$, find the value of:
 - $\sin A \cos C + \cos A \sin C$
 - $\cos A \cos C - \sin A \sin C$
- In $\triangle PQR$, right-angled at Q, $PR + QR = 25$ cm and $PQ = 5$ cm. Determine the values of $\sin P$, $\cos P$ and $\tan P$.
- State whether the following are true or false. Justify your answer.
 - The value of $\tan A$ is always less than 1.
 - $\sec A = \frac{12}{5}$ for some value of angle A.
 - $\cos A$ is the abbreviation used for the cosecant of angle A.
 - $\cot A$ is the product of $\cot$ and A.
 - $\sin \theta = \frac{4}{3}$ for some angle θ .

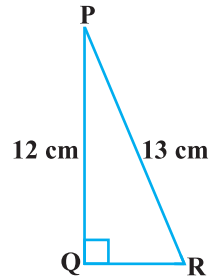


Fig. 8.13

8.3 Trigonometric Ratios of Some Specific Angles

From geometry, you are already familiar with the construction of angles of 30° , 45° , 60° and 90° . In this section, we will find the values of the trigonometric ratios for these angles and, of course, for 0° .

Trigonometric Ratios of 45°

In $\triangle ABC$, right-angled at B, if one angle is 45° , then the other angle is also 45° , i.e., $\angle A = \angle C = 45^\circ$ (see Fig. 8.14).

So, $BC = AB$ (Why?)

Now, Suppose $BC = AB = a$.

Then by Pythagoras Theorem, $AC^2 = AB^2 + BC^2 = a^2 + a^2 = 2a^2$,

and, therefore, $AC = a\sqrt{2}$.

Using the definitions of the trigonometric ratios, we have :

$$\sin 45^\circ = \frac{\text{side opposite to angle } 45^\circ}{\text{hypotenuse}} = \frac{BC}{AC} = \frac{a}{a\sqrt{2}} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}$$

$$\cos 45^\circ = \frac{\text{side adjacent to angle } 45^\circ}{\text{hypotenuse}} = \frac{AB}{AC} = \frac{a}{a\sqrt{2}} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}$$

$$\tan 45^\circ = \frac{\text{side opposite to angle } 45^\circ}{\text{side adjacent to angle } 45^\circ} = \frac{BC}{AB} = \frac{a}{a} = 1$$

$$\text{Also, } \operatorname{cosec} 45^\circ = \frac{1}{\sin 45^\circ} = \sqrt{2}, \sec 45^\circ = \frac{1}{\cos 45^\circ} = \sqrt{2}, \cot 45^\circ = \frac{1}{\tan 45^\circ} = 1.$$

Trigonometric Ratios of 30° and 60°

Let us now calculate the trigonometric ratios of 30° and 60° . Consider an equilateral triangle ABC. Since each angle in an equilateral triangle is 60° , therefore, $\angle A = \angle B = \angle C = 60^\circ$.

Draw the perpendicular AD from A to the side BC (see Fig. 8.15).

Now

$$\triangle ABD \cong \triangle ACD \quad (\text{Why?})$$

Therefore,

$$BD = DC$$

and

$$\angle BAD = \angle CAD \quad (\text{CPCT})$$

Now observe that:

$\triangle ABD$ is a right triangle, right-angled at D with $\angle BAD = 30^\circ$ and $\angle ABD = 60^\circ$ (see Fig. 8.15).

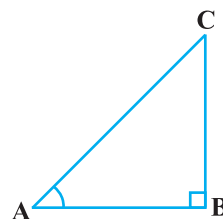


Fig. 8.14

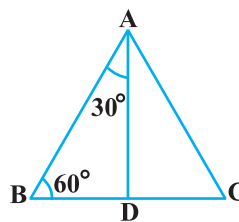


Fig. 8.15

As you know, for finding the trigonometric ratios, we need to know the lengths of the sides of the triangle. So, let us suppose that $AB = 2a$.

Then,
$$BD = \frac{1}{2}BC = a$$

and
$$AD^2 = AB^2 - BD^2 = (2a)^2 - (a)^2 = 3a^2,$$

Therefore,
$$AD = a\sqrt{3}$$

Now, we have :

$$\sin 30^\circ = \frac{BD}{AB} = \frac{a}{2a} = \frac{1}{2}, \cos 30^\circ = \frac{AD}{AB} = \frac{a\sqrt{3}}{2a} = \frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}$$

$$\tan 30^\circ = \frac{BD}{AD} = \frac{a}{a\sqrt{3}} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}.$$

Also,
$$\operatorname{cosec} 30^\circ = \frac{1}{\sin 30^\circ} = 2, \sec 30^\circ = \frac{1}{\cos 30^\circ} = \frac{2}{\sqrt{3}}$$

$$\cot 30^\circ = \frac{1}{\tan 30^\circ} = \sqrt{3}.$$

Similarly,

$$\sin 60^\circ = \frac{AD}{AB} = \frac{a\sqrt{3}}{2a} = \frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}, \cos 60^\circ = \frac{1}{2}, \tan 60^\circ = \sqrt{3},$$

$$\operatorname{cosec} 60^\circ = \frac{2}{\sqrt{3}}, \sec 60^\circ = 2 \text{ and } \cot 60^\circ = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}.$$

Trigonometric Ratios of 0° and 90°

Let us see what happens to the trigonometric ratios of angle A, if it is made smaller and smaller in the right triangle ABC (see Fig. 8.16), till it becomes zero. As $\angle A$ gets smaller and smaller, the length of the side BC decreases. The point C gets closer to point B, and finally when $\angle A$ becomes very close to 0° , AC becomes almost the same as AB (see Fig. 8.17).

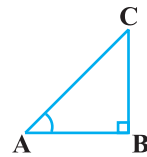


Fig. 8.16

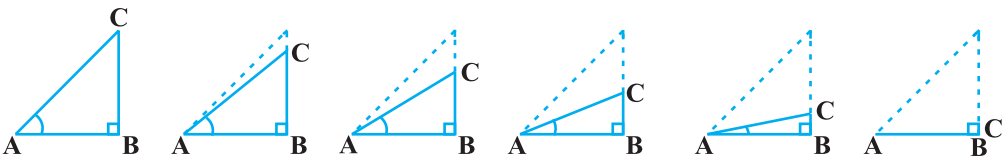


Fig. 8.17

When $\angle A$ is very close to 0° , BC gets very close to 0 and so the value of $\sin A = \frac{BC}{AC}$ is very close to 0. Also, when $\angle A$ is very close to 0° , AC is nearly the same as AB and so the value of $\cos A = \frac{AB}{AC}$ is very close to 1.

This helps us to see how we can define the values of $\sin A$ and $\cos A$ when $A = 0^\circ$. We define : **$\sin 0^\circ = 0$ and $\cos 0^\circ = 1$** .

Using these, we have :

$$\tan 0^\circ = \frac{\sin 0^\circ}{\cos 0^\circ} = 0, \cot 0^\circ = \frac{1}{\tan 0^\circ}, \text{ which is not defined. (Why?)}$$

$$\sec 0^\circ = \frac{1}{\cos 0^\circ} = 1 \text{ and } \operatorname{cosec} 0^\circ = \frac{1}{\sin 0^\circ}, \text{ which is again not defined. (Why?)}$$

Now, let us see what happens to the trigonometric ratios of $\angle A$, when it is made larger and larger in $\triangle ABC$ till it becomes 90° . As $\angle A$ gets larger and larger, $\angle C$ gets smaller and smaller. Therefore, as in the case above, the length of the side AB goes on decreasing. The point A gets closer to point B . Finally when $\angle A$ is very close to 90° , $\angle C$ becomes very close to 0° and the side AC almost coincides with side BC (see Fig. 8.18).

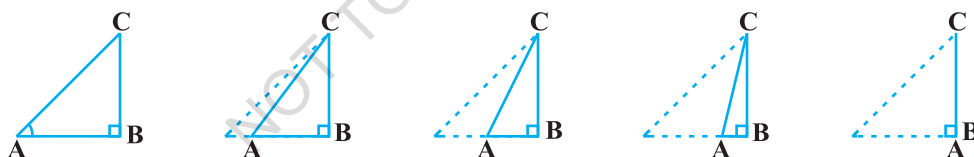


Fig. 8.18

When $\angle C$ is very close to 0° , $\angle A$ is very close to 90° , side AC is nearly the same as side BC , and so $\sin A$ is very close to 1. Also when $\angle A$ is very close to 90° , $\angle C$ is very close to 0° , and the side AB is nearly zero, so $\cos A$ is very close to 0.

So, we define : **$\sin 90^\circ = 1$ and $\cos 90^\circ = 0$** .

Now, why don't you find the other trigonometric ratios of 90° ?

We shall now give the values of all the trigonometric ratios of 0° , 30° , 45° , 60° and 90° in Table 8.1, for ready reference.

Table 8.1

$\angle A$	0°	30°	45°	60°	90°
$\sin A$	0	$\frac{1}{2}$	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}$	$\frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}$	1
$\cos A$	1	$\frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}$	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	0
$\tan A$	0	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}$	1	$\sqrt{3}$	Not defined
$\operatorname{cosec} A$	Not defined	2	$\sqrt{2}$	$\frac{2}{\sqrt{3}}$	1
$\sec A$	1	$\frac{2}{\sqrt{3}}$	$\sqrt{2}$	2	Not defined
$\cot A$	Not defined	$\sqrt{3}$	1	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}$	0

Remark : From the table above you can observe that as $\angle A$ increases from 0° to 90° , $\sin A$ increases from 0 to 1 and $\cos A$ decreases from 1 to 0.

Let us illustrate the use of the values in the table above through some examples.

Example 6 : In $\triangle ABC$, right-angled at B, $AB = 5$ cm and $\angle ACB = 30^\circ$ (see Fig. 8.19). Determine the lengths of the sides BC and AC.

Solution : To find the length of the side BC, we will choose the trigonometric ratio involving BC and the given side AB. Since BC is the side adjacent to angle C and AB is the side opposite to angle C, therefore

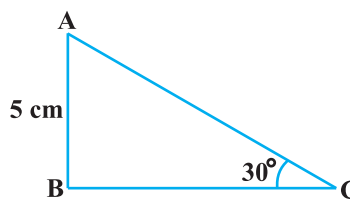


Fig. 8.19

$$\frac{AB}{BC} = \tan C$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad \frac{5}{BC} = \tan 30^\circ = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}$$

which gives

$$BC = 5\sqrt{3} \text{ cm}$$

To find the length of the side AC, we consider

$$\sin 30^\circ = \frac{AB}{AC} \quad (\text{Why?})$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad \frac{1}{2} = \frac{5}{AC}$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad AC = 10 \text{ cm}$$

Note that alternatively we could have used Pythagoras theorem to determine the third side in the example above,

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad AC = \sqrt{AB^2 + BC^2} = \sqrt{5^2 + (5\sqrt{3})^2} \text{ cm} = 10 \text{ cm}.$$

Example 7 : In ΔPQR , right-angled at Q (see Fig. 8.20), $PQ = 3 \text{ cm}$ and $PR = 6 \text{ cm}$. Determine $\angle QPR$ and $\angle PRQ$.

Solution : Given $PQ = 3 \text{ cm}$ and $PR = 6 \text{ cm}$.

$$\text{Therefore,} \quad \frac{PQ}{PR} = \sin R$$

$$\text{or} \quad \sin R = \frac{3}{6} = \frac{1}{2}$$

$$\text{So,} \quad \angle PRQ = 30^\circ$$

$$\text{and therefore,} \quad \angle QPR = 60^\circ. \quad (\text{Why?})$$

You may note that if one of the sides and any other part (either an acute angle or any side) of a right triangle is known, the remaining sides and angles of the triangle can be determined.

Example 8 : If $\sin (A - B) = \frac{1}{2}$, $\cos (A + B) = \frac{1}{2}$, $0^\circ < A + B \leq 90^\circ$, $A > B$, find A and B.

$$\text{Solution : Since, } \sin (A - B) = \frac{1}{2}, \text{ therefore, } A - B = 30^\circ \quad (\text{Why?}) \quad (1)$$

$$\text{Also, since } \cos (A + B) = \frac{1}{2}, \text{ therefore, } A + B = 60^\circ \quad (\text{Why?}) \quad (2)$$

Solving (1) and (2), we get : $A = 45^\circ$ and $B = 15^\circ$.

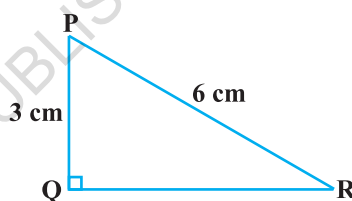


Fig. 8.20

EXERCISE 8.2

1. Evaluate the following :

(i) $\sin 60^\circ \cos 30^\circ + \sin 30^\circ \cos 60^\circ$

(ii) $2 \tan^2 45^\circ + \cos^2 30^\circ - \sin^2 60^\circ$

(iii) $\frac{\cos 45^\circ}{\sec 30^\circ + \operatorname{cosec} 30^\circ}$

(iv) $\frac{\sin 30^\circ + \tan 45^\circ - \operatorname{cosec} 60^\circ}{\sec 30^\circ + \cos 60^\circ + \cot 45^\circ}$

(v) $\frac{5 \cos^2 60^\circ + 4 \sec^2 30^\circ - \tan^2 45^\circ}{\sin^2 30^\circ + \cos^2 30^\circ}$

2. Choose the correct option and justify your choice :

(i) $\frac{2 \tan 30^\circ}{1 + \tan^2 30^\circ} =$

(A) $\sin 60^\circ$

(B) $\cos 60^\circ$

(C) $\tan 60^\circ$

(D) $\sin 30^\circ$

(ii) $\frac{1 - \tan^2 45^\circ}{1 + \tan^2 45^\circ} =$

(A) $\tan 90^\circ$

(B) 1

(C) $\sin 45^\circ$

(D) 0

(iii) $\sin 2A = 2 \sin A$ is true when $A =$

(A) 0°

(B) 30°

(C) 45°

(D) 60°

(iv) $\frac{2 \tan 30^\circ}{1 - \tan^2 30^\circ} =$

(A) $\cos 60^\circ$

(B) $\sin 60^\circ$

(C) $\tan 60^\circ$

(D) $\sin 30^\circ$

3. If $\tan (A + B) = \sqrt{3}$ and $\tan (A - B) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}$; $0^\circ < A + B \leq 90^\circ$; $A > B$, find A and B .

4. State whether the following are true or false. Justify your answer.

(i) $\sin (A + B) = \sin A + \sin B$.

(ii) The value of $\sin \theta$ increases as θ increases.

(iii) The value of $\cos \theta$ increases as θ increases.

(iv) $\sin \theta = \cos \theta$ for all values of θ .

(v) $\cot A$ is not defined for $A = 0^\circ$.

8.4 Trigonometric Identities

You may recall that an equation is called an identity when it is true for all values of the variables involved. Similarly, an equation involving trigonometric ratios of an angle is called a **trigonometric identity**, if it is true for all values of the angle(s) involved.

In this section, we will prove one trigonometric identity, and use it further to prove other useful trigonometric identities.

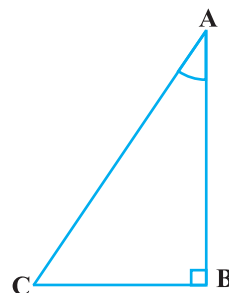


Fig. 8.21

In $\triangle ABC$, right-angled at B (see Fig. 8.21), we have:

$$AB^2 + BC^2 = AC^2 \quad (1)$$

Dividing each term of (1) by AC^2 , we get

$$\frac{AB^2}{AC^2} + \frac{BC^2}{AC^2} = \frac{AC^2}{AC^2}$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad \left(\frac{AB}{AC}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{BC}{AC}\right)^2 = \left(\frac{AC}{AC}\right)^2$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad (\cos A)^2 + (\sin A)^2 = 1$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad \cos^2 A + \sin^2 A = 1 \quad (2)$$

This is true for all A such that $0^\circ \leq A \leq 90^\circ$. So, this is a trigonometric identity.

Let us now divide (1) by AB^2 . We get

$$\frac{AB^2}{AB^2} + \frac{BC^2}{AB^2} = \frac{AC^2}{AB^2}$$

$$\text{or,} \quad \left(\frac{AB}{AB}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{BC}{AB}\right)^2 = \left(\frac{AC}{AB}\right)^2$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad 1 + \tan^2 A = \sec^2 A \quad (3)$$

Is this equation true for $A = 0^\circ$? Yes, it is. What about $A = 90^\circ$? Well, $\tan A$ and $\sec A$ are not defined for $A = 90^\circ$. So, (3) is true for all A such that $0^\circ \leq A < 90^\circ$.

Let us see what we get on dividing (1) by BC^2 . We get

$$\frac{AB^2}{BC^2} + \frac{BC^2}{BC^2} = \frac{AC^2}{BC^2}$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad \left(\frac{AB}{BC}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{BC}{BC}\right)^2 = \left(\frac{AC}{BC}\right)^2$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad \cot^2 A + 1 = \operatorname{cosec}^2 A \quad (4)$$

Note that cosec A and cot A are not defined for $A = 0^\circ$. Therefore (4) is true for all A such that $0^\circ < A \leq 90^\circ$.

Using these identities, we can express each trigonometric ratio in terms of other trigonometric ratios, i.e., if any one of the ratios is known, we can also determine the values of other trigonometric ratios.

Let us see how we can do this using these identities. Suppose we know that $\tan A = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}$. Then, $\cot A = \sqrt{3}$.

$$\text{Since, } \sec^2 A = 1 + \tan^2 A = 1 + \frac{1}{3} = \frac{4}{3}, \quad \sec A = \frac{2}{\sqrt{3}}, \quad \text{and } \cos A = \frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}.$$

$$\text{Again, } \sin A = \sqrt{1 - \cos^2 A} = \sqrt{1 - \frac{3}{4}} = \frac{1}{2}. \quad \text{Therefore, } \operatorname{cosec} A = 2.$$

Example 9 : Express the ratios cos A , tan A and sec A in terms of sin A .

Solution : Since $\cos^2 A + \sin^2 A = 1$, therefore,

$$\cos^2 A = 1 - \sin^2 A, \quad \text{i.e., } \cos A = \pm \sqrt{1 - \sin^2 A}$$

$$\text{This gives} \quad \cos A = \sqrt{1 - \sin^2 A} \quad (\text{Why?})$$

$$\text{Hence,} \quad \tan A = \frac{\sin A}{\cos A} = \frac{\sin A}{\sqrt{1 - \sin^2 A}} \quad \text{and} \quad \sec A = \frac{1}{\cos A} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 - \sin^2 A}}$$

Example 10 : Prove that $\sec A (1 - \sin A)(\sec A + \tan A) = 1$.

Solution :

$$\text{LHS} = \sec A (1 - \sin A)(\sec A + \tan A) = \left(\frac{1}{\cos A}\right)(1 - \sin A)\left(\frac{1}{\cos A} + \frac{\sin A}{\cos A}\right)$$

$$\begin{aligned}
 &= \frac{(1 - \sin A)(1 + \sin A)}{\cos^2 A} = \frac{1 - \sin^2 A}{\cos^2 A} \\
 &= \frac{\cos^2 A}{\cos^2 A} = 1 = \text{RHS}
 \end{aligned}$$

Example 11 : Prove that $\frac{\cot A - \cos A}{\cot A + \cos A} = \frac{\operatorname{cosec} A - 1}{\operatorname{cosec} A + 1}$

Solution : LHS = $\frac{\cot A - \cos A}{\cot A + \cos A} = \frac{\frac{\cos A}{\sin A} - \cos A}{\frac{\cos A}{\sin A} + \cos A}$

$$\begin{aligned}
 &= \frac{\cos A \left(\frac{1}{\sin A} - 1 \right)}{\cos A \left(\frac{1}{\sin A} + 1 \right)} = \frac{\left(\frac{1}{\sin A} - 1 \right)}{\left(\frac{1}{\sin A} + 1 \right)} = \frac{\operatorname{cosec} A - 1}{\operatorname{cosec} A + 1} = \text{RHS}
 \end{aligned}$$

Example 12 : Prove that $\frac{\sin \theta - \cos \theta + 1}{\sin \theta + \cos \theta - 1} = \frac{1}{\sec \theta - \tan \theta}$, using the identity $\sec^2 \theta = 1 + \tan^2 \theta$.

Solution : Since we will apply the identity involving $\sec \theta$ and $\tan \theta$, let us first convert the LHS (of the identity we need to prove) in terms of $\sec \theta$ and $\tan \theta$ by dividing numerator and denominator by $\cos \theta$.

$$\begin{aligned}
 \text{LHS} &= \frac{\sin \theta - \cos \theta + 1}{\sin \theta + \cos \theta - 1} = \frac{\tan \theta - 1 + \sec \theta}{\tan \theta + 1 - \sec \theta} \\
 &= \frac{(\tan \theta + \sec \theta) - 1}{(\tan \theta - \sec \theta) + 1} = \frac{\{(\tan \theta + \sec \theta) - 1\} (\tan \theta - \sec \theta)}{\{(\tan \theta - \sec \theta) + 1\} (\tan \theta - \sec \theta)} \\
 &= \frac{(\tan^2 \theta - \sec^2 \theta) - (\tan \theta - \sec \theta)}{\{\tan \theta - \sec \theta + 1\} (\tan \theta - \sec \theta)} \\
 &= \frac{-1 - \tan \theta + \sec \theta}{(\tan \theta - \sec \theta + 1) (\tan \theta - \sec \theta)}
 \end{aligned}$$

$$= \frac{-1}{\tan \theta - \sec \theta} = \frac{1}{\sec \theta - \tan \theta},$$

which is the RHS of the identity, we are required to prove.

EXERCISE 8.3

- Express the trigonometric ratios $\sin A$, $\sec A$ and $\tan A$ in terms of $\cot A$.
- Write all the other trigonometric ratios of $\angle A$ in terms of $\sec A$.
- Choose the correct option. Justify your choice.
 - $9 \sec^2 A - 9 \tan^2 A =$
 (A) 1 (B) 9 (C) 8 (D) 0
 - $(1 + \tan \theta + \sec \theta)(1 + \cot \theta - \operatorname{cosec} \theta) =$
 (A) 0 (B) 1 (C) 2 (D) -1
 - $(\sec A + \tan A)(1 - \sin A) =$
 (A) $\sec A$ (B) $\sin A$ (C) $\operatorname{cosec} A$ (D) $\cos A$
 - $\frac{1 + \tan^2 A}{1 + \cot^2 A} =$
 (A) $\sec^2 A$ (B) -1 (C) $\cot^2 A$ (D) $\tan^2 A$
- Prove the following identities, where the angles involved are acute angles for which the expressions are defined.
 - $(\operatorname{cosec} \theta - \cot \theta)^2 = \frac{1 - \cos \theta}{1 + \cos \theta}$
 - $\frac{\cos A}{1 + \sin A} + \frac{1 + \sin A}{\cos A} = 2 \sec A$
 - $\frac{\tan \theta}{1 - \cot \theta} + \frac{\cot \theta}{1 - \tan \theta} = 1 + \sec \theta \operatorname{cosec} \theta$
[Hint : Write the expression in terms of $\sin \theta$ and $\cos \theta$]
 - $\frac{1 + \sec A}{\sec A} = \frac{\sin^2 A}{1 - \cos A}$ **[Hint : Simplify LHS and RHS separately]**
 - $\frac{\cos A - \sin A + 1}{\cos A + \sin A - 1} = \operatorname{cosec} A + \cot A$, using the identity $\operatorname{cosec}^2 A = 1 + \cot^2 A$.
 - $\sqrt{\frac{1 + \sin A}{1 - \sin A}} = \sec A + \tan A$
 - $\frac{\sin \theta - 2 \sin^3 \theta}{2 \cos^3 \theta - \cos \theta} = \tan \theta$
 - $(\sin A + \operatorname{cosec} A)^2 + (\cos A + \sec A)^2 = 7 + \tan^2 A + \cot^2 A$

$$(ix) (\operatorname{cosec} A - \sin A)(\sec A - \cos A) = \frac{1}{\tan A + \cot A}$$

[Hint : Simplify LHS and RHS separately]

$$(x) \left(\frac{1 + \tan^2 A}{1 + \cot^2 A} \right) = \left(\frac{1 - \tan A}{1 - \cot A} \right)^2 = \tan^2 A$$

8.5 Summary

In this chapter, you have studied the following points :

1. In a right triangle ABC, right-angled at B,

$$\sin A = \frac{\text{side opposite to angle } A}{\text{hypotenuse}}, \quad \cos A = \frac{\text{side adjacent to angle } A}{\text{hypotenuse}}$$

$$\tan A = \frac{\text{side opposite to angle } A}{\text{side adjacent to angle } A}.$$

2. $\operatorname{cosec} A = \frac{1}{\sin A}$; $\sec A = \frac{1}{\cos A}$; $\tan A = \frac{1}{\cot A}$, $\tan A = \frac{\sin A}{\cos A}$.
3. If one of the trigonometric ratios of an acute angle is known, the remaining trigonometric ratios of the angle can be easily determined.
4. The values of trigonometric ratios for angles 0° , 30° , 45° , 60° and 90° .
5. The value of $\sin A$ or $\cos A$ never exceeds 1, whereas the value of $\sec A$ or $\operatorname{cosec} A$ is always greater than or equal to 1.
6. $\sin^2 A + \cos^2 A = 1$,
 $\sec^2 A - \tan^2 A = 1$ for $0^\circ \leq A < 90^\circ$,
 $\operatorname{cosec}^2 A = 1 + \cot^2 A$ for $0^\circ < A \leq 90^\circ$.



1062CH09

SOME APPLICATIONS OF TRIGONOMETRY

9

9.1 Heights and Distances

In the previous chapter, you have studied about trigonometric ratios. In this chapter, you will be studying about some ways in which trigonometry is used in the life around you.

Let us consider Fig. 8.1 of previous chapter, which is redrawn below in Fig. 9.1.

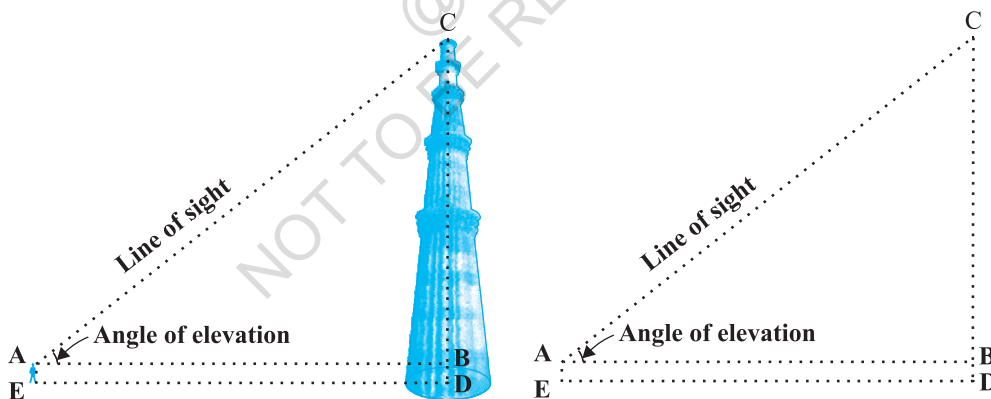


Fig. 9.1

In this figure, the line AC drawn from the eye of the student to the top of the minar is called the *line of sight*. The student is looking at the top of the minar. The angle BAC, so formed by the line of sight with the horizontal, is called the *angle of elevation* of the top of the minar from the eye of the student.

Thus, the **line of sight** is the line drawn from the eye of an observer to the point in the object viewed by the observer. The **angle of elevation** of the point viewed is

the angle formed by the line of sight with the horizontal when the point being viewed is above the horizontal level, i.e., the case when we raise our head to look at the object (see Fig. 9.2).

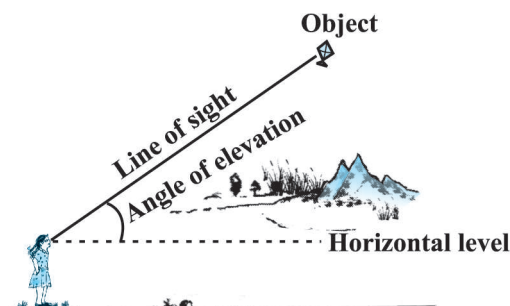


Fig. 9.2

Now, consider the situation given in Fig. 8.2. The girl sitting on the balcony is *looking down* at a flower pot placed on a stair of the temple. In this case, the line of sight is *below* the horizontal level. The angle so formed by the line of sight with the horizontal is called the *angle of depression*.

Thus, the **angle of depression** of a point on the object being viewed is the angle formed by the line of sight with the horizontal when the point is below the horizontal level, i.e., the case when we lower our head to look at the point being viewed (see Fig. 9.3).

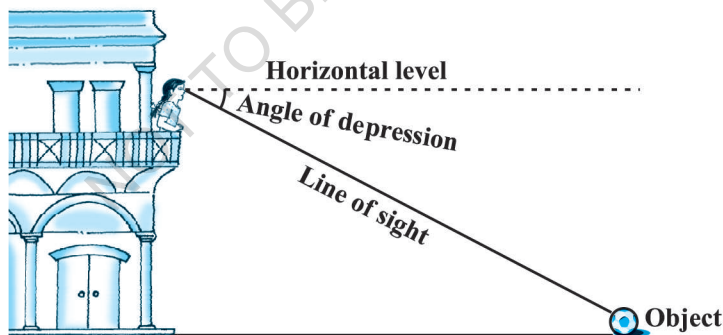


Fig. 9.3

Now, you may identify the lines of sight, and the angles so formed in Fig. 8.3. Are they angles of elevation or angles of depression?

Let us refer to Fig. 9.1 again. If you want to find the height CD of the minar without actually measuring it, what information do you need? You would need to know the following:

- (i) the distance DE at which the student is standing from the foot of the minar

- (ii) the angle of elevation, $\angle BAC$, of the top of the minar
- (iii) the height AE of the student.

Assuming that the above three conditions are known, how can we determine the height of the minar?

In the figure, $CD = CB + BD$. Here, $BD = AE$, which is the height of the student.

To find BC, we will use trigonometric ratios of $\angle BAC$ or $\angle A$.

In $\triangle ABC$, the side BC is the opposite side in relation to the known $\angle A$. Now, which of the trigonometric ratios can we use? Which one of them has the two values that we have and the one we need to determine? Our search narrows down to using either $\tan A$ or $\cot A$, as these ratios involve AB and BC.

Therefore, $\tan A = \frac{BC}{AB}$ or $\cot A = \frac{AB}{BC}$, which on solving would give us BC.

By adding AE to BC, you will get the height of the minar.

Now let us explain the process, we have just discussed, by solving some problems.

Example 1 : A tower stands vertically on the ground. From a point on the ground, which is 15 m away from the foot of the tower, the angle of elevation of the top of the tower is found to be 60° . Find the height of the tower.

Solution : First let us draw a simple diagram to represent the problem (see Fig. 9.4). Here AB represents the tower, CB is the distance of the point from the tower and $\angle ACB$ is the angle of elevation. We need to determine the height of the tower, i.e., AB. Also, ACB is a triangle, right-angled at B.

To solve the problem, we choose the trigonometric ratio $\tan 60^\circ$ (or $\cot 60^\circ$), as the ratio involves AB and BC.

$$\text{Now,} \quad \tan 60^\circ = \frac{AB}{BC}$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad \sqrt{3} = \frac{AB}{15}$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad AB = 15\sqrt{3}$$

Hence, the height of the tower is $15\sqrt{3}$ m.

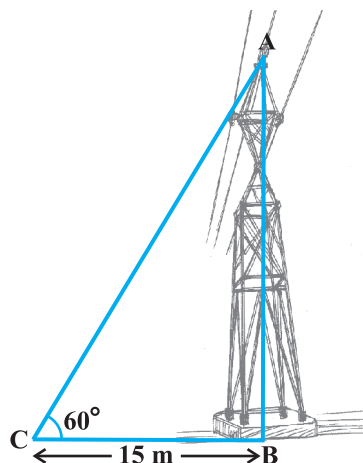


Fig. 9.4

Example 2 : An electrician has to repair an electric fault on a pole of height 5 m. She needs to reach a point 1.3m below the top of the pole to undertake the repair work (see Fig. 9.5). What should be the length of the ladder that she should use which, when inclined at an angle of 60° to the horizontal, would enable her to reach the required position? Also, how far from the foot of the pole should she place the foot of the ladder? (You may take $\sqrt{3} = 1.73$)

Solution : In Fig. 9.5, the electrician is required to reach the point B on the pole AD.

So, $BD = AD - AB = (5 - 1.3)\text{m} = 3.7 \text{ m.}$

Here, BC represents the ladder. We need to find its length, i.e., the hypotenuse of the right triangle BDC.

Now, can you think which trigonometric ratio should we consider?

It should be $\sin 60^\circ$.

$$\text{So, } \frac{BD}{BC} = \sin 60^\circ \text{ or } \frac{3.7}{BC} = \frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}$$

$$\text{Therefore, } BC = \frac{3.7 \times 2}{\sqrt{3}} = 4.28 \text{ m (approx.)}$$

i.e., the length of the ladder should be 4.28 m.

$$\text{Now, } \frac{DC}{BD} = \cot 60^\circ = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}}$$

$$\text{i.e., } DC = \frac{3.7}{\sqrt{3}} = 2.14 \text{ m (approx.)}$$

Therefore, she should place the foot of the ladder at a distance of 2.14 m from the pole.

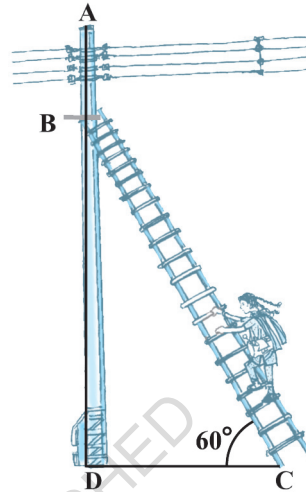


Fig. 9.5

Example 3 : An observer 1.5 m tall is 28.5 m away from a chimney. The angle of elevation of the top of the chimney from her eyes is 45° . What is the height of the chimney?

Solution : Here, AB is the chimney, CD the observer and $\angle ADE$ the angle of elevation (see Fig. 9.6). In this case, ADE is a triangle, right-angled at E and we are required to find the height of the chimney.

We have $AB = AE + BE = AE + 1.5$

and $DE = CB = 28.5$ m

To determine AE, we choose a trigonometric ratio, which involves both AE and DE. Let us choose the tangent of the angle of elevation.

$$\text{Now,} \quad \tan 45^\circ = \frac{AE}{DE}$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad 1 = \frac{AE}{28.5}$$

$$\text{Therefore,} \quad AE = 28.5$$

So the height of the chimney (AB) = $(28.5 + 1.5)$ m = 30 m.

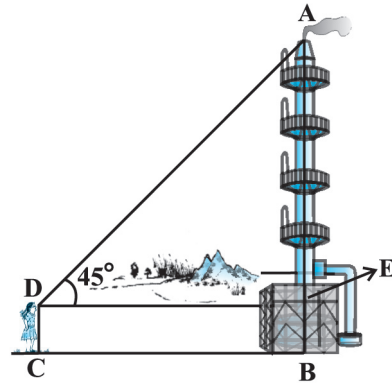


Fig. 9.6

Example 4 : From a point P on the ground the angle of elevation of the top of a 10 m tall building is 30° . A flag is hoisted at the top of the building and the angle of elevation of the top of the flagstaff from P is 45° . Find the length of the flagstaff and the distance of the building from the point P. (You may take $\sqrt{3} = 1.732$)

Solution : In Fig. 9.7, AB denotes the height of the building, BD the flagstaff and P the given point. Note that there are two right triangles PAB and PAD. We are required to find the length of the flagstaff, i.e., DB and the distance of the building from the point P, i.e., PA.

Since, we know the height of the building AB, we will first consider the right $\triangle PAB$.

We have $\tan 30^\circ = \frac{AB}{AP}$

i.e., $\frac{1}{\sqrt{3}} = \frac{10}{AP}$

Therefore, $AP = 10\sqrt{3}$

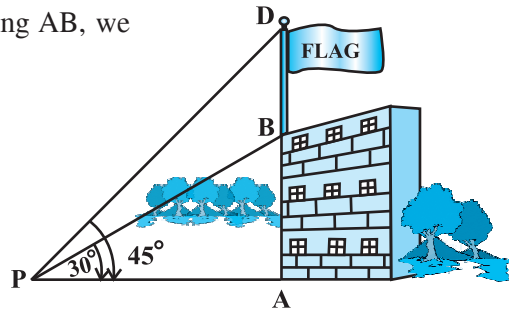


Fig. 9.7

i.e., the distance of the building from P is $10\sqrt{3}$ m = 17.32 m.

Next, let us suppose $DB = x$ m. Then $AD = (10 + x)$ m.

Now, in right $\triangle PAD$, $\tan 45^\circ = \frac{AD}{AP} = \frac{10 + x}{10\sqrt{3}}$

Therefore, $1 = \frac{10 + x}{10\sqrt{3}}$

i.e., $x = 10(\sqrt{3} - 1) = 7.32$

So, the length of the flagstaff is 7.32 m.

Example 5 : The shadow of a tower standing on a level ground is found to be 40 m longer when the Sun's altitude is 30° than when it is 60° . Find the height of the tower.

Solution : In Fig. 9.8, AB is the tower and BC is the length of the shadow when the Sun's altitude is 60° , i.e., the angle of elevation of the top of the tower from the tip of the shadow is 60° and DB is the length of the shadow, when the angle of elevation is 30° .

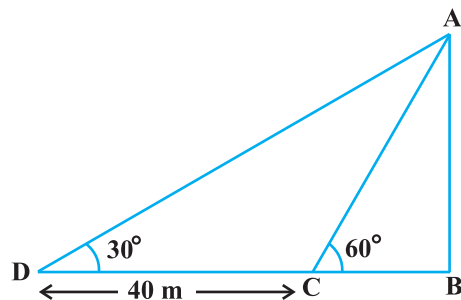


Fig. 9.8

Now, let AB be h m and BC be x m. According to the question, DB is 40 m longer than BC.

So, $DB = (40 + x) \text{ m}$

Now, we have two right triangles ABC and ABD.

$$\text{In } \triangle ABC, \quad \tan 60^\circ = \frac{AB}{BC}$$

$$\text{or,} \quad \sqrt{3} = \frac{h}{x} \quad (1)$$

$$\text{In } \triangle ABD, \quad \tan 30^\circ = \frac{AB}{BD}$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}} = \frac{h}{x+40} \quad (2)$$

$$\text{From (1), we have} \quad h = x\sqrt{3}$$

Putting this value in (2), we get $(x\sqrt{3})\sqrt{3} = x + 40$, i.e., $3x = x + 40$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad x = 20$$

$$\text{So,} \quad h = 20\sqrt{3} \quad [\text{From (1)}]$$

Therefore, the height of the tower is $20\sqrt{3} \text{ m}$.

Example 6 : The angles of depression of the top and the bottom of an 8 m tall building from the top of a multi-storeyed building are 30° and 45° , respectively. Find the height of the multi-storeyed building and the distance between the two buildings.

Solution : In Fig. 9.9, PC denotes the multi-storeyed building and AB denotes the 8 m tall building. We are interested to determine the height of the multi-storeyed building, i.e., PC and the distance between the two buildings, i.e., AC. Look at the figure carefully. Observe that PB is a transversal to the parallel lines PQ and BD. Therefore, $\angle QPB$ and $\angle PBD$ are alternate angles, and so are equal. So $\angle PBD = 30^\circ$. Similarly, $\angle PAC = 45^\circ$. In right $\triangle PBD$, we have

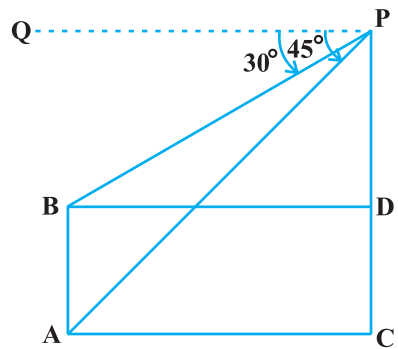


Fig. 9.9

$$\frac{PD}{BD} = \tan 30^\circ = \frac{1}{\sqrt{3}} \quad \text{or} \quad BD = PD\sqrt{3}$$

In right $\triangle PAC$, we have

$$\frac{PC}{AC} = \tan 45^\circ = 1$$

i.e., $PC = AC$

Also, $PC = PD + DC$, therefore, $PD + DC = AC$.

Since, $AC = BD$ and $DC = AB = 8$ m, we get $PD + 8 = BD = PD\sqrt{3}$ (Why?)

This gives
$$PD = \frac{8}{\sqrt{3} - 1} = \frac{8(\sqrt{3} + 1)}{(\sqrt{3} + 1)(\sqrt{3} - 1)} = 4(\sqrt{3} + 1) \text{ m.}$$

So, the height of the multi-storeyed building is $\{4(\sqrt{3} + 1) + 8\} \text{ m} = 4(3 + \sqrt{3}) \text{ m}$
and the distance between the two buildings is also $4(3 + \sqrt{3}) \text{ m}$.

Example 7 : From a point on a bridge across a river, the angles of depression of the banks on opposite sides of the river are 30° and 45° , respectively. If the bridge is at a height of 3 m from the banks, find the width of the river.

Solution : In Fig 9.10, A and B represent points on the bank on opposite sides of the river, so that AB is the width of the river. P is a point on the bridge at a height of 3 m, i.e., $DP = 3$ m. We are interested to determine the width of the river, which is the length of the side AB of the $\triangle APB$.

Now, $AB = AD + DB$

In right $\triangle APD$, $\angle A = 30^\circ$.

So,
$$\tan 30^\circ = \frac{PD}{AD}$$

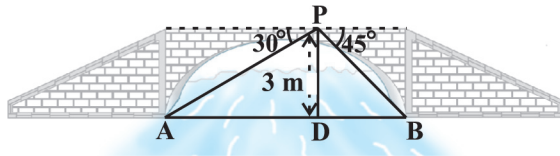


Fig. 9.10

i.e., $\frac{1}{\sqrt{3}} = \frac{3}{AD}$ or $AD = 3\sqrt{3}$ m

Also, in right $\triangle PBD$, $\angle B = 45^\circ$. So, $BD = PD = 3$ m.

Now, $AB = BD + AD = 3 + 3\sqrt{3} = 3(1 + \sqrt{3})$ m.

Therefore, the width of the river is $3(\sqrt{3} + 1)$ m.

EXERCISE 9.1

1. A circus artist is climbing a 20 m long rope, which is tightly stretched and tied from the top of a vertical pole to the ground. Find the height of the pole, if the angle made by the rope with the ground level is 30° (see Fig. 9.11).
2. A tree breaks due to storm and the broken part bends so that the top of the tree touches the ground making an angle 30° with it. The distance between the foot of the tree to the point where the top touches the ground is 8 m. Find the height of the tree.
3. A contractor plans to install two slides for the children to play in a park. For the children below the age of 5 years, she prefers to have a slide whose top is at a height of 1.5 m, and is inclined at an angle of 30° to the ground, whereas for elder children, she wants to have a steep slide at a height of 3 m, and inclined at an angle of 60° to the ground. What should be the length of the slide in each case?
4. The angle of elevation of the top of a tower from a point on the ground, which is 30 m away from the foot of the tower, is 30° . Find the height of the tower.
5. A kite is flying at a height of 60 m above the ground. The string attached to the kite is temporarily tied to a point on the ground. The inclination of the string with the ground is 60° . Find the length of the string, assuming that there is no slack in the string.
6. A 1.5 m tall boy is standing at some distance from a 30 m tall building. The angle of elevation from his eyes to the top of the building increases from 30° to 60° as he walks towards the building. Find the distance he walked towards the building.
7. From a point on the ground, the angles of elevation of the bottom and the top of a transmission tower fixed at the top of a 20 m high building are 45° and 60° respectively. Find the height of the tower.

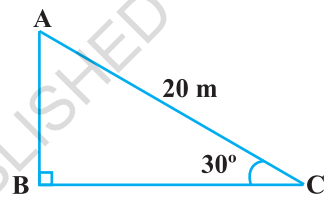


Fig. 9.11

8. A statue, 1.6 m tall, stands on the top of a pedestal. From a point on the ground, the angle of elevation of the top of the statue is 60° and from the same point the angle of elevation of the top of the pedestal is 45° . Find the height of the pedestal.
9. The angle of elevation of the top of a building from the foot of the tower is 30° and the angle of elevation of the top of the tower from the foot of the building is 60° . If the tower is 50 m high, find the height of the building.
10. Two poles of equal heights are standing opposite each other on either side of the road, which is 80 m wide. From a point between them on the road, the angles of elevation of the top of the poles are 60° and 30° , respectively. Find the height of the poles and the distances of the point from the poles.

11. A TV tower stands vertically on a bank of a canal. From a point on the other bank directly opposite the tower, the angle of elevation of the top of the tower is 60° . From another point 20 m away from this point on the line joining this point to the foot of the tower, the angle of elevation of the top of the tower is 30° (see Fig. 9.12). Find the height of the tower and the width of the canal.

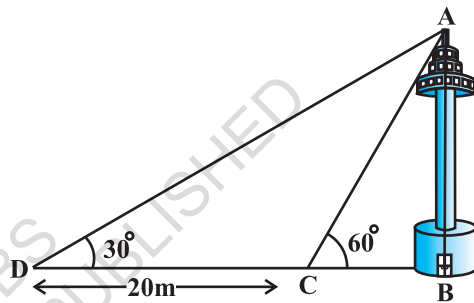


Fig. 9.12

12. From the top of a 7 m high building, the angle of elevation of the top of a cable tower is 60° and the angle of depression of its foot is 45° . Determine the height of the tower.
13. As observed from the top of a 75 m high lighthouse from the sea-level, the angles of depression of two ships are 30° and 45° . If one ship is exactly behind the other on the same side of the lighthouse, find the distance between the two ships.

14. A 1.2 m tall girl spots a balloon moving with the wind in a horizontal line at a height of 88.2 m from the ground. The angle of elevation of the balloon from the eyes of the girl at any instant is 60° . After some time, the angle of elevation reduces to 30° (see Fig. 9.13). Find the distance travelled by the balloon during the interval.

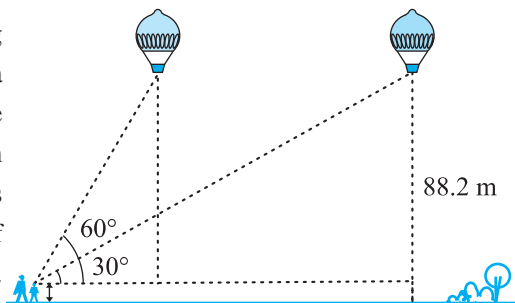


Fig. 9.13

15. A straight highway leads to the foot of a tower. A man standing at the top of the tower observes a car at an angle of depression of 30° , which is approaching the foot of the

tower with a uniform speed. Six seconds later, the angle of depression of the car is found to be 60° . Find the time taken by the car to reach the foot of the tower from this point.

9.2 Summary

In this chapter, you have studied the following points :

1. (i) The **line of sight** is the line drawn from the eye of an observer to the point in the object viewed by the observer.
(ii) The **angle of elevation** of an object viewed, is the angle formed by the line of sight with the horizontal when it is above the horizontal level, i.e., the case when we raise our head to look at the object.
(iii) The **angle of depression** of an object viewed, is the angle formed by the line of sight with the horizontal when it is below the horizontal level, i.e., the case when we lower our head to look at the object.
2. The height or length of an object or the distance between two distant objects can be determined with the help of trigonometric ratios.



1062CH10

CIRCLES

10

10.1 Introduction

You have studied in Class IX that a circle is a collection of all points in a plane which are at a constant distance (radius) from a fixed point (centre). You have also studied various terms related to a circle like chord, segment, sector, arc etc. Let us now examine the different situations that can arise when a circle and a line are given in a plane.

So, let us consider a circle and a line PQ. There can be three possibilities given in Fig. 10.1 below:

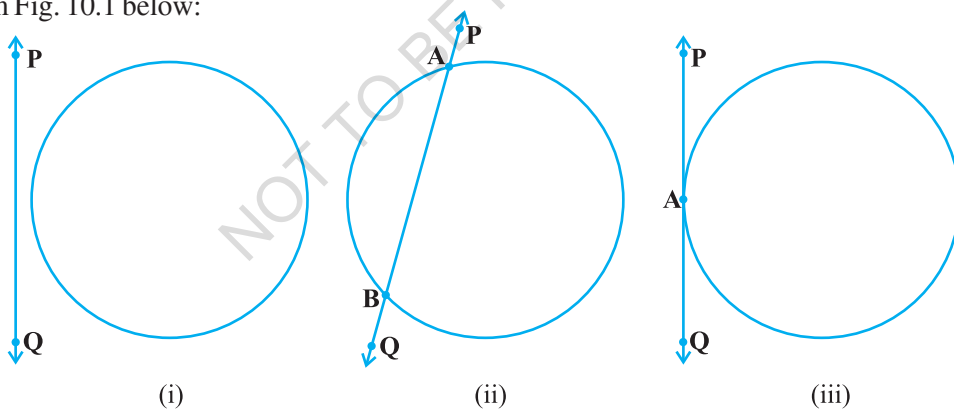


Fig. 10.1

In Fig. 10.1 (i), the line PQ and the circle have no common point. In this case, PQ is called a **non-intersecting** line with respect to the circle. In Fig. 10.1 (ii), there are two common points A and B that the line PQ and the circle have. In this case, we call the line PQ a **secant** of the circle. In Fig. 10.1 (iii), there is only one point A which is common to the line PQ and the circle. In this case, the line is called a **tangent** to the circle.

You might have seen a pulley fitted over a well which is used in taking out water from the well. Look at Fig. 10.2. Here the rope on both sides of the pulley, if considered as a ray, is like a tangent to the circle representing the pulley.

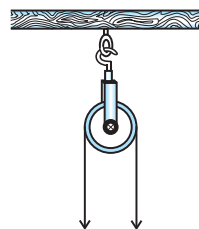


Fig. 10.2

Is there any position of the line with respect to the circle other than the types given above? You can see that there cannot be any other type of position of the line with respect to the circle. In this chapter, we will study about the existence of the tangents to a circle and also study some of their properties.

10.2 Tangent to a Circle

In the previous section, you have seen that a **tangent* to a circle is a line that intersects the circle at only one point.**

To understand the existence of the tangent to a circle at a point, let us perform the following activities:

Activity 1 : Take a circular wire and attach a straight wire AB at a point P of the circular wire so that it can rotate about the point P in a plane. Put the system on a table and gently rotate the wire AB about the point P to get different positions of the straight wire [see Fig. 10.3(i)].

In various positions, the wire intersects the circular wire at P and at another point Q_1 or Q_2 or Q_3 , etc. In one position, you will see that it will intersect the circle at the point P only (see position $A'B'$ of AB). This shows that a tangent exists at the point P of the circle. On rotating further, you can observe that in all other positions of AB, it will intersect the circle at P and at another point, say R_1 or R_2 or R_3 , etc. So, you can observe that **there is only one tangent at a point of the circle.**

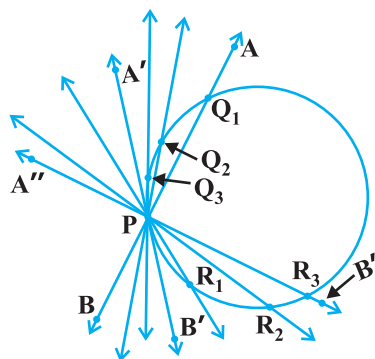


Fig. 10.3 (i)

While doing activity above, you must have observed that as the position AB moves towards the position $A'B'$, the common point, say Q_1 , of the line AB and the circle gradually comes nearer and nearer to the common point P. Ultimately, it coincides with the point P in the position $A'B'$ of $A''B''$. Again note, what happens if 'AB' is rotated rightwards about P? The common point R_3 gradually comes nearer and nearer to P and ultimately coincides with P. So, what we see is:

The tangent to a circle is a special case of the secant, when the two end points of its corresponding chord coincide.

*The word 'tangent' comes from the Latin word 'tangere', which means to touch and was introduced by the Danish mathematician Thomas Fineke in 1583.

Activity 2 : On a paper, draw a circle and a secant PQ of the circle. Draw various lines parallel to the secant on both sides of it. You will find that after some steps, the length of the chord cut by the lines will gradually decrease, i.e., the two points of intersection of the line and the circle are coming closer and closer [see Fig. 10.3(ii)]. In one case, it becomes zero on one side of the secant and in another case, it becomes zero on the other side of the secant. See the positions $P'Q'$ and $P''Q''$ of the secant in Fig. 10.3 (ii). These are the tangents to the circle parallel to the given secant PQ . This also helps you to see that there cannot be more than two tangents parallel to a given secant.

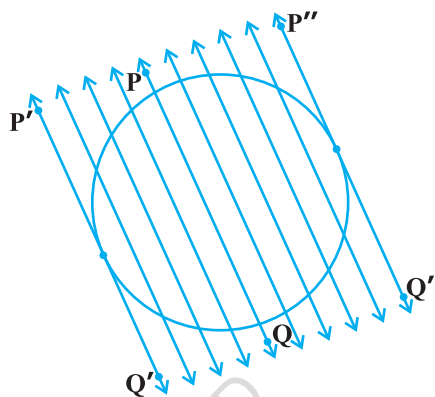


Fig. 10.3 (ii)

This activity also establishes, what you must have observed, while doing Activity 1, namely, a tangent is the secant when both of the end points of the corresponding chord coincide.

The common point of the tangent and the circle is called the **point of contact** [the point A in Fig. 10.1 (iii)] and the tangent is said to **touch** the circle at the common point.

Now look around you. Have you seen a bicycle or a cart moving? Look at its wheels. All the spokes of a wheel are along its radii. Now note the position of the wheel with respect to its movement on the ground. Do you see any tangent anywhere? (See Fig. 10.4). In fact, the wheel moves along a line which is a tangent to the circle representing the wheel. Also, notice that in all positions, the radius through the point of contact with the ground appears to be at right angles to the tangent (see Fig. 10.4). We shall now prove this property of the tangent.

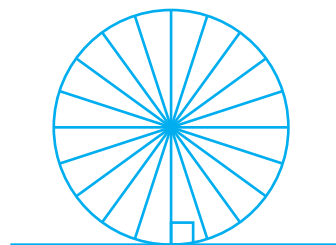


Fig. 10.4

Theorem 10.1 : *The tangent at any point of a circle is perpendicular to the radius through the point of contact.*

Proof : We are given a circle with centre O and a tangent XY to the circle at a point P . We need to prove that OP is perpendicular to XY .

Take a point Q on XY other than P and join OQ (see Fig. 10.5).

The point Q must lie outside the circle. (Why? Note that if Q lies inside the circle, XY will become a secant and not a tangent to the circle). Therefore, OQ is longer than the radius OP of the circle. That is,

$$OQ > OP.$$

Since this happens for every point on the line XY except the point P, OP is the shortest of all the distances of the point O to the points of XY. So OP is perpendicular to XY. (as shown in Theorem A1.7.)

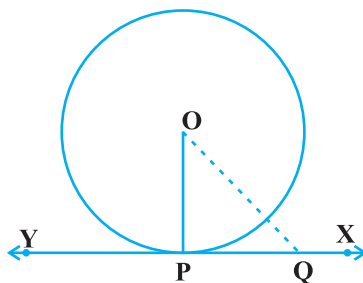


Fig. 10.5

Remarks

1. By theorem above, we can also conclude that at any point on a circle there can be one and only one tangent.
2. The line containing the radius through the point of contact is also sometimes called the 'normal' to the circle at the point.

EXERCISE 10.1

1. How many tangents can a circle have?
2. Fill in the blanks :
 - (i) A tangent to a circle intersects it in _____ point (s).
 - (ii) A line intersecting a circle in two points is called a _____ .
 - (iii) A circle can have _____ parallel tangents at the most.
 - (iv) The common point of a tangent to a circle and the circle is called _____ .
3. A tangent PQ at a point P of a circle of radius 5 cm meets a line through the centre O at a point Q so that OQ = 12 cm. Length PQ is :

(A) 12 cm (B) 13 cm (C) 8.5 cm (D) $\sqrt{119}$ cm.
4. Draw a circle and two lines parallel to a given line such that one is a tangent and the other, a secant to the circle.

10.3 Number of Tangents from a Point on a Circle

To get an idea of the number of tangents from a point on a circle, let us perform the following activity:

Activity 3 : Draw a circle on a paper. Take a point P inside it. Can you draw a tangent to the circle through this point? You will find that all the lines through this point intersect the circle in two points. So, it is not possible to draw any tangent to a circle through a point inside it [see Fig. 10.6 (i)].

Next take a point P on the circle and draw tangents through this point. You have already observed that there is only one tangent to the circle at such a point [see Fig. 10.6 (ii)].

Finally, take a point P outside the circle and try to draw tangents to the circle from this point. What do you observe? You will find that you can draw exactly two tangents to the circle through this point [see Fig. 10.6 (iii)].

We can summarise these facts as follows:

Case 1 : There is no tangent to a circle passing through a point lying inside the circle.

Case 2 : There is one and only one tangent to a circle passing through a point lying on the circle.

Case 3 : There are exactly two tangents to a circle through a point lying outside the circle.

In Fig. 10.6 (iii), T_1 and T_2 are the points of contact of the tangents PT_1 and PT_2 respectively.

The length of the segment of the tangent from the external point P and the point of contact with the circle is called the **length of the tangent** from the point P to the circle.

Note that in Fig. 10.6 (iii), PT_1 and PT_2 are the lengths of the tangents from P to the circle. The lengths PT_1 and PT_2 have a common property. Can you find this? Measure PT_1 and PT_2 . Are these equal? In fact, this is always so. Let us give a proof of this fact in the following theorem.

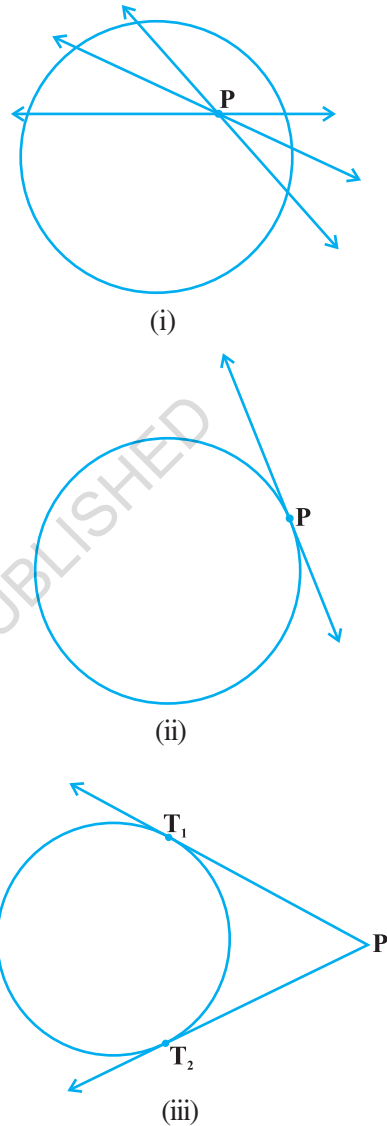


Fig. 10.6

Theorem 10.2 : *The lengths of tangents drawn from an external point to a circle are equal.*

Proof : We are given a circle with centre O, a point P lying outside the circle and two tangents PQ, PR on the circle from P (see Fig. 10.7). We are required to prove that $PQ = PR$.

For this, we join OP, OQ and OR. Then $\angle OQP$ and $\angle ORP$ are right angles, because these are angles between the radii and tangents, and according to Theorem 10.1 they are right angles. Now in right triangles OQP and ORP,

$$OQ = OR \quad (\text{Radii of the same circle})$$

$$OP = OP \quad (\text{Common})$$

$$\text{Therefore,} \quad \Delta OQP \cong \Delta ORP \quad (\text{RHS})$$

$$\text{This gives} \quad PQ = PR \quad (\text{CPCT})$$

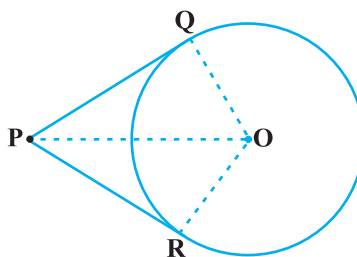


Fig. 10.7

Remarks

1. The theorem can also be proved by using the Pythagoras Theorem as follows:

$$PQ^2 = OP^2 - OQ^2 = OP^2 - OR^2 = PR^2 \quad (\text{As } OQ = OR)$$

which gives $PQ = PR$.

2. Note also that $\angle OPQ = \angle OPR$. Therefore, OP is the angle bisector of $\angle QPR$, i.e., the centre lies on the bisector of the angle between the two tangents.

Let us take some examples.

Example 1 : Prove that in two concentric circles, the chord of the larger circle, which touches the smaller circle, is bisected at the point of contact.

Solution : We are given two concentric circles C_1 and C_2 with centre O and a chord AB of the larger circle C_1 which touches the smaller circle C_2 at the point P (see Fig. 10.8). We need to prove that $AP = BP$.

Let us join OP. Then, AB is a tangent to C_2 at P and OP is its radius. Therefore, by Theorem 10.1,

$$OP \perp AB$$

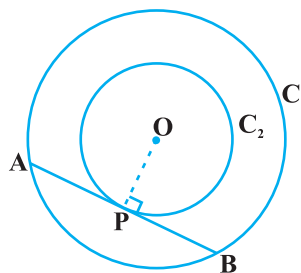


Fig. 10.8

Now AB is a chord of the circle C_1 and $OP \perp AB$. Therefore, OP is the bisector of the chord AB, as the perpendicular from the centre bisects the chord,

i.e., $AP = BP$

Example 2 : Two tangents TP and TQ are drawn to a circle with centre O from an external point T. Prove that $\angle PTQ = 2 \angle OPQ$.

Solution : We are given a circle with centre O, an external point T and two tangents TP and TQ to the circle, where P, Q are the points of contact (see Fig. 10.9). We need to prove that

$$\angle PTQ = 2 \angle OPQ$$

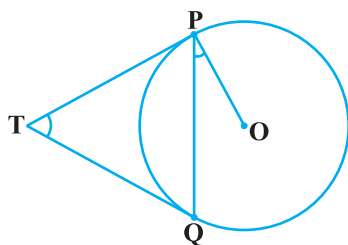


Fig. 10.9

Let $\angle PTQ = \theta$

Now, by Theorem 10.2, $TP = TQ$. So, TPQ is an isosceles triangle.

Therefore, $\angle TPQ = \angle TQP = \frac{1}{2} (180^\circ - \theta) = 90^\circ - \frac{1}{2} \theta$

Also, by Theorem 10.1, $\angle OPT = 90^\circ$

$$\begin{aligned} \text{So, } \angle OPQ &= \angle OPT - \angle TPQ = 90^\circ - \left(90^\circ - \frac{1}{2} \theta \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \theta = \frac{1}{2} \angle PTQ \end{aligned}$$

This gives $\angle PTQ = 2 \angle OPQ$

Example 3 : PQ is a chord of length 8 cm of a circle of radius 5 cm. The tangents at P and Q intersect at a point T (see Fig. 10.10). Find the length TP.

Solution : Join OT. Let it intersect PQ at the point R. Then ΔTPQ is isosceles and TO is the angle bisector of $\angle PTQ$. So, $OT \perp PQ$ and therefore, OT bisects PQ which gives $PR = RQ = 4$ cm.

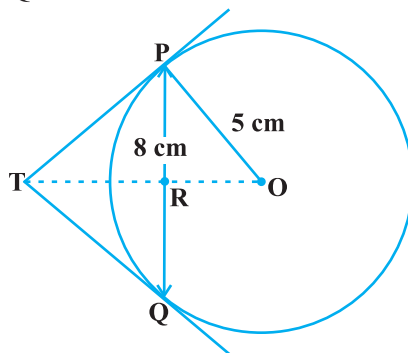


Fig. 10.10

$$\text{Also, } OR = \sqrt{OP^2 - PR^2} = \sqrt{5^2 - 4^2} \text{ cm} = 3 \text{ cm.}$$

Now, $\angle TPR + \angle RPO = 90^\circ = \angle TPR + \angle PTR$ (Why?)

So, $\angle RPO = \angle PTR$

Therefore, right triangle TRP is similar to the right triangle PRO by AA similarity.

This gives $\frac{TP}{PO} = \frac{RP}{RO}$, i.e., $\frac{TP}{5} = \frac{4}{3}$ or $TP = \frac{20}{3}$ cm.

Note : TP can also be found by using the Pythagoras Theorem, as follows:

Let $TP = x$ and $TR = y$. Then

$$x^2 = y^2 + 16 \quad (\text{Taking right } \Delta PRT) \quad (1)$$

$$x^2 + 5^2 = (y + 3)^2 \quad (\text{Taking right } \Delta OPT) \quad (2)$$

Subtracting (1) from (2), we get

$$25 = 6y - 7 \quad \text{or} \quad y = \frac{32}{6} = \frac{16}{3}$$

Therefore,
$$x^2 = \left(\frac{16}{3}\right)^2 + 16 = \frac{16}{9}(16 + 9) = \frac{16 \times 25}{9} \quad [\text{From (1)}]$$

or
$$x = \frac{20}{3}$$

EXERCISE 10.2

In Q.1 to 3, choose the correct option and give justification.

- From a point Q, the length of the tangent to a circle is 24 cm and the distance of Q from the centre is 25 cm. The radius of the circle is

- (A) 7 cm (B) 12 cm
(C) 15 cm (D) 24.5 cm

- In Fig. 10.11, if TP and TQ are the two tangents to a circle with centre O so that $\angle POQ = 110^\circ$, then $\angle PTQ$ is equal to

- (A) 60° (B) 70°
(C) 80° (D) 90°

- If tangents PA and PB from a point P to a circle with centre O are inclined to each other at angle of 80° , then $\angle POA$ is equal to

- (A) 50° (B) 60°
(C) 70° (D) 80°

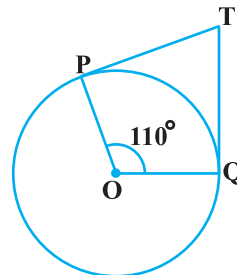


Fig. 10.11

4. Prove that the tangents drawn at the ends of a diameter of a circle are parallel.
5. Prove that the perpendicular at the point of contact to the tangent to a circle passes through the centre.
6. The length of a tangent from a point A at distance 5 cm from the centre of the circle is 4 cm. Find the radius of the circle.
7. Two concentric circles are of radii 5 cm and 3 cm. Find the length of the chord of the larger circle which touches the smaller circle.
8. A quadrilateral ABCD is drawn to circumscribe a circle (see Fig. 10.12). Prove that

$$AB + CD = AD + BC$$

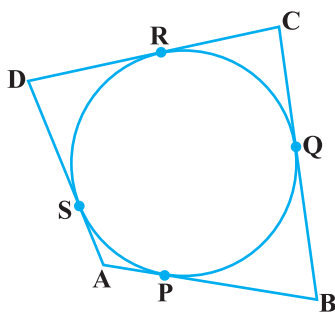


Fig. 10.12

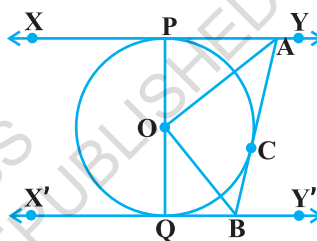


Fig. 10.13

9. In Fig. 10.13, XY and X'Y' are two parallel tangents to a circle with centre O and another tangent AB with point of contact C intersecting XY at A and X'Y' at B. Prove that $\angle AOB = 90^\circ$.
10. Prove that the angle between the two tangents drawn from an external point to a circle is supplementary to the angle subtended by the line-segment joining the points of contact at the centre.
11. Prove that the parallelogram circumscribing a circle is a rhombus.
12. A triangle ABC is drawn to circumscribe a circle of radius 4 cm such that the segments BD and DC into which BC is divided by the point of contact D are of lengths 8 cm and 6 cm respectively (see Fig. 10.14). Find the sides AB and AC.
13. Prove that opposite sides of a quadrilateral circumscribing a circle subtend supplementary angles at the centre of the circle.

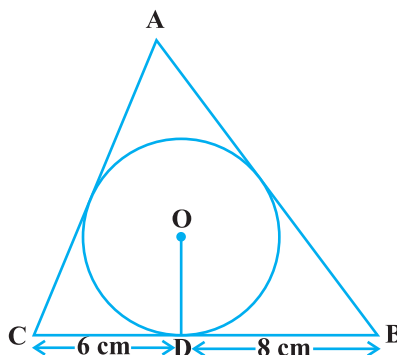


Fig. 10.14

10.4 Summary

In this chapter, you have studied the following points :

1. The meaning of a tangent to a circle.
2. The tangent to a circle is perpendicular to the radius through the point of contact.
3. The lengths of the two tangents from an external point to a circle are equal.

@KTBS
NOT TO BE REPUBLISHED



1062CH12

AREAS RELATED TO CIRCLES

11

11.1 Areas of Sector and Segment of a Circle

You have already come across the terms *sector* and *segment* of a circle in your earlier classes. Recall that the portion (or part) of the circular region enclosed by two radii and the corresponding arc is called a *sector* of the circle and the portion (or part) of the circular region enclosed between a chord and the corresponding arc is called a *segment* of the circle.

Thus, in Fig. 11.1, shaded region OAPB is a *sector* of the circle with centre O. $\angle AOB$ is called the *angle* of the sector. Note that in this figure, unshaded region OAQB is also a sector of the circle. For obvious reasons, OAPB is called the *minor sector* and OAQB is called the *major sector*. You can also see that angle of the major sector is $360^\circ - \angle AOB$.

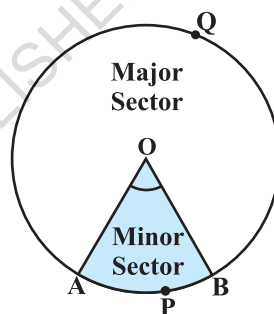


Fig. 11.1

Now, look at Fig. 11.2 in which AB is a chord of the circle with centre O. So, shaded region APB is a segment of the circle. You can also note that unshaded region AQB is another segment of the circle formed by the chord AB. For obvious reasons, APB is called the *minor segment* and AQB is called the *major segment*.

Remark : When we write ‘segment’ and ‘sector’ we will mean the ‘minor segment’ and the ‘minor sector’ respectively, unless stated otherwise.

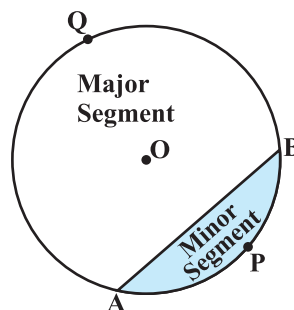


Fig. 11.2

Now with this knowledge, let us try to find some relations (or formulae) to calculate their areas.

Let OAPB be a sector of a circle with centre O and radius r (see Fig. 11.3). Let the degree measure of $\angle AOB$ be θ .

You know that area of a circle (in fact of a circular region or disc) is πr^2 .

In a way, we can consider this circular region to be a sector forming an angle of 360° (i.e., of degree measure 360) at the centre O. Now by applying the Unitary Method, we can arrive at the area of the sector OAPB as follows:

When degree measure of the angle at the centre is 360, area of the sector = πr^2

So, when the degree measure of the angle at the centre is 1, area of the sector = $\frac{\pi r^2}{360}$.

Therefore, when the degree measure of the angle at the centre is θ , area of the sector = $\frac{\pi r^2}{360} \times \theta = \frac{\theta}{360} \times \pi r^2$.

Thus, we obtain the following relation (or formula) for area of a sector of a circle:

$$\text{Area of the sector of angle } \theta = \frac{\theta}{360} \times \pi r^2,$$

where r is the radius of the circle and θ the angle of the sector in degrees.

Now, a natural question arises : Can we find the length of the arc APB corresponding to this sector? Yes. Again, by applying the Unitary Method and taking the whole length of the circle (of angle 360°) as $2\pi r$, we can obtain the required

length of the arc APB as $\frac{\theta}{360} \times 2\pi r$.

So, **length of an arc of a sector of angle θ** = $\frac{\theta}{360} \times 2\pi r$.

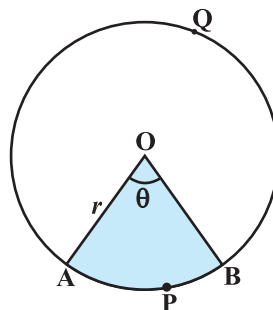


Fig. 11.3

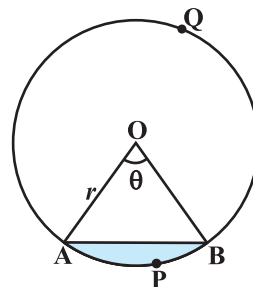


Fig. 11.4

Now let us take the case of the area of the segment APB of a circle with centre O and radius r (see Fig. 11.4). You can see that :

$$\begin{aligned}\text{Area of the segment APB} &= \text{Area of the sector OAPB} - \text{Area of } \triangle OAB \\ &= \frac{\theta}{360} \times \pi r^2 - \text{area of } \triangle OAB\end{aligned}$$

Note : From Fig. 11.3 and Fig. 11.4 respectively, you can observe that:

Area of the major sector OAQB = $\pi r^2 - \text{Area of the minor sector OAPB}$
and Area of major segment AQB = $\pi r^2 - \text{Area of the minor segment APB}$

Let us now take some examples to understand these concepts (or results).

Example 1 : Find the area of the sector of a circle with radius 4 cm and of angle 30° . Also, find the area of the corresponding major sector (Use $\pi = 3.14$).

Solution : Given sector is OAPB (see Fig. 11.5).

$$\begin{aligned}\text{Area of the sector} &= \frac{\theta}{360} \times \pi r^2 \\ &= \frac{30}{360} \times 3.14 \times 4 \times 4 \text{ cm}^2 \\ &= \frac{12.56}{3} \text{ cm}^2 = 4.19 \text{ cm}^2 \text{ (approx.)}\end{aligned}$$

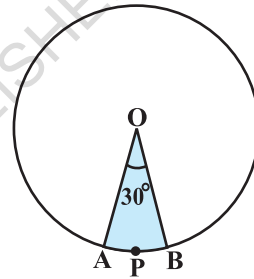


Fig. 11.5

Area of the corresponding major sector

$$\begin{aligned}&= \pi r^2 - \text{area of sector OAPB} \\ &= (3.14 \times 16 - 4.19) \text{ cm}^2 \\ &= 46.05 \text{ cm}^2 = 46.1 \text{ cm}^2 \text{ (approx.)}\end{aligned}$$

Alternatively, area of the major sector = $\frac{(360 - \theta)}{360} \times \pi r^2$

$$\begin{aligned}&= \left(\frac{360 - 30}{360} \right) \times 3.14 \times 16 \text{ cm}^2 \\ &= \frac{330}{360} \times 3.14 \times 16 \text{ cm}^2 = 46.05 \text{ cm}^2 \\ &= 46.1 \text{ cm}^2 \text{ (approx.)}\end{aligned}$$

Example 2 : Find the area of the segment AYB shown in Fig. 11.6, if radius of the circle is 21 cm and $\angle AOB = 120^\circ$. (Use $\pi = \frac{22}{7}$)

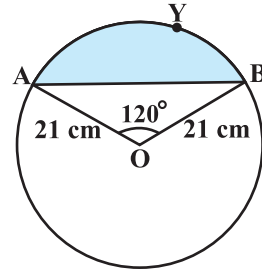


Fig. 11.6

Solution : Area of the segment AYB

$$= \text{Area of sector OAYB} - \text{Area of } \triangle OAB \quad (1)$$

$$\text{Now, area of the sector OAYB} = \frac{120}{360} \times \frac{22}{7} \times 21 \times 21 \text{ cm}^2 = 462 \text{ cm}^2 \quad (2)$$

For finding the area of $\triangle OAB$, draw $OM \perp AB$ as shown in Fig. 11.7.

Note that $OA = OB$. Therefore, by RHS congruence, $\triangle AMO \cong \triangle BMO$.

So, M is the mid-point of AB and $\angle AOM = \angle BOM = \frac{1}{2} \times 120^\circ = 60^\circ$.

Let

$$OM = x \text{ cm}$$

So, from $\triangle OMA$,

$$\frac{OM}{OA} = \cos 60^\circ$$

$$\text{or, } \frac{x}{21} = \frac{1}{2} \quad \left(\cos 60^\circ = \frac{1}{2} \right)$$

$$\text{or, } x = \frac{21}{2}$$

$$\text{So, } OM = \frac{21}{2} \text{ cm}$$

$$\text{Also, } \frac{AM}{OA} = \sin 60^\circ = \frac{\sqrt{3}}{2}$$

$$\text{So, } AM = \frac{21\sqrt{3}}{2} \text{ cm}$$

$$\text{Therefore, } AB = 2 AM = \frac{2 \times 21\sqrt{3}}{2} \text{ cm} = 21\sqrt{3} \text{ cm}$$

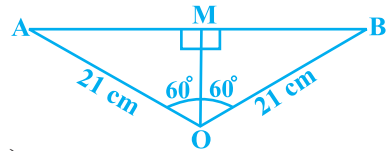


Fig. 11.7

So,
$$\begin{aligned}\text{area of } \triangle OAB &= \frac{1}{2} AB \times OM = \frac{1}{2} \times 21\sqrt{3} \times \frac{21}{2} \text{ cm}^2 \\ &= \frac{441}{4} \sqrt{3} \text{ cm}^2\end{aligned}\quad (3)$$

Therefore, area of the segment AYB $= \left(462 - \frac{441}{4} \sqrt{3} \right) \text{ cm}^2$ [From (1), (2) and (3)]

$$= \frac{21}{4} (88 - 21\sqrt{3}) \text{ cm}^2$$

EXERCISE 11.1

Unless stated otherwise, use $\pi = \frac{22}{7}$.

- Find the area of a sector of a circle with radius 6 cm if angle of the sector is 60° .
- Find the area of a quadrant of a circle whose circumference is 22 cm.
- The length of the minute hand of a clock is 14 cm. Find the area swept by the minute hand in 5 minutes.
- A chord of a circle of radius 10 cm subtends a right angle at the centre. Find the area of the corresponding : (i) minor segment (ii) major sector. (Use $\pi = 3.14$)
- In a circle of radius 21 cm, an arc subtends an angle of 60° at the centre. Find:
 - the length of the arc
 - area of the sector formed by the arc
 - area of the segment formed by the corresponding chord
- A chord of a circle of radius 15 cm subtends an angle of 60° at the centre. Find the areas of the corresponding minor and major segments of the circle.
(Use $\pi = 3.14$ and $\sqrt{3} = 1.73$)
- A chord of a circle of radius 12 cm subtends an angle of 120° at the centre. Find the area of the corresponding segment of the circle.
(Use $\pi = 3.14$ and $\sqrt{3} = 1.73$)
- A horse is tied to a peg at one corner of a square shaped grass field of side 15 m by means of a 5 m long rope (see Fig. 11.8). Find

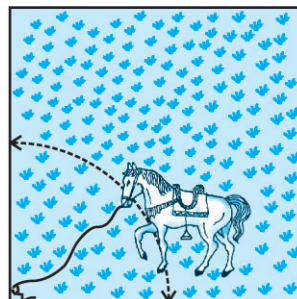


Fig. 11.8

- (i) the area of that part of the field in which the horse can graze.
- (ii) the increase in the grazing area if the rope were 10 m long instead of 5 m. (Use $\pi = 3.14$)
9. A brooch is made with silver wire in the form of a circle with diameter 35 mm. The wire is also used in making 5 diameters which divide the circle into 10 equal sectors as shown in Fig. 11.9. Find :
- (i) the total length of the silver wire required.
- (ii) the area of each sector of the brooch.
10. An umbrella has 8 ribs which are equally spaced (see Fig. 11.10). Assuming umbrella to be a flat circle of radius 45 cm, find the area between the two consecutive ribs of the umbrella.
11. A car has two wipers which do not overlap. Each wiper has a blade of length 25 cm sweeping through an angle of 115° . Find the total area cleaned at each sweep of the blades.
12. To warn ships for underwater rocks, a lighthouse spreads a red coloured light over a sector of angle 80° to a distance of 16.5 km. Find the area of the sea over which the ships are warned. (Use $\pi = 3.14$)
13. A round table cover has six equal designs as shown in Fig. 11.11. If the radius of the cover is 28 cm, find the cost of making the designs at the rate of ₹ 0.35 per cm^2 . (Use $\sqrt{3} = 1.7$)
14. Tick the correct answer in the following :

Area of a sector of angle p (in degrees) of a circle with radius R is

- (A) $\frac{p}{180} \times 2\pi R$ (B) $\frac{p}{180} \times \pi R^2$ (C) $\frac{p}{360} \times 2\pi R$ (D) $\frac{p}{720} \times 2\pi R^2$

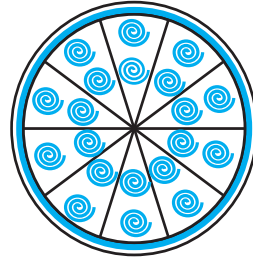


Fig. 11.9

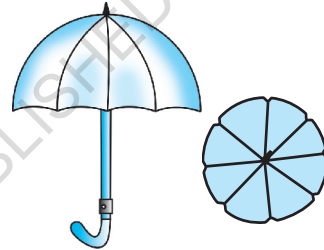


Fig. 11.10

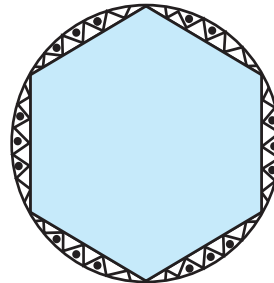


Fig. 11.11

11.2 Summary

In this chapter, you have studied the following points :

1. Length of an arc of a sector of a circle with radius r and angle with degree measure θ is

$$\frac{\theta}{360} \times 2\pi r.$$

2. Area of a sector of a circle with radius r and angle with degree measure θ is $\frac{\theta}{360} \times \pi r^2$.

3. Area of segment of a circle

= Area of the corresponding sector – Area of the corresponding triangle.

@KTBS
NOT TO BE REPUBLISHED



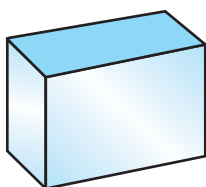
1062CH13

SURFACE AREAS AND VOLUMES

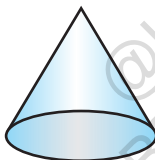
12

12.1 Introduction

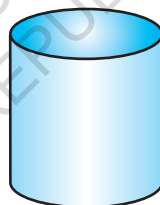
From Class IX, you are familiar with some of the solids like cuboid, cone, cylinder, and sphere (see Fig. 12.1). You have also learnt how to find their surface areas and volumes.



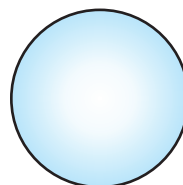
(i)



(ii)



(iii)



(iv)

Fig. 12.1

In our day-to-day life, we come across a number of solids made up of combinations of two or more of the basic solids as shown above.

You must have seen a truck with a container fitted on its back (see Fig. 12.2), carrying oil or water from one place to another. Is it in the shape of any of the four basic solids mentioned above? You may guess that it is made of a cylinder with two hemispheres as its ends.

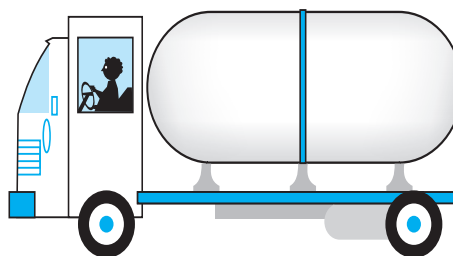


Fig. 12.2

Again, you may have seen an object like the one in Fig. 12.3. Can you name it? A test tube, right! You would have used one in your science laboratory. This tube is also a combination of a cylinder and a hemisphere. Similarly, while travelling, you may have seen some big and beautiful buildings or monuments made up of a combination of solids mentioned above.

If for some reason you wanted to find the surface areas, or volumes, or capacities of such objects, how would you do it? We cannot classify these under any of the solids you have already studied.

In this chapter, you will see how to find surface areas and volumes of such objects.

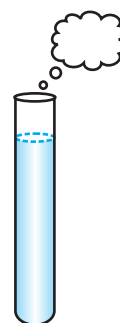


Fig. 12.3

12.2 Surface Area of a Combination of Solids

Let us consider the container seen in Fig. 12.2. How do we find the surface area of such a solid? Now, whenever we come across a new problem, we first try to see, if we can break it down into smaller problems, we have earlier solved. We can see that this solid is made up of a cylinder with two hemispheres stuck at either end. It would look like what we have in Fig. 12.4, after we put the pieces all together.



Fig. 12.4

If we consider the surface of the newly formed object, we would be able to see only the curved surfaces of the two hemispheres and the curved surface of the cylinder.

So, the *total* surface area of the new solid is the sum of the *curved* surface areas of each of the individual parts. This gives,

$$\begin{aligned} \text{TSA of new solid} &= \text{CSA of one hemisphere} + \text{CSA of cylinder} \\ &\quad + \text{CSA of other hemisphere} \end{aligned}$$

where TSA, CSA stand for 'Total Surface Area' and 'Curved Surface Area' respectively.

Let us now consider another situation. Suppose we are making a toy by putting together a hemisphere and a cone. Let us see the steps that we would be going through.

First, we would take a cone and a hemisphere and bring their flat faces together. Here, of course, we would take the base radius of the cone equal to the radius of the hemisphere, for the toy is to have a smooth surface. So, the steps would be as shown in Fig. 12.5.

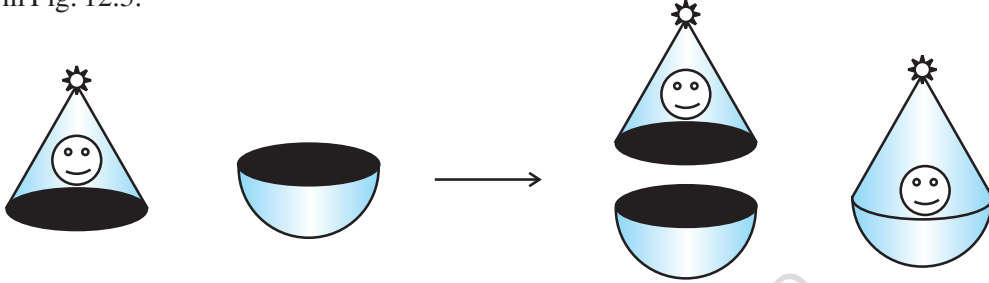


Fig. 12.5

At the end of our trial, we have got ourselves a nice round-bottomed toy. Now if we want to find how much paint we would require to colour the surface of this toy, what would we need to know? We would need to know the surface area of the toy, which consists of the CSA of the hemisphere and the CSA of the cone.

So, we can say:

$$\text{Total surface area of the toy} = \text{CSA of hemisphere} + \text{CSA of cone}$$

Now, let us consider some examples.

Example 1 : Rasheed got a playing top (*lattu*) as his birthday present, which surprisingly had no colour on it. He wanted to colour it with his crayons. The top is shaped like a cone surmounted by a hemisphere (see Fig 12.6). The entire top is 5 cm in height and the diameter of the top is 3.5 cm. Find the area he

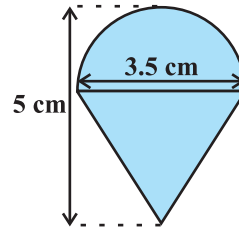


Fig. 12.6

has to colour. (Take $\pi = \frac{22}{7}$)

Solution : This top is exactly like the object we have discussed in Fig. 12.5. So, we can conveniently use the result we have arrived at there. That is :

$$\text{TSA of the toy} = \text{CSA of hemisphere} + \text{CSA of cone}$$

$$\text{Now, the curved surface area of the hemisphere} = \frac{1}{2}(4\pi r^2) = 2\pi r^2$$

$$= \left(2 \times \frac{22}{7} \times \frac{3.5}{2} \times \frac{3.5}{2} \right) \text{ cm}^2$$

Also, the height of the cone = height of the top – height (radius) of the hemispherical part

$$= \left(5 - \frac{3.5}{2} \right) \text{ cm} = 3.25 \text{ cm}$$

So, the slant height of the cone (l) = $\sqrt{r^2 + h^2} = \sqrt{\left(\frac{3.5}{2}\right)^2 + (3.25)^2} \text{ cm} = 3.7 \text{ cm (approx.)}$

Therefore, CSA of cone = $\pi r l = \left(\frac{22}{7} \times \frac{3.5}{2} \times 3.7 \right) \text{ cm}^2$

This gives the surface area of the top as

$$\begin{aligned} &= \left(2 \times \frac{22}{7} \times \frac{3.5}{2} \times \frac{3.5}{2} \right) \text{ cm}^2 + \left(\frac{22}{7} \times \frac{3.5}{2} \times 3.7 \right) \text{ cm}^2 \\ &= \frac{22}{7} \times \frac{3.5}{2} (3.5 + 3.7) \text{ cm}^2 = \frac{11}{2} \times (3.5 + 3.7) \text{ cm}^2 = 39.6 \text{ cm}^2 \text{ (approx.)} \end{aligned}$$

You may note that ‘total surface area of the top’ is *not* the sum of the total surface areas of the cone and hemisphere.

Example 2 : The decorative block shown in Fig. 12.7 is made of two solids — a cube and a hemisphere. The base of the block is a cube with edge 5 cm, and the hemisphere fixed on the top has a diameter of 4.2 cm. Find the total surface area of the block. (Take $\pi = \frac{22}{7}$)

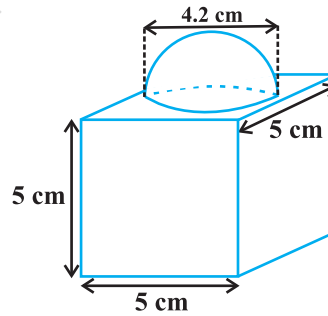


Fig. 12.7

Solution : The total surface area of the cube = $6 \times (\text{edge})^2 = 6 \times 5 \times 5 \text{ cm}^2 = 150 \text{ cm}^2$.

Note that the part of the cube where the hemisphere is attached is not included in the surface area.

So, the surface area of the block = TSA of cube – base area of hemisphere + CSA of hemisphere

$$= 150 - \pi r^2 + 2 \pi r^2 = (150 + \pi r^2) \text{ cm}^2$$

$$= 150 \text{ cm}^2 + \left(\frac{22}{7} \times \frac{4.2}{2} \times \frac{4.2}{2} \right) \text{ cm}^2$$

$$= (150 + 13.86) \text{ cm}^2 = 163.86 \text{ cm}^2$$

Example 3 : A wooden toy rocket is in the shape of a cone mounted on a cylinder, as shown in Fig. 12.8. The height of the entire rocket is 26 cm, while the height of the conical part is 6 cm. The base of the conical portion has a diameter of 5 cm, while the base diameter of the cylindrical portion is 3 cm. If the conical portion is to be painted orange and the cylindrical portion yellow, find the area of the rocket painted with each of these colours. (Take $\pi = 3.14$)

Solution : Denote radius of cone by r , slant height of cone by l , height of cone by h , radius of cylinder by r' and height of cylinder by h' . Then $r = 2.5$ cm, $h = 6$ cm, $r' = 1.5$ cm, $h' = 26 - 6 = 20$ cm and

$$l = \sqrt{r^2 + h^2} = \sqrt{2.5^2 + 6^2} \text{ cm} = 6.5 \text{ cm}$$

Here, the conical portion has its circular base resting on the base of the cylinder, but the base of the cone is larger than the base of the cylinder. So, a part of the base of the cone (a ring) is to be painted.

So, the area to be painted orange = CSA of the cone + base area of the cone
 – base area of the cylinder
 $= \pi r l + \pi r^2 - \pi (r')^2$
 $= \pi [(2.5 \times 6.5) + (2.5)^2 - (1.5)^2] \text{ cm}^2$
 $= \pi [20.25] \text{ cm}^2 = 3.14 \times 20.25 \text{ cm}^2$
 $= 63.585 \text{ cm}^2$

Now, the area to be painted yellow = CSA of the cylinder
 + area of one base of the cylinder
 $= 2\pi r' h' + \pi (r')^2$
 $= \pi r' (2h' + r')$
 $= (3.14 \times 1.5) (2 \times 20 + 1.5) \text{ cm}^2$
 $= 4.71 \times 41.5 \text{ cm}^2$
 $= 195.465 \text{ cm}^2$

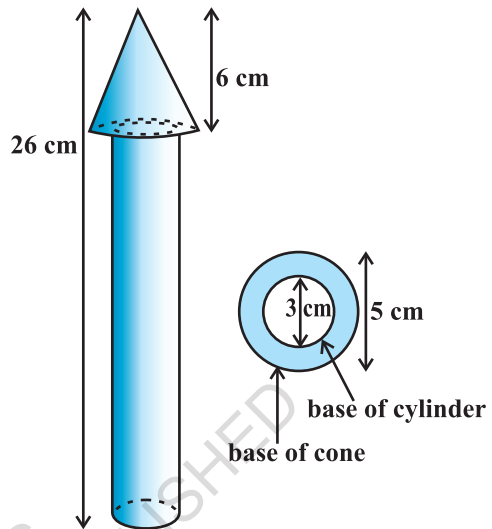


Fig. 12.8

Example 4 : Mayank made a bird-bath for his garden in the shape of a cylinder with a hemispherical depression at one end (see Fig. 12.9). The height of the cylinder is 1.45 m and its radius is 30 cm. Find the total surface area of the bird-bath. (Take $\pi = \frac{22}{7}$)

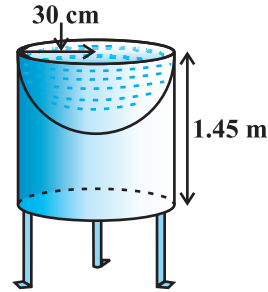


Fig. 12.9

Solution : Let h be height of the cylinder, and r the common radius of the cylinder and hemisphere. Then,

$$\begin{aligned}
 \text{the total surface area of the bird-bath} &= \text{CSA of cylinder} + \text{CSA of hemisphere} \\
 &= 2\pi rh + 2\pi r^2 = 2\pi r(h + r) \\
 &= 2 \times \frac{22}{7} \times 30(145 + 30) \text{ cm}^2 \\
 &= 33000 \text{ cm}^2 = 3.3 \text{ m}^2
 \end{aligned}$$

EXERCISE 12.1

Unless stated otherwise, take $\pi = \frac{22}{7}$.

- 2 cubes each of volume 64 cm^3 are joined end to end. Find the surface area of the resulting cuboid.
- A vessel is in the form of a hollow hemisphere mounted by a hollow cylinder. The diameter of the hemisphere is 14 cm and the total height of the vessel is 13 cm. Find the inner surface area of the vessel.
- A toy is in the form of a cone of radius 3.5 cm mounted on a hemisphere of same radius. The total height of the toy is 15.5 cm. Find the total surface area of the toy.
- A cubical block of side 7 cm is surmounted by a hemisphere. What is the greatest diameter the hemisphere can have? Find the surface area of the solid.
- A hemispherical depression is cut out from one face of a cubical wooden block such that the diameter l of the hemisphere is equal to the edge of the cube. Determine the surface area of the remaining solid.
- A medicine capsule is in the shape of a cylinder with two hemispheres stuck to each of its ends (see Fig. 12.10). The length of the entire capsule is 14 mm and the diameter of the capsule is 5 mm. Find its surface area.

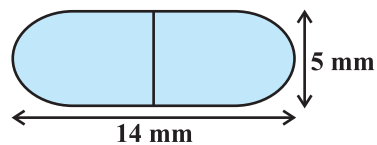


Fig. 12.10

7. A tent is in the shape of a cylinder surmounted by a conical top. If the height and diameter of the cylindrical part are 2.1 m and 4 m respectively, and the slant height of the top is 2.8 m, find the area of the canvas used for making the tent. Also, find the cost of the canvas of the tent at the rate of ₹500 per m^2 . (Note that the base of the tent will not be covered with canvas.)
8. From a solid cylinder whose height is 2.4 cm and diameter 1.4 cm, a conical cavity of the same height and same diameter is hollowed out. Find the total surface area of the remaining solid to the nearest cm^2 .
9. A wooden article was made by scooping out a hemisphere from each end of a solid cylinder, as shown in Fig. 12.11. If the height of the cylinder is 10 cm, and its base is of radius 3.5 cm, find the total surface area of the article.

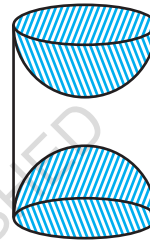


Fig. 12.11

12.3 Volume of a Combination of Solids

In the previous section, we have discussed how to find the surface area of solids made up of a combination of two basic solids. Here, we shall see how to calculate their volumes. It may be noted that in calculating the surface area, we have not added the surface areas of the two constituents, because some part of the surface area disappeared in the process of joining them. However, this will not be the case when we calculate the volume. The volume of the solid formed by joining two basic solids will actually be the sum of the volumes of the constituents, as we see in the examples below.

Example 5 : Shanta runs an industry in a shed which is in the shape of a cuboid surmounted by a half cylinder (see Fig. 12.12). If the base of the shed is of dimension $7\text{ m} \times 15\text{ m}$, and the height of the cuboidal portion is 8 m, find the volume of air that the shed can hold. Further, suppose the machinery in the shed occupies a total space of 300 m^3 , and there are 20 workers, each of whom occupy about 0.08 m^3 space on an average. Then, how much air is in the

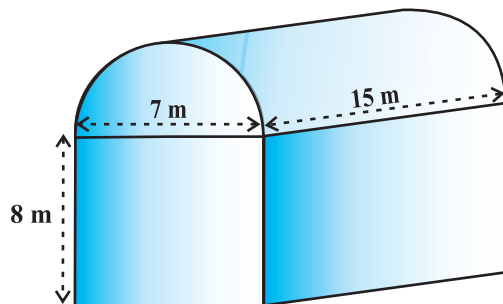


Fig. 12.12

shed? (Take $\pi = \frac{22}{7}$)

Solution : The volume of air inside the shed (when there are no people or machinery) is given by the volume of air inside the cuboid and inside the half cylinder, taken together.

Now, the length, breadth and height of the cuboid are 15 m, 7 m and 8 m, respectively. Also, the diameter of the half cylinder is 7 m and its height is 15 m.

So, the required volume = volume of the cuboid + $\frac{1}{2}$ volume of the cylinder

$$= \left[15 \times 7 \times 8 + \frac{1}{2} \times \frac{22}{7} \times \frac{7}{2} \times \frac{7}{2} \times 15 \right] \text{ m}^3 = 1128.75 \text{ m}^3$$

Next, the total space occupied by the machinery = 300 m^3

And the total space occupied by the workers = $20 \times 0.08 \text{ m}^3 = 1.6 \text{ m}^3$

Therefore, the volume of the air, when there are machinery and workers

$$= 1128.75 - (300.00 + 1.60) = 827.15 \text{ m}^3$$

Example 6 : A juice seller was serving his customers using glasses as shown in Fig. 12.13. The inner diameter of the cylindrical glass was 5 cm, but the bottom of the glass had a hemispherical raised portion which reduced the capacity of the glass. If the height of a glass was 10 cm, find the apparent capacity of the glass and its actual capacity. (Use $\pi = 3.14$.)

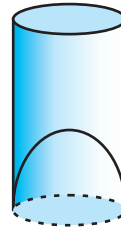


Fig. 12.13

Solution : Since the inner diameter of the glass = 5 cm and height = 10 cm,

the apparent capacity of the glass = $\pi r^2 h$

$$= 3.14 \times 2.5 \times 2.5 \times 10 \text{ cm}^3 = 196.25 \text{ cm}^3$$

But the actual capacity of the glass is less by the volume of the hemisphere at the base of the glass.

$$\text{i.e., it is less by } \frac{2}{3} \pi r^3 = \frac{2}{3} \times 3.14 \times 2.5 \times 2.5 \times 2.5 \text{ cm}^3 = 32.71 \text{ cm}^3$$

So, the actual capacity of the glass = apparent capacity of glass – volume of the hemisphere

$$= (196.25 - 32.71) \text{ cm}^3$$

$$= 163.54 \text{ cm}^3$$

Example 7 : A solid toy is in the form of a hemisphere surmounted by a right circular cone. The height of the cone is 2 cm and the diameter of the base is 4 cm. Determine the volume of the toy. If a right circular cylinder circumscribes the toy, find the difference of the volumes of the cylinder and the toy. (Take $\pi = 3.14$)

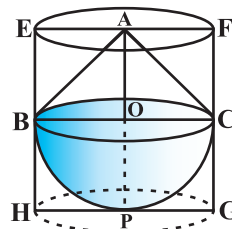


Fig. 12.14

Solution : Let BPC be the hemisphere and ABC be the cone standing on the base of the hemisphere (see Fig. 12.14). The radius BO of the hemisphere (as well as of the cone) = $\frac{1}{2} \times 4 \text{ cm} = 2 \text{ cm}$.

$$\begin{aligned} \text{So, volume of the toy} &= \frac{2}{3}\pi r^3 + \frac{1}{3}\pi r^2 h \\ &= \left[\frac{2}{3} \times 3.14 \times (2)^3 + \frac{1}{3} \times 3.14 \times (2)^2 \times 2 \right] \text{ cm}^3 = 25.12 \text{ cm}^3 \end{aligned}$$

Now, let the right circular cylinder EFGH circumscribe the given solid. The radius of the base of the right circular cylinder = HP = BO = 2 cm, and its height is

$$EH = AO + OP = (2 + 2) \text{ cm} = 4 \text{ cm}$$

$$\begin{aligned} \text{So, the volume required} &= \text{volume of the right circular cylinder} - \text{volume of the toy} \\ &= (3.14 \times 2^2 \times 4 - 25.12) \text{ cm}^3 \\ &= 25.12 \text{ cm}^3 \end{aligned}$$

Hence, the required difference of the two volumes = 25.12 cm^3 .

EXERCISE 12.2

Unless stated otherwise, take $\pi = \frac{22}{7}$.

1. A solid is in the shape of a cone standing on a hemisphere with both their radii being equal to 1 cm and the height of the cone is equal to its radius. Find the volume of the solid in terms of π .
2. Rachel, an engineering student, was asked to make a model shaped like a cylinder with two cones attached at its two ends by using a thin aluminium sheet. The diameter of the model is 3 cm and its length is 12 cm. If each cone has a height of 2 cm, find the volume of air contained in the model that Rachel made. (Assume the outer and inner dimensions of the model to be nearly the same.)

3. A *gulab jamun*, contains sugar syrup up to about 30% of its volume. Find approximately how much syrup would be found in 45 *gulab jamuns*, each shaped like a cylinder with two hemispherical ends with length 5 cm and diameter 2.8 cm (see Fig. 12.15).

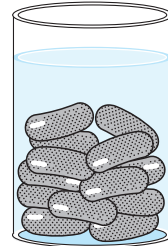


Fig. 12.15

4. A pen stand made of wood is in the shape of a cuboid with four conical depressions to hold pens. The dimensions of the cuboid are 15 cm by 10 cm by 3.5 cm. The radius of each of the depressions is 0.5 cm and the depth is 1.4 cm. Find the volume of wood in the entire stand (see Fig. 12.16).
5. A vessel is in the form of an inverted cone. Its height is 8 cm and the radius of its top, which is open, is 5 cm. It is filled with water up to the brim. When lead shots, each of which is a sphere of radius 0.5 cm are dropped into the vessel, one-fourth of the water flows out. Find the number of lead shots dropped in the vessel.

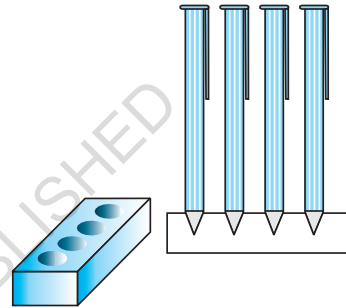


Fig. 12.16

6. A solid iron pole consists of a cylinder of height 220 cm and base diameter 24 cm, which is surmounted by another cylinder of height 60 cm and radius 8 cm. Find the mass of the pole, given that 1 cm^3 of iron has approximately 8g mass. (Use $\pi = 3.14$)
7. A solid consisting of a right circular cone of height 120 cm and radius 60 cm standing on a hemisphere of radius 60 cm is placed upright in a right circular cylinder full of water such that it touches the bottom. Find the volume of water left in the cylinder, if the radius of the cylinder is 60 cm and its height is 180 cm.
8. A spherical glass vessel has a cylindrical neck 8 cm long, 2 cm in diameter; the diameter of the spherical part is 8.5 cm. By measuring the amount of water it holds, a child finds its volume to be 345 cm^3 . Check whether she is correct, taking the above as the inside measurements, and $\pi = 3.14$.

12.4 Summary

In this chapter, you have studied the following points:

1. To determine the surface area of an object formed by combining any two of the basic solids, namely, cuboid, cone, cylinder, sphere and hemisphere.
2. To find the volume of objects formed by combining any two of a cuboid, cone, cylinder, sphere and hemisphere.



1062CH14

STATISTICS 13

13.1 Introduction

In Class IX, you have studied the classification of given data into ungrouped as well as grouped frequency distributions. You have also learnt to represent the data pictorially in the form of various graphs such as bar graphs, histograms (including those of varying widths) and frequency polygons. In fact, you went a step further by studying certain numerical representatives of the ungrouped data, also called measures of central tendency, namely, *mean*, *median* and *mode*. In this chapter, we shall extend the study of these three measures, i.e., mean, median and mode from ungrouped data to that of *grouped data*.

13.2 Mean of Grouped Data

The mean (or average) of observations, as we know, is the sum of the values of all the observations divided by the total number of observations. From Class IX, recall that if $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$ are observations with respective frequencies $f_1, f_2, \dots, f_n$, then this means observation x_1 occurs f_1 times, x_2 occurs f_2 times, and so on.

Now, the sum of the values of all the observations $= f_1x_1 + f_2x_2 + \dots + f_nx_n$, and the number of observations $= f_1 + f_2 + \dots + f_n$.

So, the mean $\bar{x}$ of the data is given by

$$\bar{x} = \frac{f_1x_1 + f_2x_2 + \dots + f_nx_n}{f_1 + f_2 + \dots + f_n}$$

Recall that we can write this in short form by using the Greek letter Σ (capital sigma) which means summation. That is,

$$\bar{x} = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n f_i x_i}{\sum_{i=1}^n f_i}$$

which, more briefly, is written as $\bar{x} = \frac{\Sigma f_i x_i}{\Sigma f_i}$, if it is understood that i varies from 1 to n .

Let us apply this formula to find the mean in the following example.

Example 1 : The marks obtained by 30 students of Class X of a certain school in a Mathematics paper consisting of 100 marks are presented in table below. Find the mean of the marks obtained by the students.

Marks obtained (x_i)	10	20	36	40	50	56	60	70	72	80	88	92	95
Number of students (f_i)	1	1	3	4	3	2	4	4	1	1	2	3	1

Solution: Recall that to find the mean marks, we require the product of each x_i with the corresponding frequency f_i . So, let us put them in a column as shown in Table 13.1.

Table 13.1

Marks obtained (x_i)	Number of students (f_i)	$f_i x_i$
10	1	10
20	1	20
36	3	108
40	4	160
50	3	150
56	2	112
60	4	240
70	4	280
72	1	72
80	1	80
88	2	176
92	3	276
95	1	95
Total	$\Sigma f_i = 30$	$\Sigma f_i x_i = 1779$

Now,

$$\bar{x} = \frac{\sum f_i x_i}{\sum f_i} = \frac{1779}{30} = 59.3$$

Therefore, the mean marks obtained is 59.3.

In most of our real life situations, data is usually so large that to make a meaningful study it needs to be condensed as grouped data. So, we need to convert given ungrouped data into grouped data and devise some method to find its mean.

Let us convert the ungrouped data of Example 1 into grouped data by forming class-intervals of width, say 15. Remember that, while allocating frequencies to each class-interval, students falling in any upper class-limit would be considered in the next class, e.g., 4 students who have obtained 40 marks would be considered in the class-interval 40-55 and not in 25-40. With this convention in our mind, let us form a grouped frequency distribution table (see Table 13.2).

Table 13.2

Class interval	10 - 25	25 - 40	40 - 55	55 - 70	70 - 85	85 - 100
Number of students	2	3	7	6	6	6

Now, for each class-interval, we require a point which would serve as the representative of the whole class. *It is assumed that the frequency of each class-interval is centred around its mid-point.* So the *mid-point* (or *class mark*) of each class can be chosen to represent the observations falling in the class. Recall that we find the mid-point of a class (or its class mark) by finding the average of its upper and lower limits. That is,

$$\text{Class mark} = \frac{\text{Upper class limit} + \text{Lower class limit}}{2}$$

With reference to Table 13.2, for the class 10-25, the class mark is $\frac{10+25}{2}$, i.e., 17.5. Similarly, we can find the class marks of the remaining class intervals. We put them in Table 13.3. These class marks serve as our x_i 's. Now, in general, for the i th class interval, we have the frequency f_i corresponding to the class mark x_i . We can now proceed to compute the mean in the same manner as in Example 1.

Table 13.3

Class interval	Number of students (f_i)	Class mark (x_i)	$f_i x_i$
10 - 25	2	17.5	35.0
25 - 40	3	32.5	97.5
40 - 55	7	47.5	332.5
55 - 70	6	62.5	375.0
70 - 85	6	77.5	465.0
85 - 100	6	92.5	555.0
Total	$\Sigma f_i = 30$		$\Sigma f_i x_i = 1860.0$

The sum of the values in the last column gives us $\Sigma f_i x_i$. So, the mean $\bar{x}$ of the given data is given by

$$\bar{x} = \frac{\Sigma f_i x_i}{\Sigma f_i} = \frac{1860.0}{30} = 62$$

This new method of finding the mean is known as the **Direct Method**.

We observe that Tables 13.1 and 13.3 are using the same data and employing the same formula for the calculation of the mean but the results obtained are different. Can you think why this is so, and which one is more accurate? The difference in the two values is because of the mid-point assumption in Table 13.3, 59.3 being the exact mean, while 62 an approximate mean.

Sometimes when the numerical values of x_i and f_i are large, finding the product of x_i and f_i becomes tedious and time consuming. So, for such situations, let us think of a method of reducing these calculations.

We can do nothing with the f_i 's, but we can change each x_i to a smaller number so that our calculations become easy. How do we do this? What about subtracting a fixed number from each of these x_i 's? Let us try this method.

The first step is to choose one among the x_i 's as the *assumed mean*, and denote it by ' a '. Also, to further reduce our calculation work, we may take ' a ' to be that x_i which lies in the centre of $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$. So, we can choose $a = 47.5$ or $a = 62.5$. Let us choose $a = 47.5$.

The next step is to find the difference d_i between a and each of the x_i 's, that is, the **deviation** of ' a ' from each of the x_i 's.

i.e.,
$$d_i = x_i - a = x_i - 47.5$$

The third step is to find the product of d_i with the corresponding f_i , and take the sum of all the $f_i d_i$'s. The calculations are shown in Table 13.4.

Table 13.4

Class interval	Number of students (f_i)	Class mark (x_i)	$d_i = x_i - 47.5$	$f_i d_i$
10 - 25	2	17.5	-30	-60
25 - 40	3	32.5	-15	-45
40 - 55	7	47.5	0	0
55 - 70	6	62.5	15	90
70 - 85	6	77.5	30	180
85 - 100	6	92.5	45	270
Total	$\Sigma f_i = 30$			$\Sigma f_i d_i = 435$

So, from Table 13.4, the mean of the deviations, $\bar{d} = \frac{\Sigma f_i d_i}{\Sigma f_i}$.

Now, let us find the relation between $\bar{d}$ and $\bar{x}$.

Since in obtaining d_i , we subtracted 'a' from each x_i , so, in order to get the mean $\bar{x}$, we need to add 'a' to $\bar{d}$. This can be explained mathematically as:

$$\text{Mean of deviations, } \bar{d} = \frac{\Sigma f_i d_i}{\Sigma f_i}$$

$$\begin{aligned} \text{So, } \bar{d} &= \frac{\Sigma f_i (x_i - a)}{\Sigma f_i} \\ &= \frac{\Sigma f_i x_i}{\Sigma f_i} - \frac{\Sigma f_i a}{\Sigma f_i} \\ &= \bar{x} - a \frac{\Sigma f_i}{\Sigma f_i} \\ &= \bar{x} - a \end{aligned}$$

$$\text{So, } \bar{x} = a + \bar{d}$$

$$\text{i.e., } \bar{x} = a + \frac{\Sigma f_i d_i}{\Sigma f_i}$$

Substituting the values of a , $\Sigma f_i d_i$ and Σf_i from Table 13.4, we get

$$\bar{x} = 47.5 + \frac{435}{30} = 47.5 + 14.5 = 62.$$

Therefore, the mean of the marks obtained by the students is 62.

The method discussed above is called the **Assumed Mean Method**.

Activity 1 : From the Table 13.3 find the mean by taking each of x_i (i.e., 17.5, 32.5, and so on) as 'a'. What do you observe? You will find that the mean determined in each case is the same, i.e., 62. (Why ?)

So, we can say that the value of the mean obtained does not depend on the choice of 'a'.

Observe that in Table 13.4, the values in Column 4 are all multiples of 15. So, if we divide the values in the entire Column 4 by 15, we would get smaller numbers to multiply with f_i . (Here, 15 is the class size of each class interval.)

So, let $u_i = \frac{x_i - a}{h}$, where a is the assumed mean and h is the class size.

Now, we calculate u_i in this way and continue as before (i.e., find $f_i u_i$ and then $\Sigma f_i u_i$). Taking $h = 15$, let us form Table 13.5.

Table 13.5

Class interval	f_i	x_i	$d_i = x_i - a$	$u_i = \frac{x_i - a}{h}$	$f_i u_i$
10 - 25	2	17.5	-30	-2	-4
25 - 40	3	32.5	-15	-1	-3
40 - 55	7	47.5	0	0	0
55 - 70	6	62.5	15	1	6
70 - 85	6	77.5	30	2	12
85 - 100	6	92.5	45	3	18
Total	$\Sigma f_i = 30$				$\Sigma f_i u_i = 29$

Let

$$\bar{u} = \frac{\Sigma f_i u_i}{\Sigma f_i}$$

Here, again let us find the relation between $\bar{u}$ and $\bar{x}$.

We have,

$$u_i = \frac{x_i - a}{h}$$

Therefore,

$$\begin{aligned}\bar{u} &= \frac{\sum f_i \frac{(x_i - a)}{h}}{\sum f_i} = \frac{1}{h} \left[\frac{\sum f_i x_i - a \sum f_i}{\sum f_i} \right] \\ &= \frac{1}{h} \left[\frac{\sum f_i x_i}{\sum f_i} - a \frac{\sum f_i}{\sum f_i} \right] \\ &= \frac{1}{h} [\bar{x} - a]\end{aligned}$$

So,

$$h\bar{u} = \bar{x} - a$$

i.e.,

$$\bar{x} = a + h\bar{u}$$

So,

$$\bar{x} = a + h \left(\frac{\sum f_i u_i}{\sum f_i} \right)$$

Now, substituting the values of a , h , $\sum f_i u_i$ and $\sum f_i$ from Table 14.5, we get

$$\begin{aligned}\bar{x} &= 47.5 + 15 \times \left(\frac{29}{30} \right) \\ &= 47.5 + 14.5 = 62\end{aligned}$$

So, the mean marks obtained by a student is 62.

The method discussed above is called the **Step-deviation** method.

We note that :

- the step-deviation method will be convenient to apply if all the d_i 's have a common factor.
- The mean obtained by all the three methods is the same.
- The assumed mean method and step-deviation method are just simplified forms of the direct method.
- The formula $\bar{x} = a + h\bar{u}$ still holds if a and h are not as given above, but are any non-zero numbers such that $u_i = \frac{x_i - a}{h}$.

Let us apply these methods in another example.

Example 2 : The table below gives the percentage distribution of female teachers in the primary schools of rural areas of various states and union territories (U.T.) of India. Find the mean percentage of female teachers by all the three methods discussed in this section.

Percentage of female teachers	15 - 25	25 - 35	35 - 45	45 - 55	55 - 65	65 - 75	75 - 85
Number of States/U.T.	6	11	7	4	4	2	1

Source : *Seventh All India School Education Survey conducted by NCERT*

Solution : Let us find the class marks, x_i , of each class, and put them in a column (see Table 13.6):

Table 13.6

Percentage of female teachers	Number of States /U.T. (f_i)	x_i
15 - 25	6	20
25 - 35	11	30
35 - 45	7	40
45 - 55	4	50
55 - 65	4	60
65 - 75	2	70
75 - 85	1	80

Here we take $a = 50$, $h = 10$, then $d_i = x_i - 50$ and $u_i = \frac{x_i - 50}{10}$.

We now find d_i and u_i and put them in Table 13.7.

Table 13.7

Percentage of female teachers	Number of states/U.T. (f_i)	x_i	$d_i = x_i - 50$	$u_i = \frac{x_i - 50}{10}$	$f_i x_i$	$f_i d_i$	$f_i u_i$
15 - 25	6	20	-30	-3	120	-180	-18
25 - 35	11	30	-20	-2	330	-220	-22
35 - 45	7	40	-10	-1	280	-70	-7
45 - 55	4	50	0	0	200	0	0
55 - 65	4	60	10	1	240	40	4
65 - 75	2	70	20	2	140	40	4
75 - 85	1	80	30	3	80	30	3
Total	35				1390	-360	-36

From the table above, we obtain $\Sigma f_i = 35$, $\Sigma f_i x_i = 1390$,

$$\Sigma f_i d_i = -360, \quad \Sigma f_i u_i = -36.$$

Using the direct method, $\bar{x} = \frac{\Sigma f_i x_i}{\Sigma f_i} = \frac{1390}{35} = 39.71$

Using the assumed mean method,

$$\bar{x} = a + \frac{\Sigma f_i d_i}{\Sigma f_i} = 50 + \frac{(-360)}{35} = 39.71$$

Using the step-deviation method,

$$\bar{x} = a + \left(\frac{\Sigma f_i u_i}{\Sigma f_i} \right) \times h = 50 + \left(\frac{-36}{35} \right) \times 10 = 39.71$$

Therefore, the mean percentage of female teachers in the primary schools of rural areas is 39.71.

Remark : The result obtained by all the three methods is the same. So the choice of method to be used depends on the numerical values of x_i and f_i . If x_i and f_i are sufficiently small, then the direct method is an appropriate choice. If x_i and f_i are numerically large numbers, then we can go for the assumed mean method or step-deviation method. If the class sizes are unequal, and x_i are large numerically, we can still apply the step-deviation method by taking h to be a suitable divisor of all the d_i 's.

Example 3 : The distribution below shows the number of wickets taken by bowlers in one-day cricket matches. Find the mean number of wickets by choosing a suitable method. What does the mean signify?

Number of wickets	20 - 60	60 - 100	100 - 150	150 - 250	250 - 350	350 - 450
Number of bowlers	7	5	16	12	2	3

Solution : Here, the class size varies, and the x_i 's are large. Let us still apply the step-deviation method with $a = 200$ and $h = 20$. Then, we obtain the data as in Table 13.8.

Table 13.8

Number of wickets taken	Number of bowlers (f_i)	x_i	$d_i = x_i - 200$	$u_i = \frac{d_i}{20}$	$u_i f_i$
20 - 60	7	40	-160	-8	-56
60 - 100	5	80	-120	-6	-30
100 - 150	16	125	-75	-3.75	-60
150 - 250	12	200	0	0	0
250 - 350	2	300	100	5	10
350 - 450	3	400	200	10	30
Total	45				-106

$$\text{So, } \bar{u} = \frac{-106}{45}. \text{ Therefore, } \bar{x} = 200 + 20 \left(\frac{-106}{45} \right) = 200 - 47.11 = 152.89.$$

This tells us that, on an average, the number of wickets taken by these 45 bowlers in one-day cricket is 152.89.

Now, let us see how well you can apply the concepts discussed in this section!

Activity 2 :

Divide the students of your class into three groups and ask each group to do one of the following activities.

1. Collect the marks obtained by all the students of your class in Mathematics in the latest examination conducted by your school. Form a grouped frequency distribution of the data obtained.
2. Collect the daily maximum temperatures recorded for a period of 30 days in your city. Present this data as a grouped frequency table.
3. Measure the heights of all the students of your class (in cm) and form a grouped frequency distribution table of this data.

After all the groups have collected the data and formed grouped frequency distribution tables, the groups should find the mean in each case by the method which they find appropriate.

EXERCISE 13.1

1. A survey was conducted by a group of students as a part of their environment awareness programme, in which they collected the following data regarding the number of plants in 20 houses in a locality. Find the mean number of plants per house.

Number of plants	0 - 2	2 - 4	4 - 6	6 - 8	8 - 10	10 - 12	12 - 14
Number of houses	1	2	1	5	6	2	3

Which method did you use for finding the mean, and why?

2. Consider the following distribution of daily wages of 50 workers of a factory.

Daily wages (in ₹)	500 - 520	520 - 540	540 - 560	560 - 580	580 - 600
Number of workers	12	14	8	6	10

Find the mean daily wages of the workers of the factory by using an appropriate method.

3. The following distribution shows the daily pocket allowance of children of a locality. The mean pocket allowance is Rs 18. Find the missing frequency f .

Daily pocket allowance (in ₹)	11 - 13	13 - 15	15 - 17	17 - 19	19 - 21	21 - 23	23 - 25
Number of children	7	6	9	13	f	5	4

4. Thirty women were examined in a hospital by a doctor and the number of heartbeats per minute were recorded and summarised as follows. Find the mean heartbeats per minute for these women, choosing a suitable method.

Number of heartbeats per minute	65 - 68	68 - 71	71 - 74	74 - 77	77 - 80	80 - 83	83 - 86
Number of women	2	4	3	8	7	4	2

5. In a retail market, fruit vendors were selling mangoes kept in packing boxes. These boxes contained varying number of mangoes. The following was the distribution of mangoes according to the number of boxes.

Number of mangoes	50 - 52	53 - 55	56 - 58	59 - 61	62 - 64
Number of boxes	15	110	135	115	25

Find the mean number of mangoes kept in a packing box. Which method of finding the mean did you choose?

6. The table below shows the daily expenditure on food of 25 households in a locality.

Daily expenditure (in ₹)	100 - 150	150 - 200	200 - 250	250 - 300	300 - 350
Number of households	4	5	12	2	2

Find the mean daily expenditure on food by a suitable method.

7. To find out the concentration of SO_2 in the air (in parts per million, i.e., ppm), the data was collected for 30 localities in a certain city and is presented below:

Concentration of SO_2 (in ppm)	Frequency
0.00 - 0.04	4
0.04 - 0.08	9
0.08 - 0.12	9
0.12 - 0.16	2
0.16 - 0.20	4
0.20 - 0.24	2

Find the mean concentration of SO_2 in the air.

8. A class teacher has the following absentee record of 40 students of a class for the whole term. Find the mean number of days a student was absent.

Number of days	0 - 6	6 - 10	10 - 14	14 - 20	20 - 28	28 - 38	38 - 40
Number of students	11	10	7	4	4	3	1

9. The following table gives the literacy rate (in percentage) of 35 cities. Find the mean literacy rate.

Literacy rate (in %)	45 - 55	55 - 65	65 - 75	75 - 85	85 - 95
Number of cities	3	10	11	8	3

13.3 Mode of Grouped Data

Recall from Class IX, a mode is that value among the observations which occurs most often, that is, the value of the observation having the maximum frequency. Further, we discussed finding the mode of ungrouped data. Here, we shall discuss ways of obtaining a mode of grouped data. It is possible that more than one value may have the same maximum frequency. In such situations, the data is said to be multimodal. Though grouped data can also be multimodal, we shall restrict ourselves to problems having a single mode only.

Let us first recall how we found the mode for ungrouped data through the following example.

Example 4 : The wickets taken by a bowler in 10 cricket matches are as follows:

2 6 4 5 0 2 1 3 2 3

Find the mode of the data.

Solution : Let us form the frequency distribution table of the given data as follows:

Number of wickets	0	1	2	3	4	5	6
Number of matches	1	1	3	2	1	1	1

Clearly, 2 is the number of wickets taken by the bowler in the maximum number (i.e., 3) of matches. So, the mode of this data is 2.

In a grouped frequency distribution, it is not possible to determine the mode by looking at the frequencies. Here, we can only locate a class with the maximum frequency, called the **modal class**. The mode is a value inside the modal class, and is given by the formula:

$$\text{Mode} = l + \left(\frac{f_1 - f_0}{2f_1 - f_0 - f_2} \right) \times h$$

where l = lower limit of the modal class,

h = size of the class interval (assuming all class sizes to be equal),

f_1 = frequency of the modal class,

f_0 = frequency of the class preceding the modal class,

f_2 = frequency of the class succeeding the modal class.

Let us consider the following examples to illustrate the use of this formula.

Example 5 : A survey conducted on 20 households in a locality by a group of students resulted in the following frequency table for the number of family members in a household:

Family size	1 - 3	3 - 5	5 - 7	7 - 9	9 - 11
Number of families	7	8	2	2	1

Find the mode of this data.

Solution : Here the maximum class frequency is 8, and the class corresponding to this frequency is 3 – 5. So, the modal class is 3 – 5.

Now

modal class = 3 – 5, lower limit (l) of modal class = 3, class size (h) = 2

frequency (f_1) of the modal class = 8,

frequency (f_0) of class preceding the modal class = 7,

frequency (f_2) of class succeeding the modal class = 2.

Now, let us substitute these values in the formula :

$$\begin{aligned}\text{Mode} &= l + \left(\frac{f_1 - f_0}{2f_1 - f_0 - f_2} \right) \times h \\ &= 3 + \left(\frac{8 - 7}{2 \times 8 - 7 - 2} \right) \times 2 = 3 + \frac{2}{7} = 3.286\end{aligned}$$

Therefore, the mode of the data above is 3.286.

Example 6 : The marks distribution of 30 students in a mathematics examination are given in Table 13.3 of Example 1. Find the mode of this data. Also compare and interpret the mode and the mean.

Solution : Refer to Table 13.3 of Example 1. Since the maximum number of students (i.e., 7) have got marks in the interval 40 - 55, the modal class is 40 - 55. Therefore,

the lower limit (l) of the modal class = 40,

the class size (h) = 15,

the frequency (f_1) of modal class = 7,

the frequency (f_0) of the class preceding the modal class = 3,

the frequency (f_2) of the class succeeding the modal class = 6.

Now, using the formula:

$$\text{Mode} = l + \left(\frac{f_1 - f_0}{2f_1 - f_0 - f_2} \right) \times h,$$

we get

$$\text{Mode} = 40 + \left(\frac{7 - 3}{14 - 6 - 3} \right) \times 15 = 52$$

So, the mode marks is 52.

Now, from Example 1, you know that the mean marks is 62.

So, the maximum number of students obtained 52 marks, while on an average a student obtained 62 marks.

Remarks :

1. In Example 6, the mode is less than the mean. But for some other problems it may be equal or more than the mean also.
2. It depends upon the demand of the situation whether we are interested in finding the average marks obtained by the students or the average of the marks obtained by most

of the students. In the first situation, the mean is required and in the second situation, the mode is required.

Activity 3 : Continuing with the same groups as formed in Activity 2 and the situations assigned to the groups. Ask each group to find the mode of the data. They should also compare this with the mean, and interpret the meaning of both.

Remark : The mode can also be calculated for grouped data with unequal class sizes. However, we shall not be discussing it.

EXERCISE 13.2

1. The following table shows the ages of the patients admitted in a hospital during a year:

Age (in years)	5 - 15	15 - 25	25 - 35	35 - 45	45 - 55	55 - 65
Number of patients	6	11	21	23	14	5

Find the mode and the mean of the data given above. Compare and interpret the two measures of central tendency.

2. The following data gives the information on the observed lifetimes (in hours) of 225 electrical components :

Lifetimes (in hours)	0 - 20	20 - 40	40 - 60	60 - 80	80 - 100	100 - 120
Frequency	10	35	52	61	38	29

Determine the modal lifetimes of the components.

3. The following data gives the distribution of total monthly household expenditure of 200 families of a village. Find the modal monthly expenditure of the families. Also, find the mean monthly expenditure :

Expenditure (in ₹)	Number of families
1000 - 1500	24
1500 - 2000	40
2000 - 2500	33
2500 - 3000	28
3000 - 3500	30
3500 - 4000	22
4000 - 4500	16
4500 - 5000	7

4. The following distribution gives the state-wise teacher-student ratio in higher secondary schools of India. Find the mode and mean of this data. Interpret the two measures.

Number of students per teacher	Number of states / U.T.
15 - 20	3
20 - 25	8
25 - 30	9
30 - 35	10
35 - 40	3
40 - 45	0
45 - 50	0
50 - 55	2

5. The given distribution shows the number of runs scored by some top batsmen of the world in one-day international cricket matches.

Runs scored	Number of batsmen
3000 - 4000	4
4000 - 5000	18
5000 - 6000	9
6000 - 7000	7
7000 - 8000	6
8000 - 9000	3
9000 - 10000	1
10000 - 11000	1

Find the mode of the data.

6. A student noted the number of cars passing through a spot on a road for 100 periods each of 3 minutes and summarised it in the table given below. Find the mode of the data :

Number of cars	0 - 10	10 - 20	20 - 30	30 - 40	40 - 50	50 - 60	60 - 70	70 - 80
Frequency	7	14	13	12	20	11	15	8

13.4 Median of Grouped Data

As you have studied in Class IX, the median is a measure of central tendency which gives the value of the middle-most observation in the data. Recall that for finding the median of ungrouped data, we first arrange the data values of the observations in

ascending order. Then, if n is odd, the median is the $\left(\frac{n+1}{2}\right)$ th observation. And, if n

is even, then the median will be the average of the $\frac{n}{2}$ th and the $\left(\frac{n}{2} + 1\right)$ th observations.

Suppose, we have to find the median of the following data, which gives the marks, out of 50, obtained by 100 students in a test :

Marks obtained	20	29	28	33	42	38	43	25
Number of students	6	28	24	15	2	4	1	20

First, we arrange the marks in ascending order and prepare a frequency table as follows :

Table 13.9

Marks obtained	Number of students (Frequency)
20	6
25	20
28	24
29	28
33	15
38	4
42	2
43	1
Total	100

Here $n = 100$, which is even. The median will be the average of the $\frac{n}{2}$ th and the $\left(\frac{n}{2} + 1\right)$ th observations, i.e., the 50th and 51st observations. To find these observations, we proceed as follows:

Table 13.10

Marks obtained	Number of students
20	6
upto 25	$6 + 20 = 26$
upto 28	$26 + 24 = 50$
upto 29	$50 + 28 = 78$
upto 33	$78 + 15 = 93$
upto 38	$93 + 4 = 97$
upto 42	$97 + 2 = 99$
upto 43	$99 + 1 = 100$

Now we add another column depicting this information to the frequency table above and name it as *cumulative frequency column*.

Table 13.11

Marks obtained	Number of students	Cumulative frequency
20	6	6
25	20	26
28	24	50
29	28	78
33	15	93
38	4	97
42	2	99
43	1	100

From the table above, we see that:

50th observation is 28 (Why?)

51st observation is 29

So,
$$\text{Median} = \frac{28 + 29}{2} = 28.5$$

Remark : The part of Table 13.11 consisting Column 1 and Column 3 is known as *Cumulative Frequency Table*. The median marks 28.5 conveys the information that about 50% students obtained marks less than 28.5 and another 50% students obtained marks more than 28.5.

Now, let us see how to obtain the median of grouped data, through the following situation.

Consider a grouped frequency distribution of marks obtained, out of 100, by 53 students, in a certain examination, as follows:

Table 13.12

Marks	Number of students
0 - 10	5
10 - 20	3
20 - 30	4
30 - 40	3
40 - 50	3
50 - 60	4
60 - 70	7
70 - 80	9
80 - 90	7
90 - 100	8

From the table above, try to answer the following questions:

How many students have scored marks less than 10? The answer is clearly 5.

How many students have scored less than 20 marks? Observe that the number of students who have scored less than 20 include the number of students who have scored marks from 0 - 10 as well as the number of students who have scored marks from 10 - 20. So, the total number of students with marks less than 20 is $5 + 3$, i.e., 8. We say that the cumulative frequency of the class 10-20 is 8.

Similarly, we can compute the cumulative frequencies of the other classes, i.e., the number of students with marks less than 30, less than 40, . . . , less than 100. We give them in Table 13.13 given below:

Table 13.13

Marks obtained	Number of students (Cumulative frequency)
Less than 10	5
Less than 20	$5 + 3 = 8$
Less than 30	$8 + 4 = 12$
Less than 40	$12 + 3 = 15$
Less than 50	$15 + 3 = 18$
Less than 60	$18 + 4 = 22$
Less than 70	$22 + 7 = 29$
Less than 80	$29 + 9 = 38$
Less than 90	$38 + 7 = 45$
Less than 100	$45 + 8 = 53$

The distribution given above is called the *cumulative frequency distribution of the less than type*. Here 10, 20, 30, . . . 100, are the upper limits of the respective class intervals.

We can similarly make the table for the number of students with scores, more than or equal to 0, more than or equal to 10, more than or equal to 20, and so on. From Table 13.12, we observe that all 53 students have scored marks more than or equal to 0. Since there are 5 students scoring marks in the interval 0 - 10, this means that there are $53 - 5 = 48$ students getting more than or equal to 10 marks. Continuing in the same manner, we get the number of students scoring 20 or above as $48 - 3 = 45$, 30 or above as $45 - 4 = 41$, and so on, as shown in Table 13.14.

Table 13.14

Marks obtained	Number of students (Cumulative frequency)
More than or equal to 0	53
More than or equal to 10	$53 - 5 = 48$
More than or equal to 20	$48 - 3 = 45$
More than or equal to 30	$45 - 4 = 41$
More than or equal to 40	$41 - 3 = 38$
More than or equal to 50	$38 - 3 = 35$
More than or equal to 60	$35 - 4 = 31$
More than or equal to 70	$31 - 7 = 24$
More than or equal to 80	$24 - 9 = 15$
More than or equal to 90	$15 - 7 = 8$

The table above is called a *cumulative frequency distribution of the more than type*. Here 0, 10, 20, ..., 90 give the lower limits of the respective class intervals.

Now, to find the median of grouped data, we can make use of any of these cumulative frequency distributions.

Let us combine Tables 13.12 and 13.13 to get Table 13.15 given below:

Table 13.15

Marks	Number of students (f)	Cumulative frequency (cf)
0 - 10	5	5
10 - 20	3	8
20 - 30	4	12
30 - 40	3	15
40 - 50	3	18
50 - 60	4	22
60 - 70	7	29
70 - 80	9	38
80 - 90	7	45
90 - 100	8	53

Now in a grouped data, we may not be able to find the middle observation by looking at the cumulative frequencies as the middle observation will be some value in

a class interval. It is, therefore, necessary to find the value inside a class that divides the whole distribution into two halves. But which class should this be?

To find this class, we find the cumulative frequencies of all the classes and $\frac{n}{2}$. We now locate the class whose cumulative frequency is greater than (and nearest to) $\frac{n}{2}$. This is called the *median class*. In the distribution above, $n = 53$. So, $\frac{n}{2} = 26.5$. Now 60 – 70 is the class whose cumulative frequency 29 is greater than (and nearest to) $\frac{n}{2}$, i.e., 26.5.

Therefore, 60 – 70 is the **median class**.

After finding the median class, we use the following formula for calculating the median.

$$\text{Median} = l + \left(\frac{\frac{n}{2} - cf}{f} \right) \times h,$$

where l = lower limit of median class,
 n = number of observations,
 cf = cumulative frequency of class preceding the median class,
 f = frequency of median class,
 h = class size (assuming class size to be equal).

Substituting the values $\frac{n}{2} = 26.5$, $l = 60$, $cf = 22$, $f = 7$, $h = 10$

in the formula above, we get

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Median} &= 60 + \left(\frac{26.5 - 22}{7} \right) \times 10 \\ &= 60 + \frac{45}{7} \\ &= 66.4 \end{aligned}$$

So, about half the students have scored marks less than 66.4, and the other half have scored marks more than 66.4.

Example 7 : A survey regarding the heights (in cm) of 51 girls of Class X of a school was conducted and the following data was obtained:

Height (in cm)	Number of girls
Less than 140	4
Less than 145	11
Less than 150	29
Less than 155	40
Less than 160	46
Less than 165	51

Find the median height.

Solution : To calculate the median height, we need to find the class intervals and their corresponding frequencies.

The given distribution being of the *less than type*, 140, 145, 150, ..., 165 give the upper limits of the corresponding class intervals. So, the classes should be below 140, 140 - 145, 145 - 150, ..., 160 - 165. Observe that from the given distribution, we find that there are 4 girls with height less than 140, i.e., the frequency of class interval below 140 is 4. Now, there are 11 girls with heights less than 145 and 4 girls with height less than 140. Therefore, the number of girls with height in the interval 140 - 145 is $11 - 4 = 7$. Similarly, the frequency of 145 - 150 is $29 - 11 = 18$, for 150 - 155, it is $40 - 29 = 11$, and so on. So, our frequency distribution table with the given cumulative frequencies becomes:

Table 13.16

Class intervals	Frequency	Cumulative frequency
Below 140	4	4
140 - 145	7	11
145 - 150	18	29
150 - 155	11	40
155 - 160	6	46
160 - 165	5	51

Now $n = 51$. So, $\frac{n}{2} = \frac{51}{2} = 25.5$. This observation lies in the class 145 - 150. Then,

l (the lower limit) = 145,

cf (the cumulative frequency of the class preceding 145 - 150) = 11,

f (the frequency of the median class 145 - 150) = 18,

h (the class size) = 5.

Using the formula, Median = $l + \left(\frac{\frac{n}{2} - cf}{f} \right) \times h$, we have

$$\begin{aligned}\text{Median} &= 145 + \left(\frac{25.5 - 11}{18} \right) \times 5 \\ &= 145 + \frac{72.5}{18} = 149.03.\end{aligned}$$

So, the median height of the girls is 149.03 cm.

This means that the height of about 50% of the girls is less than this height, and 50% are taller than this height.

Example 8 : The median of the following data is 525. Find the values of x and y , if the total frequency is 100.

Class intervals	Frequency
0 - 100	2
100 - 200	5
200 - 300	x
300 - 400	12
400 - 500	17
500 - 600	20
600 - 700	y
700 - 800	9
800 - 900	7
900 - 1000	4

Solution :

Class intervals	Frequency	Cumulative frequency
0 - 100	2	2
100 - 200	5	7
200 - 300	x	$7 + x$
300 - 400	12	$19 + x$
400 - 500	17	$36 + x$
500 - 600	20	$56 + x$
600 - 700	y	$56 + x + y$
700 - 800	9	$65 + x + y$
800 - 900	7	$72 + x + y$
900 - 1000	4	$76 + x + y$

It is given that $n = 100$

So, $76 + x + y = 100$, i.e., $x + y = 24$ (1)

The median is 525, which lies in the class 500 – 600

So, $l = 500$, $f = 20$, $cf = 36 + x$, $h = 100$

Using the formula : Median = $l + \left(\frac{\frac{n}{2} - cf}{f} \right) h$, we get

$$525 = 500 + \left(\frac{50 - 36 - x}{20} \right) \times 100$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad 525 - 500 = (14 - x) \times 5$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad 25 = 70 - 5x$$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad 5x = 70 - 25 = 45$$

$$\text{So,} \quad x = 9$$

Therefore, from (1), we get $9 + y = 24$

$$\text{i.e.,} \quad y = 15$$

Now, that you have studied about all the three measures of central tendency, let us discuss **which measure would be best suited for a particular requirement**.

The mean is the most frequently used measure of central tendency because it takes into account all the observations, and lies between the extremes, i.e., the largest and the smallest observations of the entire data. It also enables us to compare two or more distributions. For example, by comparing the average (mean) results of students of different schools of a particular examination, we can conclude which school has a better performance.

However, extreme values in the data affect the mean. For example, the mean of classes having frequencies more or less the same is a good representative of the data. But, if one class has frequency, say 2, and the five others have frequency 20, 25, 20, 21, 18, then the mean will certainly not reflect the way the data behaves. So, in such cases, the mean is not a good representative of the data.

In problems where individual observations are not important, and we wish to find out a 'typical' observation, the median is more appropriate, e.g., finding the typical productivity rate of workers, average wage in a country, etc. These are situations where extreme values may be there. So, rather than the mean, we take the median as a better measure of central tendency.

In situations which require establishing the most frequent value or most popular item, the mode is the best choice, e.g., to find the most popular T.V. programme being watched, the consumer item in greatest demand, the colour of the vehicle used by most of the people, etc.

Remarks :

1. There is an empirical relationship between the three measures of central tendency :

$$3 \text{ Median} = \text{Mode} + 2 \text{ Mean}$$

2. The median of grouped data with unequal class sizes can also be calculated. However, we shall not discuss it here.

EXERCISE 13.3

1. The following frequency distribution gives the monthly consumption of electricity of 68 consumers of a locality. Find the median, mean and mode of the data and compare them.

Monthly consumption (in units)	Number of consumers
65 - 85	4
85 - 105	5
105 - 125	13
125 - 145	20
145 - 165	14
165 - 185	8
185 - 205	4

2. If the median of the distribution given below is 28.5, find the values of x and y .

Class interval	Frequency
0 - 10	5
10 - 20	x
20 - 30	20
30 - 40	15
40 - 50	y
50 - 60	5
Total	60

3. A life insurance agent found the following data for distribution of ages of 100 policy holders. Calculate the median age, if policies are given only to persons having age 18 years onwards but less than 60 year.

Age (in years)	Number of policy holders
Below 20	2
Below 25	6
Below 30	24
Below 35	45
Below 40	78
Below 45	89
Below 50	92
Below 55	98
Below 60	100

4. The lengths of 40 leaves of a plant are measured correct to the nearest millimetre, and the data obtained is represented in the following table :

Length (in mm)	Number of leaves
118 - 126	3
127 - 135	5
136 - 144	9
145 - 153	12
154 - 162	5
163 - 171	4
172 - 180	2

Find the median length of the leaves.

(**Hint :** The data needs to be converted to continuous classes for finding the median, since the formula assumes continuous classes. The classes then change to 117.5 - 126.5, 126.5 - 135.5, ..., 171.5 - 180.5.)

5. The following table gives the distribution of the life time of 400 neon lamps :

Life time (in hours)	Number of lamps
1500 - 2000	14
2000 - 2500	56
2500 - 3000	60
3000 - 3500	86
3500 - 4000	74
4000 - 4500	62
4500 - 5000	48

Find the median life time of a lamp.

6. 100 surnames were randomly picked up from a local telephone directory and the frequency distribution of the number of letters in the English alphabets in the surnames was obtained as follows:

Number of letters	1 - 4	4 - 7	7 - 10	10 - 13	13 - 16	16 - 19
Number of surnames	6	30	40	16	4	4

Determine the median number of letters in the surnames. Find the mean number of letters in the surnames? Also, find the modal size of the surnames.

7. The distribution below gives the weights of 30 students of a class. Find the median weight of the students.

Weight (in kg)	40 - 45	45 - 50	50 - 55	55 - 60	60 - 65	65 - 70	70 - 75
Number of students	2	3	8	6	6	3	2

13.5 Summary

In this chapter, you have studied the following points:

1. The mean for grouped data can be found by :

(i) the direct method : $\bar{x} = \frac{\sum f_i x_i}{\sum f_i}$

(ii) the assumed mean method : $\bar{x} = a + \frac{\sum f_i d_i}{\sum f_i}$

(iii) the step deviation method : $\bar{x} = a + \left(\frac{\sum f_i u_i}{\sum f_i} \right) \times h$,

with the assumption that the frequency of a class is centred at its mid-point, called its class mark.

2. The mode for grouped data can be found by using the formula:

$$\text{Mode} = l + \left(\frac{f_1 - f_0}{2f_1 - f_0 - f_2} \right) \times h$$

where symbols have their usual meanings.

3. The cumulative frequency of a class is the frequency obtained by adding the frequencies of all the classes preceding the given class.
4. The median for grouped data is formed by using the formula:

$$\text{Median} = l + \left(\frac{\frac{n}{2} - cf}{f} \right) \times h,$$

where symbols have their usual meanings.

A NOTE TO THE READER

For calculating mode and median for grouped data, it should be ensured that the class intervals are continuous before applying the formulae.



1062CH15

PROBABILITY

14

The theory of probabilities and the theory of errors now constitute a formidable body of great mathematical interest and of great practical importance.

– R.S. Woodward

14.1 Probability — A Theoretical Approach

Let us consider the following situation :

Suppose a coin is tossed *at random*.

When we speak of a coin, we assume it to be ‘fair’, that is, it is symmetrical so that there is no reason for it to come down more often on one side than the other. We call this property of the coin as being ‘unbiased’. By the phrase ‘random toss’, we mean that the coin is allowed to fall freely without any *bias* or *interference*.

We know, in advance, that the coin can only land in one of two possible ways — either head up or tail up (we dismiss the possibility of its ‘landing’ on its edge, which may be possible, for example, if it falls on sand). We can reasonably assume that each outcome, head or tail, is *as likely to occur as the other*. We refer to this by saying that *the outcomes head and tail, are equally likely*.

For another example of equally likely outcomes, suppose we throw a die once. For us, a die will always mean a fair die. What are the possible outcomes? They are 1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6. Each number has the same possibility of showing up. So the *equally likely outcomes* of throwing a die are 1, 2, 3, 4, 5 and 6.

Are the outcomes of every experiment equally likely? Let us see.

Suppose that a bag contains 4 red balls and 1 blue ball, and you draw a ball without looking into the bag. What are the outcomes? Are the outcomes — a red ball and a blue ball equally likely? Since there are 4 red balls and only one blue ball, you would agree that you are more likely to get a red ball than a blue ball. So, the outcomes (a red ball or a blue ball) are *not* equally likely. However, the outcome of drawing a ball of any colour from the bag is equally likely. So, all experiments do not necessarily have equally likely outcomes.

However, in this chapter, from now on, we will **assume that all the experiments have equally likely outcomes**.

In Class IX, we defined the experimental or empirical probability $P(E)$ of an event E as

$$P(E) = \frac{\text{Number of trials in which the event happened}}{\text{Total number of trials}}$$

The empirical interpretation of probability can be applied to every event associated with an experiment which can be repeated a large number of times. The requirement of repeating an experiment has some limitations, as it may be very expensive or unfeasible in many situations. Of course, it worked well in coin tossing or die throwing experiments. But how about repeating the experiment of launching a satellite in order to compute the empirical probability of its failure during launching, or the repetition of the phenomenon of an earthquake to compute the empirical probability of a multi-storeyed building getting destroyed in an earthquake?

In experiments where we are prepared to make certain assumptions, the repetition of an experiment can be avoided, as the assumptions help in directly calculating the exact (theoretical) probability. The assumption of equally likely outcomes (which is valid in many experiments, as in the two examples above, of a coin and of a die) is one such assumption that leads us to the following definition of probability of an event.

The **theoretical probability** (also called **classical probability**) of an event E , written as $P(E)$, is defined as

$$P(E) = \frac{\text{Number of outcomes favourable to } E}{\text{Number of all possible outcomes of the experiment}},$$

where we assume that the outcomes of the experiment are *equally likely*.

We will briefly refer to theoretical probability as probability.

This definition of probability was given by Pierre Simon Laplace in 1795.

Probability theory had its origin in the 16th century when an Italian physician and mathematician J. Cardan wrote the first book on the subject, *The Book on Games of Chance*. Since its inception, the study of probability has attracted the attention of great mathematicians. James Bernoulli (1654 – 1705), A. de Moivre (1667 – 1754), and Pierre Simon Laplace are among those who made significant contributions to this field. Laplace's *Theorie Analytique des Probabilités*, 1812, is considered to be the greatest contribution by a single person to the theory of probability. In recent years, probability has been used extensively in many areas such as biology, economics, genetics, physics, sociology etc.



Pierre Simon Laplace
(1749 – 1827)

Let us find the probability for some of the events associated with experiments where the equally likely assumption holds.

Example 1 : Find the probability of getting a head when a coin is tossed once. Also find the probability of getting a tail.

Solution : In the experiment of tossing a coin once, the number of possible outcomes is two — Head (H) and Tail (T). Let E be the event ‘getting a head’. The number of outcomes favourable to E, (i.e., of getting a head) is 1. Therefore,

$$P(E) = P(\text{head}) = \frac{\text{Number of outcomes favourable to E}}{\text{Number of all possible outcomes}} = \frac{1}{2}$$

Similarly, if F is the event ‘getting a tail’, then

$$P(F) = P(\text{tail}) = \frac{1}{2} \quad (\text{Why ?})$$

Example 2 : A bag contains a red ball, a blue ball and a yellow ball, all the balls being of the same size. Kritika takes out a ball from the bag without looking into it. What is the probability that she takes out the

- (i) yellow ball? (ii) red ball? (iii) blue ball?

Solution : Kritika takes out a ball from the bag without looking into it. So, it is equally likely that she takes out any one of them.

Let Y be the event ‘the ball taken out is yellow’, B be the event ‘the ball taken out is blue’, and R be the event ‘the ball taken out is red’.

Now, the number of possible outcomes = 3.

(i) The number of outcomes favourable to the event Y = 1.

So, $P(Y) = \frac{1}{3}$

Similarly, (ii) $P(R) = \frac{1}{3}$ and (iii) $P(B) = \frac{1}{3}$.

Remarks :

1. An event having only one outcome of the experiment is called an *elementary event*. In Example 1, both the events E and F are elementary events. Similarly, in Example 2, all the three events, Y, B and R are elementary events.

2. In Example 1, we note that : $P(E) + P(F) = 1$

In Example 2, we note that : $P(Y) + P(R) + P(B) = 1$

Observe that **the sum of the probabilities of all the elementary events of an experiment** is 1. This is true in general also.

Example 3 : Suppose we throw a die once. (i) What is the probability of getting a number greater than 4 ? (ii) What is the probability of getting a number less than or equal to 4 ?

Solution : (i) Here, let E be the event ‘getting a number greater than 4’. The number of possible outcomes is six : 1, 2, 3, 4, 5 and 6, and the outcomes favourable to E are 5 and 6. Therefore, the number of outcomes favourable to E is 2. So,

$$P(E) = P(\text{number greater than 4}) = \frac{2}{6} = \frac{1}{3}$$

(ii) Let F be the event ‘getting a number less than or equal to 4’.

Number of possible outcomes = 6

Outcomes favourable to the event F are 1, 2, 3, 4.

So, the number of outcomes favourable to F is 4.

Therefore, $P(F) = \frac{4}{6} = \frac{2}{3}$

Are the events E and F in the example above elementary events? No, they are **not** because the event E has 2 outcomes and the event F has 4 outcomes.

Remarks : From Example 1, we note that

$$P(E) + P(F) = \frac{1}{2} + \frac{1}{2} = 1 \quad (1)$$

where E is the event ‘getting a head’ and F is the event ‘getting a tail’.

From (i) and (ii) of Example 3, we also get

$$P(E) + P(F) = \frac{1}{3} + \frac{2}{3} = 1 \quad (2)$$

where E is the event ‘getting a number >4 ’ and F is the event ‘getting a number ≤ 4 ’.

Note that getting a number *not* greater than 4 is same as getting a number less than or equal to 4, and vice versa.

In (1) and (2) above, is F not the same as ‘not E’? Yes, it is. We denote the event ‘not E’ by $\bar{E}$.

So, $P(E) + P(\text{not } E) = 1$

i.e., $P(E) + P(\bar{E}) = 1$, which gives us $P(\bar{E}) = 1 - P(E)$.

In general, it is true that for an event E,

$$P(\bar{E}) = 1 - P(E)$$

The event $\bar{E}$, representing ‘not E’, is called the **complement** of the event E. We also say that E and $\bar{E}$ are **complementary** events.

Before proceeding further, let us try to find the answers to the following questions:

- (i) What is the probability of getting a number 8 in a single throw of a die?
- (ii) What is the probability of getting a number less than 7 in a single throw of a die?

Let us answer (i) :

We know that there are only six possible outcomes in a single throw of a die. These outcomes are 1, 2, 3, 4, 5 and 6. Since no face of the die is marked 8, so there is no outcome favourable to 8, i.e., the number of such outcomes is zero. In other words, getting 8 in a single throw of a die, is *impossible*.

So, $P(\text{getting } 8) = \frac{0}{6} = 0$

That is, the probability of an event which is *impossible* to occur is 0. Such an event is called an **impossible event**.

Let us answer (ii) :

Since every face of a die is marked with a number less than 7, it is *sure* that we will always get a number less than 7 when it is thrown once. So, the number of favourable outcomes is the same as the number of all possible outcomes, which is 6.

Therefore, $P(E) = P(\text{getting a number less than 7}) = \frac{6}{6} = 1$

So, the probability of an event which is *sure* (or *certain*) to occur is 1. Such an event is called a **sure event** or a **certain event**.

Note : From the definition of the probability $P(E)$, we see that the numerator (number of outcomes favourable to the event E) is always less than or equal to the denominator (the number of all possible outcomes). Therefore,

$$0 \leq P(E) \leq 1$$

Now, let us take an example related to playing cards. Have you seen a deck of playing cards? It consists of 52 cards which are divided into 4 suits of 13 cards each—spades (♠), hearts (♥), diamonds (♦) and clubs (♣). Clubs and spades are of black colour, while hearts and diamonds are of red colour. The cards in each suit are ace, king, queen, jack, 10, 9, 8, 7, 6, 5, 4, 3 and 2. Kings, queens and jacks are called *face cards*.

Example 4 : One card is drawn from a well-shuffled deck of 52 cards. Calculate the probability that the card will

- (i) be an ace,
- (ii) not be an ace.

Solution : Well-shuffling ensures *equally likely* outcomes.

- (i) There are 4 aces in a deck. Let E be the event ‘the card is an ace’.

The number of outcomes favourable to $E = 4$

The number of possible outcomes = 52 (Why ?)

Therefore, $P(E) = \frac{4}{52} = \frac{1}{13}$

- (ii) Let F be the event ‘card drawn is not an ace’.

The number of outcomes favourable to the event $F = 52 - 4 = 48$ (Why?)

The number of possible outcomes = 52

Therefore,
$$P(F) = \frac{48}{52} = \frac{12}{13}$$

Remark : Note that F is nothing but $\bar{E}$. Therefore, we can also calculate P(F) as

follows:
$$P(F) = P(\bar{E}) = 1 - P(E) = 1 - \frac{1}{13} = \frac{12}{13}.$$

Example 5 : Two players, Sangeeta and Reshma, play a tennis match. It is known that the probability of Sangeeta winning the match is 0.62. What is the probability of Reshma winning the match?

Solution : Let S and R denote the events that Sangeeta wins the match and Reshma wins the match, respectively.

The probability of Sangeeta's winning = $P(S) = 0.62$ (given)

The probability of Reshma's winning = $P(R) = 1 - P(S)$

[As the events R and S are complementary]

$$= 1 - 0.62 = 0.38$$

Example 6 : Savita and Hamida are friends. What is the probability that both will have (i) different birthdays? (ii) the same birthday? (ignoring a leap year).

Solution : Out of the two friends, one girl, say, Savita's birthday can be any day of the year. Now, Hamida's birthday can also be any day of 365 days in the year.

We assume that these 365 outcomes are equally likely.

- (i) If Hamida's birthday is different from Savita's, the number of favourable outcomes for her birthday is $365 - 1 = 364$

So,
$$P(\text{Hamida's birthday is different from Savita's birthday}) = \frac{364}{365}$$

- (ii) $P(\text{Savita and Hamida have the same birthday})$

$$\begin{aligned} &= 1 - P(\text{both have different birthdays}) \\ &= 1 - \frac{364}{365} \quad [\text{Using } P(\bar{E}) = 1 - P(E)] \\ &= \frac{1}{365} \end{aligned}$$

Example 7 : There are 40 students in Class X of a school of whom 25 are girls and 15 are boys. The class teacher has to select one student as a class representative. She writes the name of each student on a separate card, the cards being identical. Then she puts cards in a bag and stirs them thoroughly. She then draws one card from the bag. What is the probability that the name written on the card is the name of (i) a girl? (ii) a boy?

Solution : There are 40 students, and only one name card has to be chosen.

- (i) The number of all possible outcomes is 40

The number of outcomes favourable for a card with the name of a girl = 25 (Why?)

$$\text{Therefore, } P(\text{card with name of a girl}) = P(\text{Girl}) = \frac{25}{40} = \frac{5}{8}$$

- (ii) The number of outcomes favourable for a card with the name of a boy = 15 (Why?)

$$\text{Therefore, } P(\text{card with name of a boy}) = P(\text{Boy}) = \frac{15}{40} = \frac{3}{8}$$

Note : We can also determine $P(\text{Boy})$, by taking

$$P(\text{Boy}) = 1 - P(\text{not Boy}) = 1 - P(\text{Girl}) = 1 - \frac{5}{8} = \frac{3}{8}$$

Example 8 : A box contains 3 blue, 2 white, and 4 red marbles. If a marble is drawn at random from the box, what is the probability that it will be

- (i) white? (ii) blue? (iii) red?

Solution : Saying that a marble is drawn at random is a short way of saying that all the marbles are equally likely to be drawn. Therefore, the

$$\text{number of possible outcomes} = 3 + 2 + 4 = 9 \quad (\text{Why?})$$

Let W denote the event 'the marble is white', B denote the event 'the marble is blue' and R denote the event 'marble is red'.

- (i) The number of outcomes favourable to the event W = 2

$$\text{So, } P(W) = \frac{2}{9}$$

$$\text{Similarly, } (ii) \ P(B) = \frac{3}{9} = \frac{1}{3} \quad \text{and} \quad (iii) \ P(R) = \frac{4}{9}$$

Note that $P(W) + P(B) + P(R) = 1$.

Example 9 : Harpreet tosses two different coins simultaneously (say, one is of ₹ 1 and other of ₹ 2). What is the probability that she gets *at least* one head?

Solution : We write H for ‘head’ and T for ‘tail’. When two coins are tossed simultaneously, the possible outcomes are (H, H), (H, T), (T, H), (T, T), which are all *equally likely*. Here (H, H) means head up on the first coin (say on ₹ 1) and head up on the second coin (₹ 2). Similarly (H, T) means head up on the first coin and tail up on the second coin and so on.

The outcomes favourable to the event E, ‘at least one head’ are (H, H), (H, T) and (T, H). (Why?)

So, the number of outcomes favourable to E is 3.

Therefore, $P(E) = \frac{3}{4}$

i.e., the probability that Harpreet gets at least one head is $\frac{3}{4}$.

Note : You can also find $P(E)$ as follows:

$$P(E) = 1 - P(\bar{E}) = 1 - \frac{1}{4} = \frac{3}{4} \quad \left(\text{Since } P(\bar{E}) = P(\text{no head}) = \frac{1}{4} \right)$$

Did you observe that in all the examples discussed so far, the number of possible outcomes in each experiment was finite? If not, check it now.

There are many experiments in which the outcome is any number between two given numbers, or in which the outcome is every point within a circle or rectangle, etc. Can you now count the number of all possible outcomes? As you know, this is not possible since there are infinitely many numbers between two given numbers, or there are infinitely many points within a circle. So, the definition of (theoretical) probability which you have learnt so far cannot be applied in the present form. What is the way out? To answer this, let us consider the following example :

Example 10* : In a musical chair game, the person playing the music has been advised to stop playing the music at any time within 2 minutes after she starts playing. What is the probability that the music will stop within the first half-minute after starting?

Solution : Here the possible outcomes are all the numbers between 0 and 2. This is the portion of the number line from 0 to 2 (see Fig. 14.1).

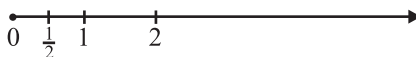


Fig. 14.1

* Not from the examination point of view.

Let E be the event that ‘the music is stopped within the first half-minute’.

The outcomes favourable to E are points on the number line from 0 to $\frac{1}{2}$.

The distance from 0 to 2 is 2, while the distance from 0 to $\frac{1}{2}$ is $\frac{1}{2}$.

Since all the outcomes are equally likely, we can argue that, of the total distance of 2, the distance favourable to the event E is $\frac{1}{2}$.

$$\text{So, } P(E) = \frac{\text{Distance favourable to the event } E}{\text{Total distance in which outcomes can lie}} = \frac{\frac{1}{2}}{2} = \frac{1}{4}$$

Can we now extend the idea of Example 10 for finding the probability as the ratio of the favourable area to the total area?

Example 11* : A missing helicopter is reported to have crashed somewhere in the rectangular region shown in Fig. 14.2. What is the probability that it crashed inside the lake shown in the figure?

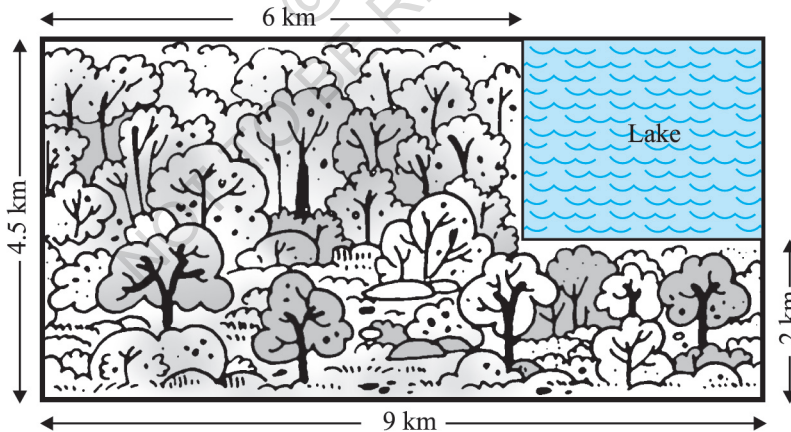


Fig. 14.2

Solution : The helicopter is equally likely to crash anywhere in the region.

Area of the entire region where the helicopter can crash

$$= (4.5 \times 9) \text{ km}^2 = 40.5 \text{ km}^2$$

* Not from the examination point of view.

Area of the lake = $(2.5 \times 3) \text{ km}^2 = 7.5 \text{ km}^2$

Therefore, $P(\text{helicopter crashed in the lake}) = \frac{7.5}{40.5} = \frac{75}{405} = \frac{5}{27}$

Example 12 : A carton consists of 100 shirts of which 88 are good, 8 have minor defects and 4 have major defects. Jimmy, a trader, will only accept the shirts which are good, but Sujatha, another trader, will only reject the shirts which have major defects. One shirt is drawn at random from the carton. What is the probability that

- (i) it is acceptable to Jimmy?
- (ii) it is acceptable to Sujatha?

Solution : One shirt is drawn at random from the carton of 100 shirts. Therefore, there are 100 equally likely outcomes.

- (i) The number of outcomes favourable (i.e., acceptable) to Jimmy = 88 (Why?)

$$\text{Therefore, } P(\text{shirt is acceptable to Jimmy}) = \frac{88}{100} = 0.88$$

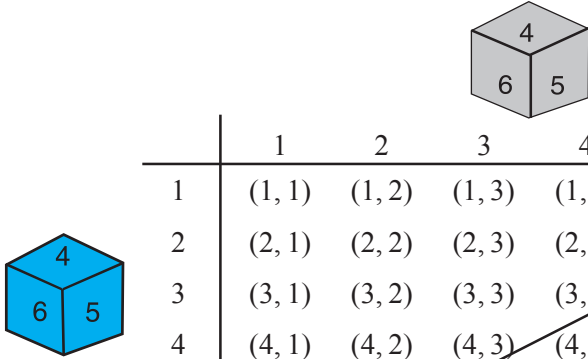
- (ii) The number of outcomes favourable to Sujatha = $88 + 8 = 96$ (Why?)

$$\text{So, } P(\text{shirt is acceptable to Sujatha}) = \frac{96}{100} = 0.96$$

Example 13 : Two dice, one blue and one grey, are thrown at the same time. Write down all the possible outcomes. What is the probability that the sum of the two numbers appearing on the top of the dice is

- (i) 8?
- (ii) 13?
- (iii) less than or equal to 12?

Solution : When the blue die shows '1', the grey die could show any one of the numbers 1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6. The same is true when the blue die shows '2', '3', '4', '5' or '6'. The possible outcomes of the experiment are listed in the table below; the first number in each ordered pair is the number appearing on the blue die and the second number is that on the grey die.



	1	2	3	4	5	6
1	(1, 1)	(1, 2)	(1, 3)	(1, 4)	(1, 5)	(1, 6)
2	(2, 1)	(2, 2)	(2, 3)	(2, 4)	(2, 5)	(2, 6)
3	(3, 1)	(3, 2)	(3, 3)	(3, 4)	(3, 5)	(3, 6)
4	(4, 1)	(4, 2)	(4, 3)	(4, 4)	(4, 5)	(4, 6)
5	(5, 1)	(5, 2)	(5, 3)	(5, 4)	(5, 5)	(5, 6)
6	(6, 1)	(6, 2)	(6, 3)	(6, 4)	(6, 5)	(6, 6)

Fig. 14.3

Note that the pair (1, 4) is different from (4, 1). (Why?)

So, the number of possible outcomes = $6 \times 6 = 36$.

- (i) The outcomes favourable to the event 'the sum of the two numbers is 8' denoted by E, are: (2, 6), (3, 5), (4, 4), (5, 3), (6, 2) (see Fig. 14.3)

i.e., the number of outcomes favourable to E = 5.

Hence,
$$P(E) = \frac{5}{36}$$

- (ii) As you can see from Fig. 14.3, there is no outcome favourable to the event F, 'the sum of two numbers is 13'.

So,
$$P(F) = \frac{0}{36} = 0$$

- (iii) As you can see from Fig. 14.3, all the outcomes are favourable to the event G, 'sum of two numbers ≤ 12 '.

So,
$$P(G) = \frac{36}{36} = 1$$

EXERCISE 14.1

1. Complete the following statements:
 - (i) Probability of an event E + Probability of the event 'not E ' = _____ .
 - (ii) The probability of an event that cannot happen is _____ . Such an event is called _____ .
 - (iii) The probability of an event that is certain to happen is _____ . Such an event is called _____ .
 - (iv) The sum of the probabilities of all the elementary events of an experiment is _____ .
 - (v) The probability of an event is greater than or equal to _____ and less than or equal to _____ .
2. Which of the following experiments have equally likely outcomes? Explain.
 - (i) A driver attempts to start a car. The car starts or does not start.
 - (ii) A player attempts to shoot a basketball. She/he shoots or misses the shot.
 - (iii) A trial is made to answer a true-false question. The answer is right or wrong.
 - (iv) A baby is born. It is a boy or a girl.
3. Why is tossing a coin considered to be a fair way of deciding which team should get the ball at the beginning of a football game?
4. Which of the following cannot be the probability of an event?
(A) $\frac{2}{3}$ (B) -1.5 (C) 15% (D) 0.7
5. If $P(E) = 0.05$, what is the probability of 'not E '?
6. A bag contains lemon flavoured candies only. Malini takes out one candy without looking into the bag. What is the probability that she takes out
 - (i) an orange flavoured candy?
 - (ii) a lemon flavoured candy?
7. It is given that in a group of 3 students, the probability of 2 students not having the same birthday is 0.992 . What is the probability that the 2 students have the same birthday?
8. A bag contains 3 red balls and 5 black balls. A ball is drawn at random from the bag. What is the probability that the ball drawn is (i) red ? (ii) not red?
9. A box contains 5 red marbles, 8 white marbles and 4 green marbles. One marble is taken out of the box at random. What is the probability that the marble taken out will be (i) red ? (ii) white ? (iii) not green?

10. A piggy bank contains hundred 50p coins, fifty ₹ 1 coins, twenty ₹ 2 coins and ten ₹ 5 coins. If it is equally likely that one of the coins will fall out when the bank is turned upside down, what is the probability that the coin (i) will be a 50 p coin ? (ii) will not be a ₹ 5 coin?

11. Gopi buys a fish from a shop for his aquarium. The shopkeeper takes out one fish at random from a tank containing 5 male fish and 8 female fish (see Fig. 14.4). What is the probability that the fish taken out is a male fish?



Fig. 14.4

12. A game of chance consists of spinning an arrow which comes to rest pointing at one of the numbers 1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, 7, 8 (see Fig. 14.5), and these are equally likely outcomes. What is the probability that it will point at

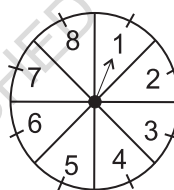


Fig. 14.5

- (i) 8 ?
(ii) an odd number?
(iii) a number greater than 2?
(iv) a number less than 9?
13. A die is thrown once. Find the probability of getting
(i) a prime number; (ii) a number lying between 2 and 6; (iii) an odd number.
14. One card is drawn from a well-shuffled deck of 52 cards. Find the probability of getting
(i) a king of red colour (ii) a face card (iii) a red face card
(iv) the jack of hearts (v) a spade (vi) the queen of diamonds
15. Five cards—the ten, jack, queen, king and ace of diamonds, are well-shuffled with their face downwards. One card is then picked up at random.
(i) What is the probability that the card is the queen?
(ii) If the queen is drawn and put aside, what is the probability that the second card picked up is (a) an ace? (b) a queen?
16. 12 defective pens are accidentally mixed with 132 good ones. It is not possible to just look at a pen and tell whether or not it is defective. One pen is taken out at random from this lot. Determine the probability that the pen taken out is a good one.
17. (i) A lot of 20 bulbs contain 4 defective ones. One bulb is drawn at random from the lot. What is the probability that this bulb is defective?
(ii) Suppose the bulb drawn in (i) is not defective and is not replaced. Now one bulb is drawn at random from the rest. What is the probability that this bulb is not defective ?
18. A box contains 90 discs which are numbered from 1 to 90. If one disc is drawn at random from the box, find the probability that it bears (i) a two-digit number (ii) a perfect square number (iii) a number divisible by 5.

19. A child has a die whose six faces show the letters as given below:



The die is thrown once. What is the probability of getting (i) A? (ii) D?

- 20*. Suppose you drop a die at random on the rectangular region shown in Fig. 14.6. What is the probability that it will land inside the circle with diameter 1 m?

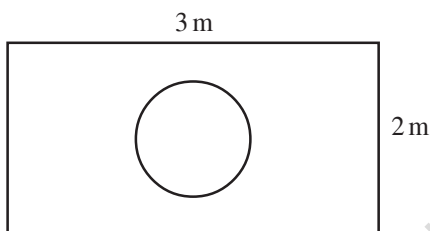


Fig. 14.6

21. A lot consists of 144 ball pens of which 20 are defective and the others are good. Nuri will buy a pen if it is good, but will not buy if it is defective. The shopkeeper draws one pen at random and gives it to her. What is the probability that

- (i) She will buy it ?
(ii) She will not buy it ?

22. Refer to Example 13. (i) Complete the following table:

Event: 'Sum on 2 dice'	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
Probability	$\frac{1}{36}$						$\frac{5}{36}$				$\frac{1}{36}$

- (ii) A student argues that 'there are 11 possible outcomes 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, 7, 8, 9, 10, 11 and 12. Therefore, each of them has a probability $\frac{1}{11}$ '. Do you agree with this argument? Justify your answer.
23. A game consists of tossing a one rupee coin 3 times and noting its outcome each time. Hanif wins if all the tosses give the same result i.e., three heads or three tails, and loses otherwise. Calculate the probability that Hanif will lose the game.
24. A die is thrown twice. What is the probability that
- (i) 5 will not come up either time? (ii) 5 will come up at least once?
- [Hint : Throwing a die twice and throwing two dice simultaneously are treated as the same experiment]

* Not from the examination point of view.

25. Which of the following arguments are correct and which are not correct? Give reasons for your answer.
- (i) If two coins are tossed simultaneously there are three possible outcomes—two heads, two tails or one of each. Therefore, for each of these outcomes, the probability is $\frac{1}{3}$.
 - (ii) If a die is thrown, there are two possible outcomes—an odd number or an even number. Therefore, the probability of getting an odd number is $\frac{1}{2}$.

14.2 Summary

In this chapter, you have studied the following points :

1. The theoretical (classical) probability of an event E, written as $P(E)$, is defined as

$$P(E) = \frac{\text{Number of outcomes favourable to E}}{\text{Number of all possible outcomes of the experiment}}$$

where we assume that the outcomes of the experiment are equally likely.

2. The probability of a sure event (or certain event) is 1.
3. The probability of an impossible event is 0.
4. The probability of an event E is a number $P(E)$ such that

$$0 \leq P(E) \leq 1$$
5. An event having only one outcome is called an elementary event. The sum of the probabilities of all the elementary events of an experiment is 1.
6. For any event E, $P(E) + P(\bar{E}) = 1$, where $\bar{E}$ stands for 'not E'. E and $\bar{E}$ are called complementary events.

A NOTE TO THE READER

The experimental or empirical probability of an event is based on what has actually happened while the theoretical probability of the event attempts to predict what will happen on the basis of certain assumptions. As the number of trials in an experiment, go on increasing we may expect the experimental and theoretical probabilities to be nearly the same.

MATHEMATICAL MODELLING

A2

A2.1 Introduction

- An adult human body contains approximately 1,50,000 km of arteries and veins that carry blood.
- The human heart pumps 5 to 6 litres of blood in the body every 60 seconds.
- The temperature at the surface of the Sun is about $6,000^{\circ}\text{C}$.

Have you ever wondered how our scientists and mathematicians could possibly have estimated these results? Did they pull out the veins and arteries from some adult dead bodies and measure them? Did they drain out the blood to arrive at these results? Did they travel to the Sun with a thermometer to get the temperature of the Sun? Surely not. Then how did they get these figures?

Well, the answer lies in **mathematical modelling**, which we introduced to you in Class IX. Recall that a mathematical model is a mathematical description of some real-life situation. Also, recall that mathematical modelling is the process of creating a mathematical model of a problem, and using it to analyse and solve the problem.

So, in mathematical modelling, we take a real-world problem and convert it to an equivalent mathematical problem. We then solve the mathematical problem, and interpret its solution in the situation of the real-world problem. And then, it is important to see that the solution, we have obtained, ‘makes sense’, which is the stage of validating the model. Some examples, where mathematical modelling is of great importance, are:

- (i) Finding the width and depth of a river at an unreachable place.
- (ii) Estimating the mass of the Earth and other planets.
- (iii) Estimating the distance between Earth and any other planet.
- (iv) Predicting the arrival of the monsoon in a country.

- (v) Predicting the trend of the stock market.
- (vi) Estimating the volume of blood inside the body of a person.
- (vii) Predicting the population of a city after 10 years.
- (viii) Estimating the number of leaves in a tree.
- (ix) Estimating the ppm of different pollutants in the atmosphere of a city.
- (x) Estimating the effect of pollutants on the environment.
- (xi) Estimating the temperature on the Sun's surface.

In this chapter we shall revisit the process of mathematical modelling, and take examples from the world around us to illustrate this. In Section A2.2 we take you through all the stages of building a model. In Section A2.3, we discuss a variety of examples. In Section A2.4, we look at reasons for the importance of mathematical modelling.

A point to remember is that here we aim to make you aware of an important way in which mathematics helps to solve real-world problems. However, you need to know some more mathematics to really appreciate the power of mathematical modelling. In higher classes some examples giving this flavour will be found.

A2.2 Stages in Mathematical Modelling

In Class IX, we considered some examples of the use of modelling. Did they give you an insight into the process and the steps involved in it? Let us quickly revisit the main steps in mathematical modelling.

Step 1 (Understanding the problem) : Define the real problem, and if working in a team, discuss the issues that you wish to understand. Simplify by making assumptions and ignoring certain factors so that the problem is manageable.

For example, suppose our problem is to estimate the number of fishes in a lake. It is not possible to capture each of these fishes and count them. We could possibly capture a sample and from it try and estimate the total number of fishes in the lake.

Step 2 (Mathematical description and formulation) : Describe, in mathematical terms, the different aspects of the problem. Some ways to describe the features mathematically, include:

- define variables
- write equations or inequalities
- gather data and organise into tables
- make graphs
- calculate probabilities

For example, having taken a sample, as stated in Step 1, how do we estimate the entire population? We would have to then mark the sampled fishes, allow them to mix with the remaining ones in the lake, again draw a sample from the lake, and see how many of the previously marked ones are present in the new sample. Then, using ratio and proportion, we can come up with an estimate of the total population. For instance, let us take a sample of 20 fishes from the lake and mark them, and then release them in the same lake, so as to mix with the remaining fishes. We then take another sample (say 50), from the mixed population and see how many are marked. So, we gather our data and analyse it.

One major assumption we are making is that the marked fishes mix uniformly with the remaining fishes, and the sample we take is a good representative of the entire population.

Step 3 (Solving the mathematical problem) : The simplified mathematical problem developed in Step 2 is then solved using various mathematical techniques.

For instance, suppose in the second sample in the example in Step 2, 5 fishes are marked. So, $\frac{5}{50}$, i.e., $\frac{1}{10}$, of the population is marked. If this is typical of the whole population, then $\frac{1}{10}$ th of the population = 20.

So, the whole population = $20 \times 10 = 200$.

Step 4 (Interpreting the solution) : The solution obtained in the previous step is now looked at, in the context of the real-life situation that we had started with in Step 1.

For instance, our solution in the problem in Step 3 gives us the population of fishes as 200.

Step 5 (Validating the model) : We go back to the original situation and see if the results of the mathematical work make sense. If so, we use the model until new information becomes available or assumptions change.

Sometimes, because of the simplification assumptions we make, we may lose essential aspects of the real problem while giving its mathematical description. In such cases, the solution could very often be off the mark, and not make sense in the real situation. If this happens, we reconsider the assumptions made in Step 1 and revise them to be more realistic, possibly by including some factors which were not considered earlier.

For instance, in Step 3 we had obtained an estimate of the entire population of fishes. It may not be the actual number of fishes in the pond. We next see whether this is a good estimate of the population by repeating Steps 2 and 3 a few times, and taking the mean of the results obtained. This would give a closer estimate of the population.

Another way of visualising **the process of mathematical modelling** is shown in Fig. A2.1.

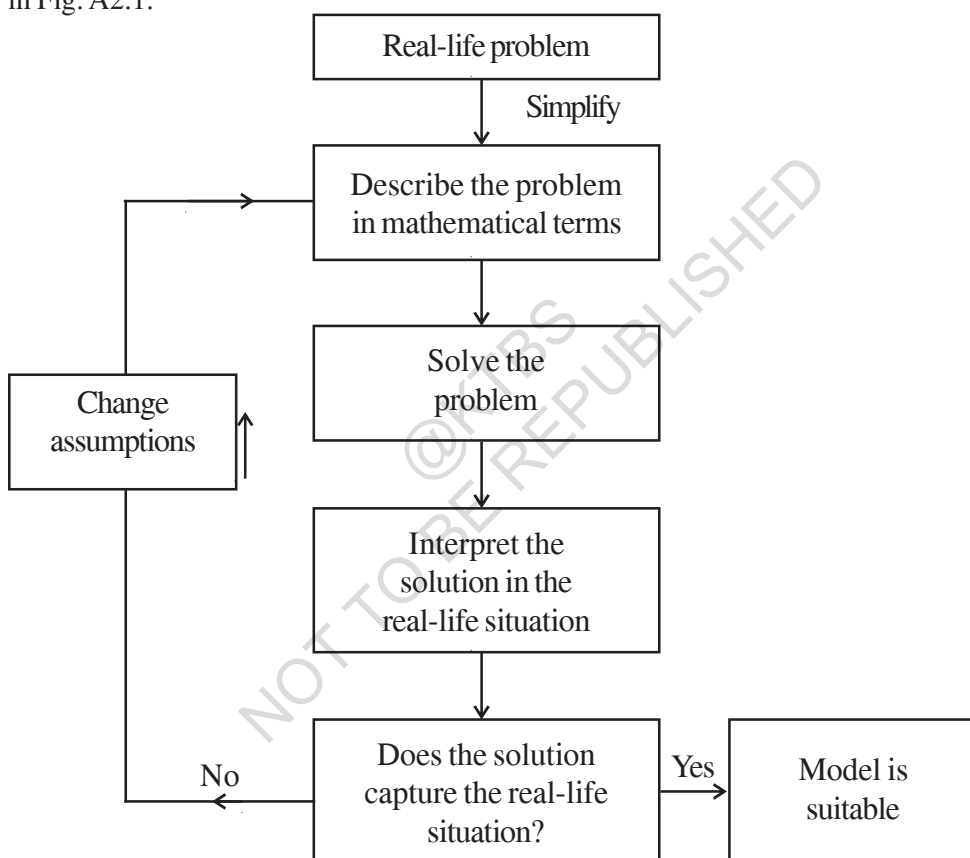


Fig. A2.1

Modellers look for a balance between simplification (for ease of solution) and accuracy. They hope to approximate reality closely enough to make some progress. The best outcome is to be able to predict what will happen, or estimate an outcome, with reasonable accuracy. Remember that different assumptions we use for simplifying the problem can lead to different models. So, there are no perfect models. There are good ones and yet better ones.

EXERCISE A2.1

1. Consider the following situation.

A problem dating back to the early 13th century, posed by Leonardo Fibonacci asks how many rabbits you would have if you started with just two and let them reproduce. Assume that a pair of rabbits produces a pair of offspring each month and that each pair of rabbits produces their first offspring at the age of 2 months. Month by month the number of pairs of rabbits is given by the sum of the rabbits in the two preceding months, except for the 0th and the 1st months.

Month	Pairs of Rabbits
0	1
1	1
2	2
3	3
4	5
5	8
6	13
7	21
8	34
9	55
10	89
11	144
12	233
13	377
14	610
15	987
16	1597

After just 16 months, you have nearly 1600 pairs of rabbits!

Clearly state the problem and the different stages of mathematical modelling in this situation.

A2.3 Some Illustrations

Let us now consider some examples of mathematical modelling.

Example 1 (Rolling of a pair of dice) : Suppose your teacher challenges you to the following guessing game: She would throw a pair of dice. Before that you need to guess the sum of the numbers that show up on the dice. For every correct answer, you get two points and for every wrong guess you lose two points. What numbers would be the best guess?

Solution :

Step 1 (Understanding the problem) : You need to know a few numbers which have higher chances of showing up.

Step 2 (Mathematical description) : In mathematical terms, the problem translates to finding out the probabilities of the various possible sums of numbers that the dice could show.

We can model the situation very simply by representing a roll of the dice as a random choice of one of the following thirty six pairs of numbers.

(1, 1)	(1, 2)	(1, 3)	(1, 4)	(1, 5)	(1, 6)
(2, 1)	(2, 2)	(2, 3)	(2, 4)	(2, 5)	(2, 6)
(3, 1)	(3, 2)	(3, 3)	(3, 4)	(3, 5)	(3, 6)
(4, 1)	(4, 2)	(4, 3)	(4, 4)	(4, 5)	(4, 6)
(5, 1)	(5, 2)	(5, 3)	(5, 4)	(5, 5)	(5, 6)
(6, 1)	(6, 2)	(6, 3)	(6, 4)	(6, 5)	(6, 6)

The first number in each pair represents the number showing on the first die, and the second number is the number showing on the second die.

Step 3 (Solving the mathematical problem) : Summing the numbers in each pair above, we find that possible sums are 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, 7, 8, 9, 10, 11 and 12. We have to find the probability for each of them, assuming all 36 pairs are equally likely.

We do this in the following table.

Sum	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
Probability	$\frac{1}{36}$	$\frac{2}{36}$	$\frac{3}{36}$	$\frac{4}{36}$	$\frac{5}{36}$	$\frac{6}{36}$	$\frac{5}{36}$	$\frac{4}{36}$	$\frac{3}{36}$	$\frac{2}{36}$	$\frac{1}{36}$

Observe that the chance of getting a sum of a seven is $\frac{1}{6}$, which is larger than the chances of getting other numbers as sums.

Step 4 (Interpreting the solution) : Since the probability of getting the sum 7 is the highest, you should repeatedly guess the number seven.

Step 5 (Validating the model) : Toss a pair of dice a large number of times and prepare a relative frequency table. Compare the relative frequencies with the corresponding probabilities. If these are not close, then possibly the dice are biased. Then, we could obtain data to evaluate the number towards which the bias is.

Before going to the next example, you may need some background.

Not having the money you want when you need it, is a common experience for many people. Whether it is having enough money for buying essentials for daily living, or for buying comforts, we always require money. To enable the customers with limited funds to purchase goods like scooters, refrigerators, televisions, cars, etc., a scheme known as an *instalment scheme (or plan)* is introduced by traders.

Sometimes a trader introduces an *instalment* scheme as a marketing strategy to allure customers to purchase these articles. Under the instalment scheme, the customer is not required to make full payment of the article at the time of buying it. She/he is allowed to pay a part of it at the time of purchase, and the rest can be paid in instalments, which could be monthly, quarterly, half-yearly, or even yearly. Of course, the buyer will have to pay more in the instalment plan, because the seller is going to charge some interest on account of the payment made at a later date (called *deferred payment*).

Before we take a few examples to understand the instalment scheme, let us understand the most frequently used terms related to this concept.

The *cash price* of an article is the amount which a customer has to pay as full payment of the article at the time it is purchased. *Cash down payment* is the amount which a customer has to pay as part payment of the price of an article at the time of purchase.

Remark : If the instalment scheme is such that the remaining payment is completely made within one year of the purchase of the article, then simple interest is charged on the deferred payment.

In the past, charging interest on borrowed money was often considered evil, and, in particular, was long prohibited. One way people got around the law against paying interest was to borrow in one currency and repay in another, the interest being disguised in the exchange rate.

Let us now come to a related mathematical modelling problem.

Example 2 : Juhi wants to buy a bicycle. She goes to the market and finds that the bicycle she likes is available for ₹ 1800. Juhi has ₹ 600 with her. So, she tells the shopkeeper that she would not be able to buy it. The shopkeeper, after a bit of calculation, makes the following offer. He tells Juhi that she could take the bicycle by making a payment of ₹ 600 cash down and the remaining money could be made in two monthly instalments of ₹ 610 each. Juhi has two options one is to go for instalment scheme or to make cash payment by taking loan from a bank which is available at the rate of 10% per annum simple interest. Which option is more economical to her?

Solution :

Step 1 (Understanding the problem) : What Juhi needs to determine is whether she should take the offer made by the shopkeeper or not. For this, she should know the two rates of interest—one charged in the instalment scheme and the other charged by the bank (i.e., 10%).

Step 2 (Mathematical description) : In order to accept or reject the scheme, she needs to determine the interest that the shopkeeper is charging in comparison to the bank. Observe that since the entire money shall be paid in less than a year, simple interest shall be charged.

We know that the cash price of the bicycle = ₹ 1800.

Also, the cashdown payment under the instalment scheme = ₹ 600.

So, the balance price that needs to be paid in the instalment scheme = ₹ (1800 – 600) = ₹ 1200.

Let r % per annum be the rate of interest charged by the shopkeeper.

Amount of each instalment = ₹ 610

Amount paid in instalments = ₹ 610 + ₹ 610 = ₹ 1220

Interest paid in instalment scheme = ₹ 1220 – ₹ 1200 = ₹ 20 (1)

Since, Juhi kept a sum of ₹ 1200 for one month, therefore,

Principal for the first month = ₹ 1200

Principal for the second month = ₹ (1200 – 610) = ₹ 590

Balance of the second principal ₹ 590 + interest charged (₹ 20) = monthly instalment (₹ 610) = 2nd instalment

So, the total principal for one month = ₹ 1200 + ₹ 590 = ₹ 1790

Now,
$$\text{interest} = ₹ \frac{1790 \times r \times 1}{100 \times 12} \quad (2)$$

Step 3 (Solving the problem) : From (1) and (2)

$$\frac{1790 \times r \times 1}{100 \times 12} = 20$$

or
$$r = \frac{20 \times 1200}{1790} = 13.14 \text{ (approx.)}$$

Step 4 (Interpreting the solution) : The rate of interest charged in the instalment scheme = 13.14 %.

The rate of interest charged by the bank = 10%

So, she should prefer to borrow the money from the bank to buy the bicycle which is more economical.

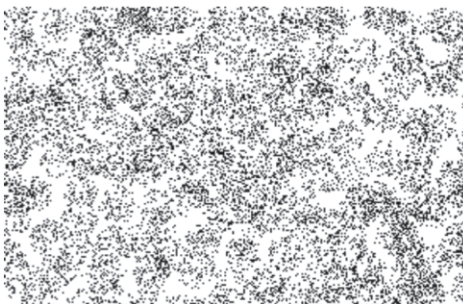
Step 5 (Validating the model) : This stage in this case is not of much importance here as the numbers are fixed. However, if the formalities for taking loan from the bank such as cost of stamp paper, etc., which make the effective interest rate more than what it is the instalment scheme, then she may change her opinion.

Remark : Interest rate modelling is still at its early stages and validation is still a problem of financial markets. In case, different interest rates are incorporated in fixing instalments, validation becomes an important problem.

EXERCISE A2.2

In each of the problems below, show the different stages of mathematical modelling for solving the problems.

1. An ornithologist wants to estimate the number of parrots in a large field. She uses a net to catch some, and catches 32 parrots, which she rings and sets free. The following week she manages to net 40 parrots, of which 8 are ringed.
 - (i) What fraction of her second catch is ringed?
 - (ii) Find an estimate of the total number of parrots in the field.
2. Suppose the adjoining figure represents an aerial photograph of a forest with each dot representing a tree. Your purpose is to find the number of trees there are on this tract of land as part of an environmental census.



3. A T.V. can be purchased for ₹ 24000 cash or for ₹ 8000 cashdown payment and six monthly instalments of ₹ 2800 each. Ali goes to market to buy a T.V., and he has ₹ 8000 with him. He has now two options. One is to buy TV under instalment scheme or to make cash payment by taking loan from some financial society. The society charges simple interest at the rate of 18% per annum simple interest. Which option is better for Ali?

A2.4 Why is Mathematical Modelling Important?

As we have seen in the examples, mathematical modelling is an interdisciplinary subject. Mathematicians and specialists in other fields share their knowledge and expertise to improve existing products, develop better ones, or predict the behaviour of certain products.

There are, of course, many specific reasons for the importance of modelling, but most are related in some ways to the following :

- *To gain understanding.* If we have a mathematical model which reflects the essential behaviour of a real-world system of interest, we can understand that system better through an analysis of the model. Furthermore, in the process of building the model we find out which factors are most important in the system, and how the different aspects of the system are related.
- *To predict, or forecast, or simulate.* Very often, we wish to know what a real-world system will do in the future, but it is expensive, impractical or impossible to experiment directly with the system. For example, in weather prediction, to study drug efficacy in humans, finding an optimum design of a nuclear reactor, and so on.

Forecasting is very important in many types of organisations, since predictions of future events have to be incorporated into the decision-making process. For example:

In marketing departments, reliable forecasts of demand help in planning of the sale strategies.

A school board needs to be able to forecast the increase in the number of school going children in various districts so as to decide where and when to start new schools.

Most often, forecasters use the past data to predict the future. They first analyse the data in order to identify a pattern that can describe it. Then this data and pattern is extended into the future in order to prepare a forecast. This basic strategy is employed in most forecasting techniques, and is based on the assumption that the pattern that has been identified will continue in the future also.

- *To estimate.* Often, we need to estimate large values. You've seen examples of the trees in a forest, fish in a lake, etc. For another example, before elections, the contesting parties want to predict the probability of their party winning the elections. In particular, they want to estimate how many people in their constituency would vote for their party. Based on their predictions, they may want to decide on the campaign strategy. Exit polls have been used widely to predict the number of seats, a party is expected to get in elections.

EXERCISE A2.3

1. Based upon the data of the past five years, try and forecast the average percentage of marks in Mathematics that your school would obtain in the Class X board examination at the end of the year.

A2.5 Summary

In this Appendix, you have studied the following points :

1. A mathematical model is a mathematical description of a real-life situation. Mathematical modelling is the process of creating a mathematical model, solving it and using it to understand the real-life problem.
2. The various steps involved in modelling are : understanding the problem, formulating the mathematical model, solving it, interpreting it in the real-life situation, and, most importantly, validating the model.
3. Developed some mathematical models.
4. The importance of mathematical modelling.

ANSWERS/HINTS

EXERCISE 8.1

1. (i) $\sin A = \frac{7}{25}$, $\cos A = \frac{24}{25}$ (ii) $\sin C = \frac{24}{25}$, $\cos C = \frac{7}{25}$
2. 0 3. $\cos A = \frac{\sqrt{7}}{4}$, $\tan A = \frac{3}{\sqrt{7}}$ 4. $\sin A = \frac{15}{17}$, $\sec A = \frac{17}{8}$
5. $\sin \theta = \frac{5}{13}$, $\cos \theta = \frac{12}{13}$, $\tan \theta = \frac{5}{12}$, $\cot \theta = \frac{12}{5}$, $\operatorname{cosec} \theta = \frac{13}{5}$
7. (i) $\frac{49}{64}$ (ii) $\frac{49}{64}$ 8. Yes
9. (i) 1 (ii) 0 10. $\sin P = \frac{12}{13}$, $\cos P = \frac{5}{13}$, $\tan P = \frac{12}{5}$
11. (i) False (ii) True (iii) False (iv) False (v) False

EXERCISE 8.2

1. (i) 1 (ii) 2 (iii) $\frac{3\sqrt{2} - \sqrt{6}}{8}$ (iv) $\frac{43 - 24\sqrt{3}}{11}$ (v) $\frac{67}{12}$
2. (i) A (ii) D (iii) A (iv) C 3. $\angle A = 45^\circ$, $\angle B = 15^\circ$
4. (i) False (ii) True (iii) False (iv) False (v) True

EXERCISE 8.3

$$1. \sin A = \frac{1}{\sqrt{1 + \cot^2 A}}, \tan A = \frac{1}{\cot A}, \sec A = \frac{\sqrt{1 + \cot^2 A}}{\cot A}$$

$$2. \sin A = \frac{\sqrt{\sec^2 A - 1}}{\sec A}, \cos A = \frac{1}{\sec A}, \tan A = \sqrt{\sec^2 A - 1}$$

$$\cot A = \frac{1}{\sqrt{\sec^2 A - 1}}, \operatorname{cosec} A = \frac{\sec A}{\sqrt{\sec^2 A - 1}}$$

3. (i) B (ii) C (iii) D (iv) D

EXERCISE 9.1

1. 10m 2. $8\sqrt{3}$ m 3. 3m, $2\sqrt{3}$ m 4. $10\sqrt{3}$ m
 5. $40\sqrt{3}$ m 6. $19\sqrt{3}$ m 7. $20(\sqrt{3} - 1)$ m 8. $0.8(\sqrt{3} + 1)$ m
 9. $16\frac{2}{3}$ m 10. $20\sqrt{3}$ m, 20m, 60m 11. $10\sqrt{3}$ m, 10m 12. $7(\sqrt{3} + 1)$ m
 13. $75(\sqrt{3} - 1)$ m 14. $58\sqrt{3}$ m 15. 3 seconds

EXERCISE 10.1

1. Infinitely many
 2. (i) One (ii) Secant (iii) Two (iv) Point of contact 3. D

EXERCISE 10.2

1. A 2. B 3. A 6. 3cm
 7. 8 cm 12. AB = 15 cm, AC = 13 cm

EXERCISE 11.1

1. $\frac{132}{7} \text{ cm}^2$
2. $\frac{77}{8} \text{ cm}^2$
3. $\frac{154}{3} \text{ cm}^2$
4. (i) 28.5 cm^2 (ii) 235.5 cm^2
5. (i) 22 cm (ii) 231 cm^2 (iii) $\left(231 - \frac{441\sqrt{3}}{4}\right) \text{ cm}^2$
6. 20.4375 cm^2 ; 686.0625 cm^2
7. 88.44 cm^2
8. (i) 19.625 m^2 (ii) 58.875 cm^2
9. (i) 285 mm (ii) $\frac{385}{4} \text{ mm}^2$
10. $\frac{22275}{28} \text{ cm}^2$
11. $\frac{158125}{126} \text{ cm}^2$
12. 189.97 km^2
13. ₹ 162.68
14. D

EXERCISE 12.1

1. 160 cm^2
2. 572 cm^2
3. 214.5 cm^2
4. Greatest diameter = 7 cm, surface area = 332.5 cm^2
5. $\frac{1}{4} l^2 (\pi + 24)$
6. 220 mm^2
7. 44 m^2 , ₹ 22000
8. 18 cm^2
9. 374 cm^2

EXERCISE 12.2

1. $\pi \text{ cm}^3$
2. 66 cm^3 . Volume of the air inside the model = Volume of air inside (cone + cylinder + cone)
 $= \left(\frac{1}{3} \pi r^2 h_1 + \pi r^2 h_2 + \frac{1}{3} \pi r^2 h_1 \right)$, where r is the radius of the cone and the cylinder, h_1 is the height (length) of the cone and h_2 is the height (length) of the cylinder.

$$\text{Required Volume} = \frac{1}{3} \pi r^2 (h_1 + 3h_2 + h_1).$$

3. 338 cm^3
4. 523.53 cm^3
5. 100
6. 892.26 kg
7. 1.131 m^3 (approx.)
8. Not correct. Correct answer is 346.51 cm^3 .

EXERCISE 13.1

- 8.1 plants. We have used direct method because numerical values of x_i and f_i are small.
- ₹ 545.20
- $f = 20$
- 75.9
- 57.19
- ₹ 211
- 0.099 ppm
- 12.48 days
- 69.43 %

EXERCISE 13.2

- Mode = 36.8 years, Mean = 35.37 years. Maximum number of patients admitted in the hospital are of the age 36.8 years (approx.), while on an average the age of a patient admitted to the hospital is 35.37 years.
- 65.625 hours
- Modal monthly expenditure = ₹ 1847.83, Mean monthly expenditure = ₹ 2662.5.
- Mode : 30.6, Mean = 29.2. Most states/U.T. have a student teacher ratio of 30.6 and on an average, this ratio is 29.2.
- Mode = 4608.7 runs
- Mode = 44.7 cars

EXERCISE 13.3

- Median = 137 units, Mean = 137.05 units, Mode = 135.76 units.
The three measures are approximately the same in this case.
- $x = 8, y = 7$
- Median age = 35.76 years
- Median length = 146.75 mm
- Median life = 3406.98 hours
- Median = 8.05, Mean = 8.32, Modal size = 7.88
- Median weight = 56.67 kg

EXERCISE 14.1

- (i) 1 (ii) 0, impossible event (iii) 1, sure or certain event
(iv) 1 (v) 0, 1
- The experiments (iii) and (iv) have equally likely outcomes.
- When we toss a coin, the outcomes head and tail are equally likely. So, the result of an individual coin toss is completely unpredictable.
- B
- 0.95
- (i) 0 (ii) 1
- 0.008
- (i) $\frac{3}{8}$ (ii) $\frac{5}{8}$
- (i) $\frac{5}{17}$ (ii) $\frac{8}{17}$ (iii) $\frac{13}{17}$
- (i) $\frac{5}{9}$ (ii) $\frac{17}{18}$

11. $\frac{5}{13}$

12. (i) $\frac{1}{8}$ (ii) $\frac{1}{2}$ (iii) $\frac{3}{4}$ (iv) 1

13. (i) $\frac{1}{2}$ (ii) $\frac{1}{2}$ (iii) $\frac{1}{2}$

14. (i) $\frac{1}{26}$ (ii) $\frac{3}{13}$ (iii) $\frac{3}{26}$ (iv) $\frac{1}{52}$ (v) $\frac{1}{4}$ (vi) $\frac{1}{52}$

15. (i) $\frac{1}{5}$ (ii) (a) $\frac{1}{4}$ (b) 0 16. $\frac{11}{12}$

17. (i) $\frac{1}{5}$ (ii) $\frac{15}{19}$ 18. (i) $\frac{9}{10}$ (ii) $\frac{1}{10}$ (iii) $\frac{1}{5}$

19. (i) $\frac{1}{3}$ (ii) $\frac{1}{6}$ 20. $\frac{\pi}{24}$ 21. (i) $\frac{31}{36}$ (ii) $\frac{5}{36}$

22. (i)

Sum on 2 dice	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
Probability	$\frac{1}{36}$	$\frac{2}{36}$	$\frac{3}{36}$	$\frac{4}{36}$	$\frac{5}{36}$	$\frac{6}{36}$	$\frac{5}{36}$	$\frac{4}{36}$	$\frac{3}{36}$	$\frac{2}{36}$	$\frac{1}{36}$

(ii) No. The eleven sums are not equally likely.

23. $\frac{3}{4}$; Possible outcomes are : HHH, TTT, HHT, HTH, HTT, THH, THT, TTH. Here, THH means tail in the first toss, head on the second toss and head on the third toss and so on.

24. (i) $\frac{25}{36}$ (ii) $\frac{11}{36}$

25. (i) Incorrect. We can classify the outcomes like this but they are not then 'equally likely'. Reason is that 'one of each' can result in two ways — from a head on first coin and tail on the second coin or from a tail on the first coin and head on the second coin. This makes it twice as likely as two heads (or two tails).

(ii) Correct. The two outcomes considered in the question are equally likely.

EXERCISE A2.2

1. (i) $\frac{1}{5}$ (ii) 160
2. Take 1 cm^2 area and count the number of dots in it. Total number of trees will be the product of this number and the area (in cm^2).
3. Rate of interest in instalment scheme is 17.74 %, which is less than 18 %.

EXERCISE A2.3

1. Students find their own answers.

@KTBS
NOT TO BE REPUBLISHED

NOTES

@KTBS
NOT TO BE REPUBLISHED

NOTES

@KTBS
NOT TO BE REPUBLISHED